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Controlled transport of Cold Atoms in a Hollow-Core Fiber

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Abstract

This work presents the design, implementation and characterization of an Optical Dipole Trap (ODT) for capturing cold ^{87}Rb atoms from a Magneto-Optical Trap (MOT) and optical molasses setup.

The ODT has been realized by coupling 1064 nm laser light into a Hollow-Core Photonic Crystal Fiber (HCPCF). Due to the inherently multimodal nature of these fibers, light injection is highly sensitive to misalignment. Monitoring the near-field at the fiber output was found to be the most effective alignment procedure. For this purpose, a near-field imaging system was built to optimize the light injection, achieving a coupling efficiency of 96% with an LP -like fundamental mode profile in test fibers.

Subsequent characterization of the in-vacuum fiber revealed mode degradation and reduced transmission efficiency, likely due to mechanical stress from the vacuum seals.

The temperature of the optical molasses was minimized by systematically tuning the cooling beam detuning and intensity, and the compensation coil currents used to cancel external magnetic fields. A minimum temperature of $T = (9.6 \pm 0.1) \mu\text{K}$ was achieved.

Finally, the loading efficiency from the molasses into the ODT was optimized. After the MOT loading phase, the compensation coils were used to shift the atomic cloud's position, increasing the spatial overlap with the ODT beam. A loading efficiency of $(0.160 \pm 0.005)\%$ was achieved. This result is of the same order of magnitude as the expected value of $(0.41 \pm 0.04)\%$, calculated using the non-shallow trap model proposed in this thesis. The obtained efficiency is sufficient for the subsequent realization of an optical conveyor belt to effectively load the atoms into the fiber's core.

This work establishes a reliable experimental starting point for introducing the second, counter-propagating 1064 nm beam, necessary to realize the optical conveyor belt.

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Introduction

The work presented in this thesis was conducted in the cold atoms laboratory of Professors Francesco Minardi and Marco Prevedelli at the Department of Physics and Astronomy "A. Righi" of the University of Bologna. The primary objective of the experiment is to study a quantum system consisting of a cold rubidium-87 (^{87}Rb) gas loaded into the core of a Hollow-Core Photonic Crystal Fiber (HCPCF). By confining atoms directly within their hollow core, HCPCFs enable tight spatial confinement and strong atom-light interactions over macroscopic distances, establishing a highly versatile platform for advanced quantum technologies. Potential applications for the fiber-atoms system include the realization of highly sensitive, miniaturized quantum sensors (such as atomic magnetometers and interferometers), as well as the realization of quantum memories, which constitute the fundamental building blocks for future quantum networks.

Loading cold atoms into an HCPCF requires an efficient intermediate trapping and transfer mechanism. As a starting point, the source of these cold atoms is provided by a pre-existing setup utilizing a Magneto-Optical Trap (MOT) followed by an optical molasses phase, preparing a cold, sub-Doppler atomic sample. To efficiently load the atoms into the HCPCF, an optical conveyor belt is required. This system is realized by using two counter-propagating Optical Dipole Trap (ODT) beams that interfere to create a standing wave. Tuning the relative frequency of the two branches allows the standing wave to become dynamic, enabling the controlled transport of the cold atoms. Furthermore, the standing wave provides the necessary axial confinement inside the optical fiber's core. This thesis details the implementation and optimization of the first 1064 nm ODT beam, which represents the starting point for the implementation of the complete transfer mechanism.

The thesis is structured as follows:

Chapter 1 establishes the theoretical framework underpinning the experiment. It begins with the physics of optical waveguides, deriving the Linearly Polarized (LP) modes for standard step-index fibers in the weakly guiding approximation. It then introduces HCPCFs, contrasting the Photonic Band Gap (PBG) and Inhibited Coupling (IC) guiding mechanisms. Finally, it reviews the semiclassical theory of the optical dipole force, deriving the conservative trapping potential and scattering rates for multi-level alkali atoms.

Chapter 2 details the experimental apparatus and the analytical methodologies. Following an overview of the vacuum chamber, the MOT, and the laser frequency stabilization systems, it describes the implementation of the 1064 nm ODT setup. This includes the spatial characterization of the ODT laser beam, the design of the optical injection line, and the development of a custom horizontal microscope to monitor the near-field mode to optimize the coupling into the HCPCF. It also describes two theoretical models to calculate a reference ODT capture efficiency in shallow and non-shallow trap regimes. Finally, this chapter outlines the experimental and analytical procedure employed for obtaining the results summarized in the last chapter.

Chapter 3 presents the experimental results and their discussion. It first reports the systematic minimization of the optical molasses temperature. Subsequently, it details the tuning of the compensation magnetic fields required to maximize the spatial overlap between the atomic cloud and the ODT beam, ultimately optimizing the capture efficiency and comparing the experimental results with the theoretical predictions.

0.0.1 Hollow-Core Fibers and Cold Atoms

The integration of laser-cooled neutral atoms with hollow-core optical fibers enables enhanced light-matter interactions compared with conventional free-space geometries. The advantages of this approach arise from the limitations imposed by diffraction in tightly focused optical fields.

In a free-space optical dipole trap, atoms are confined near the focus of a laser beam. The atom-light interaction is determined by two competing length scales. A small beam waist w_0 provides strong transverse confinement and increases the local intensity, enhancing the coupling per atom. However, diffraction limits the distance over which such confinement is maintained. This characteristic length is given by the Rayleigh range:

$$z_R = \frac{\pi w_0^2}{\lambda}. \quad (1)$$

Therefore, reducing w_0 to increase the transverse confinement also decreases z_R proportionally to w_0^2 , limiting the achievable interaction length. This diffraction-induced trade-off prevents the simultaneous optimization of transverse confinement and longitudinal interaction length in free-space atom optics.

Hollow-core fibers overcome this limitation by confining atoms within a guided optical mode [1]. Unlike a freely propagating beam, the guided mode is an eigenmode of the waveguide and its transverse profile is maintained by the cladding microstructure. As a result, strong transverse confinement can be preserved over macroscopic propagation distances, from centimeters to meters, without being limited by the Rayleigh range. The interaction length is therefore decoupled from diffraction, while the confined core mode

maintains a high atom–light coupling per unit length.

Applications. The combination of strong confinement, long interaction lengths, and efficient coupling between atoms and guided modes enables applications in both quantum technologies and fundamental studies. In metrology, these properties improve the performance of compact quantum sensors, including atomic magnetometers and matter-wave interferometers, by increasing interrogation times and enhancing light–matter coupling [2]. In quantum optics, the quasi-one-dimensional geometry provided by hollow-core fibers enables the investigation of collective emission phenomena, such as subradiance and superradiance [3], and provides a platform for efficient quantum memories and strongly correlated many-body systems [1].

Chapter 1

Theoretical Background

This chapter provides an overview of the theoretical background underlying the main topics addressed in this thesis.

In the first part, an introduction to hollow-core fibers is presented, emphasizing their distinctive light-guiding mechanisms. This is followed by an overview of atomic trapping techniques, starting from the magneto-optical trap (MOT) and the optical dipole trap, outlining the fundamental principles that enable the cooling and confinement of neutral atoms.

Building on these concepts, more advanced manipulation techniques are then discussed. Specifically, the concept of the optical conveyor belt is introduced, demonstrating how moving optical lattices allow for the controlled transport of atoms. Finally, the theoretical principles of electromagnetically induced transparency (EIT) cooling are presented, highlighting its potential for achieving sub-Doppler temperatures inside the fiber core.

1.1 Hollow-Core Photonic Crystal Fibers

1.1.1 From Conventional to Hollow-Core Optical Fibers

A conventional optical fiber guides light through Total Internal Reflection (TIR). In a step-index fiber, a solid dielectric core of refractive index n_{core} is surrounded by a cladding of lower index n_{clad} , with $n_{\text{core}} > n_{\text{clad}}$. When light propagating inside the core meets the core-cladding interface at an angle steeper than the critical angle $\theta_c = \arcsin(n_{\text{clad}}/n_{\text{core}})$, it is fully reflected and remains trapped within the core over macroscopic distances. Standard telecommunications fibers, based on a silica core ($n \approx 1.45$) slightly doped to increase its index with respect to the cladding, are a well-known example of this guiding mechanism and form the basis of modern optical networks.

A hollow, air- or gas-filled core, where $n_{\text{core}} \approx 1 < n_{\text{clad}} \approx 1.45$, therefore cannot guide by TIR, since the index hierarchy is reversed. However, it would allow light to propagate

through a medium far less dispersive, less nonlinear, and less absorptive than silica, while simultaneously opening the core to atoms, gases, and particles for which a solid core is a physical barrier. The central challenge of hollow-core fiber (HCF) technology is therefore to find a confinement mechanism that does not rely on an index hierarchy between core and cladding.

Hollow-core guidance was first attempted in the 1980s and 1990s using metal-coated waveguides and simple glass capillaries, but these suffered from high losses due to the lack of an efficient low-loss cladding. This limitation was overcome with the invention of the solid-core photonic crystal fiber (PCF) in 1996, whose concept was extended to hollow cores in 1999 with the first hollow-core photonic bandgap fibers (HC-PBGFs), where light confinement is achieved through the photonic bandgap of a periodically microstructured cladding [4].

Alternative designs were therefore developed, including Kagome-lattice hollow-core fibers, introduced in 2002. In these structures, light confinement does not rely on a bandgap but on suppressed coupling between core and cladding modes (see Section 1.1.2). Further improvements were achieved around 2010 with the introduction of negative-curvature (hypocycloid) core boundaries, which significantly reduce confinement losses. This approach led to simplified antiresonant fiber (ARF) designs and, more recently, to nested antiresonant nodeless fibers (NANFs).

The main milestones in this development are summarized in Fig. 1.1. The evolution of these structures can be understood through two main trends: the progressive simplification of the cladding geometry and the transition between different light-confinement mechanisms.

1.1.2 Photonic Bandgap and Inhibited Coupling Guiding Mechanisms

The theoretical description of HCPCFs parallels concepts developed in condensed matter physics. In a crystalline solid, the periodic potential experienced by electrons gives rise to allowed energy bands separated by forbidden gaps in which no electronic states can exist. The photonic analogue replaces the periodic electronic potential with a periodic dielectric modulation: the cladding of an HCPCF is a two-dimensional photonic crystal, and the hollow core introduces a structural defect, much like a vacancy or impurity in a semiconductor. Solving the electromagnetic wave equation in the presence of this periodic structure yields eigenmodes organized in bands, with the possibility of forbidden spectral regions in which the cladding does not support propagating modes.

Mathematically, this is cast as an eigenvalue problem for the mode amplitudes, which take the form $E \propto e^{i\beta z}$ along the fiber axis z , where β is the longitudinal propagation constant. The set of allowed solutions defines the Density of Photonic States (DOPS),

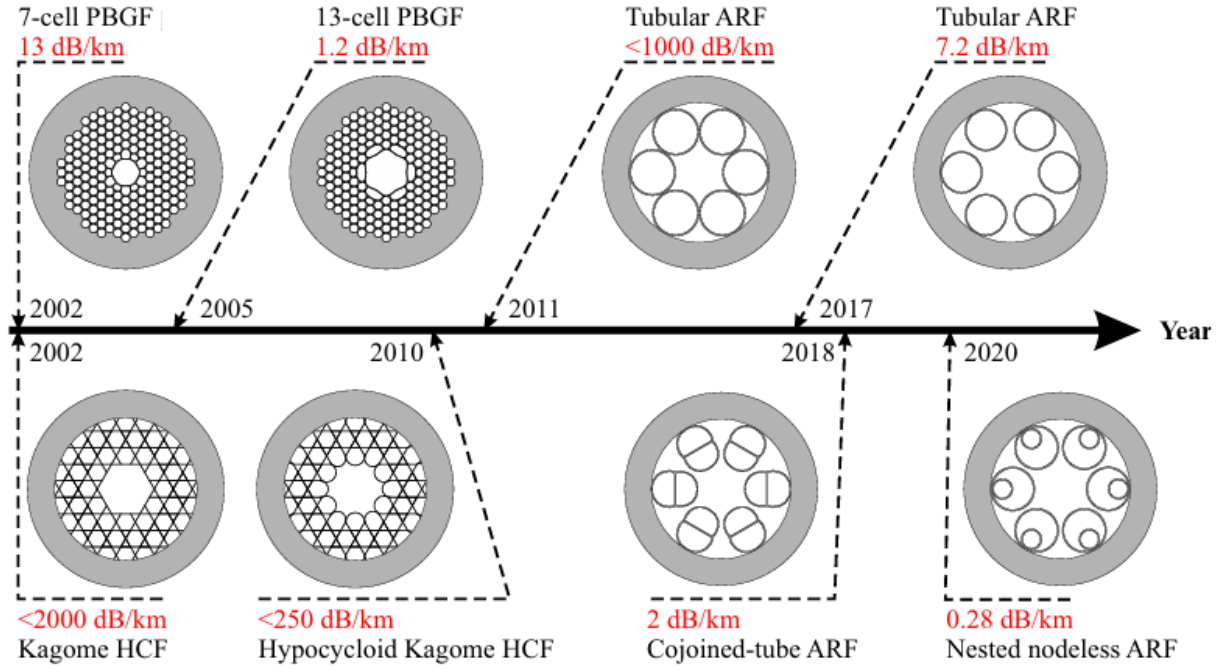


Figure 1.1: *Timeline illustrating the structural evolution of hollow-core optical fibers. The progression highlights the transition from early photonic bandgap fibers (PBGF) to advanced antiresonant architectures (ARF), including Kagome, cojoined-tube, and nested nodeless designs. Attenuation values are given for the wavelength of 1550 nm. Credits [4].*

conventionally expressed in terms of the effective refractive index $n_{\text{eff}} = \beta/k_0$, where $k_0 = \omega/c$ is the vacuum wavenumber [5]. A diagram of the DOPS in the (n_{eff}, ω) plane plays, for photons, the same role that a band structure diagram plays for electrons: it identifies which modes can exist at a given frequency and effective index.

Based on the structure of the DOPS, HCPCFs are divided into two distinct guiding regimes: Photonic Band Gap (PBG) and Inhibited Coupling (IC), schematically compared in Fig. 1.2 together with conventional TIR guidance.

Photonic Band Gap (PBG) guidance. In PBG fibers, the periodic cladding is engineered so that for certain ranges of (ω, n_{eff}) the DOPS is zero: no propagating cladding modes exist, and these forbidden regions are the photonic bandgaps. Guidance is achieved by introducing a hollow-core defect whose localized optical mode falls within one of these gaps: the core mode cannot leak into the surrounding structure because there are no available cladding states to couple into at that effective index [7]. PBG fibers deliver extremely low confinement losses, but their transmission is restricted to the narrow spectral bandwidth of the bandgap itself. For applications requiring the simultaneous guidance of widely separated wavelengths, for instance, multiple atomic transitions co-propagating in the same fiber, this narrowness becomes a limitation.

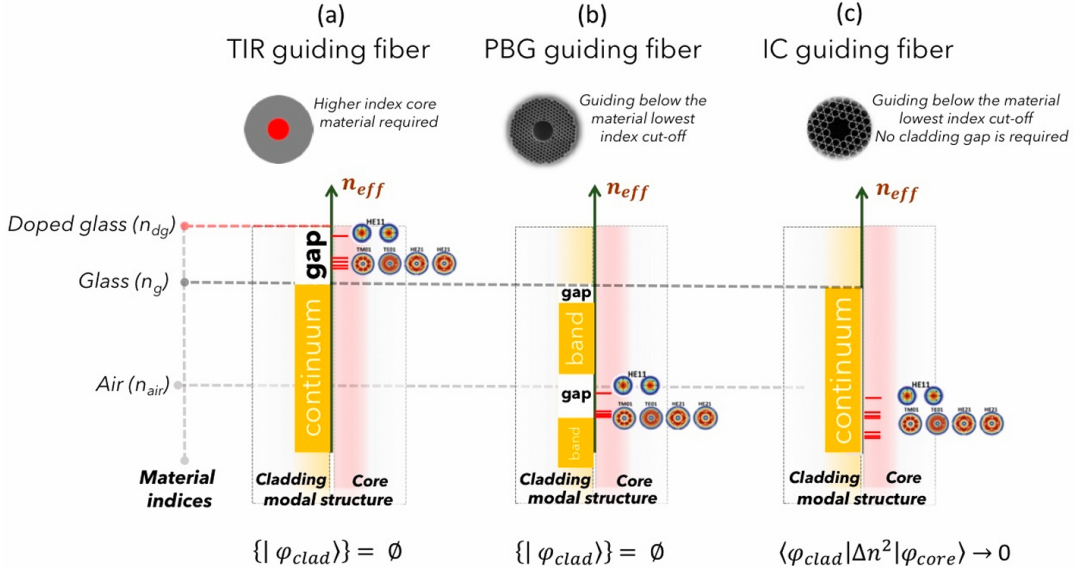


Figure 1.2: Schematic comparison of the internal reflection, PBG and IC guiding mechanisms. The effective index n_{eff} is plotted on the vertical axis, with the relevant index levels marked by horizontal dashed lines. The graphs display the cladding photonic bands versus n_{eff} , highlighting the core guidance regimes through continua (orange rectangles) and bandgaps (white rectangles). For TIR and PBG fibers, core modes are guided within the gaps. In contrast, IC fibers exhibit no bandgaps, and guidance occurs alongside the cladding mode continuum. Credits [6].

Inhibited Coupling (IC) guidance. Unlike photonic bandgap fibers, IC fibers do not require a forbidden spectral region in the cladding; instead, the core mode coexists with a continuum of cladding modes of similar effective refractive index n_{eff} , and confinement is achieved by suppressing the coupling between them. By treating the silica microstructure as a local dielectric perturbation $\Delta n^2(x, y)$ introduced into a uniform vacuum background, the interaction between a core mode $|\varphi_{\text{core}}\rangle$ and a cladding mode $|\varphi_{\text{clad}}\rangle$ can be described by the overlap integral [6]

$$\langle \varphi_{\text{clad}} | \Delta n^2 | \varphi_{\text{core}} \rangle = \iint_{\text{cross-section}} \varphi_{\text{clad}}^*(x, y) \Delta n^2(x, y) \varphi_{\text{core}}(x, y) dx dy. \quad (1.1)$$

In this expression, the term Δn^2 restricts the interaction to the physical regions where the silica glass is present. Whenever the fiber geometry is engineered to suppress this integral, the core mode uncouples from the cladding and remains tightly confined.

This behavior is closely related to a Bound State in the Continuum (BIC), a concept introduced by von Neumann and Wigner in 1929 [8] to describe a localized state that remains confined due to symmetry or destructive interference despite its energy lying within a continuous spectrum of radiative states.

Two mechanisms can drive the integral in Eq. 1.1 toward zero. The first is a *reduced spatial overlap*: if the core and cladding fields occupy largely disjoint regions of the transverse

plane, the integrand is small everywhere and so is the integral. The second is a *transverse phase mismatch*, which is best seen by decomposing each mode into azimuthal harmonics, $\varphi(r, \theta) = \sum_m A_m R_m(r) e^{im\theta}$. Substituting into Eq. 1.1 separates the integral into a radial part and an azimuthal part,

$$\langle \varphi_{\text{clad}} | \Delta n^2 | \varphi_{\text{core}} \rangle \propto \int_{r_1}^{r_2} R_{\text{clad}}(r) R_{\text{core}}^*(r) r dr \times \int_0^{2\pi} e^{i(m_{\text{clad}} - m_{\text{core}})\theta} d\theta, \quad (1.2)$$

where m_{clad} and m_{core} are the azimuthal indices of the two modes. The azimuthal integral vanishes whenever $m_{\text{clad}} \neq m_{\text{core}}$: modes with different azimuthal order are orthogonal, and their coupling is suppressed by symmetry regardless of their spatial overlap [6].¹ By engineering the cladding geometry so that the cladding modes carry a high azimuthal index m while the fundamental core mode has $m \approx 0$, the phase-mismatch term in Eq. 1.2 drives the coupling to zero over a broad spectral range.

Because IC guidance is based on local mode interactions rather than on a global photonic bandgap, IC fibers can provide broadband transmission compared with PBG fibers, whose bandwidth is limited by the spectral range of the bandgap [6].

1.1.3 Kagome-Lattice Hollow-Core Fibers

The Kagome-lattice fiber is a primary realization of the Inhibited Coupling guiding mechanism [6]. Its cladding is a trihexagonal tiling, formed by a network of thin silica capillaries that create a periodic pattern of large hexagonal and smaller triangular interstitial air holes (see Fig. 1.3a).

Confinement in this regime is achieved through the two suppression strategies identified in Section 1.1.2. The thin silica struts support cladding modes with a highly oscillatory transverse phase, characterized by a high azimuthal index number m , while the fundamental core mode features a slowly varying, nearly Gaussian profile with $m \approx 0$. The strong mismatch in m makes the azimuthal integral in Eq. 1.2 vanish, so that the core mode cannot couple into the surrounding glass network despite the spectral overlap with the cladding continuum.

This coupling suppression is not, however, absolute across the entire spectrum. The silica struts behave as thin dielectric slabs, and at the wavelengths for which a slab becomes resonant its transverse phase matches that of the core mode leading to hybridization. These discrete resonances produce the sharp loss peaks visible in Fig. 1.3b. Their location follows from the transverse resonance condition of a dielectric slab of thickness t and index n_g surrounded by air. Requiring the optical round-trip phase inside the slab to

¹In an idealized axisymmetric model, the azimuthal integral vanishes for modes with different azimuthal indices. In a real Kagome fiber, the discrete cladding geometry breaks perfect cylindrical symmetry, so the suppression of coupling is approximate and depends on the detailed modal overlap and phase matching.

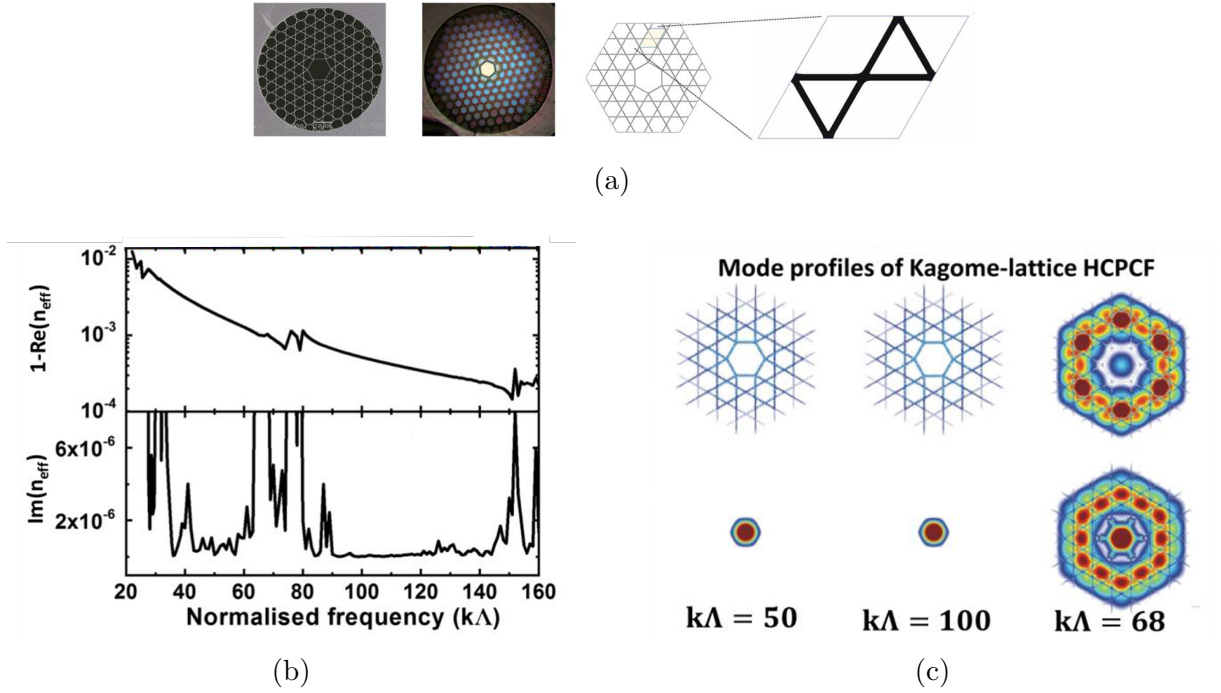


Figure 1.3: *Overview of guidance in a hypocycloid-core Kagome fiber. (a) Scanning electron microscopy micrographs and structural unit cell. (b) Real and imaginary parts of the effective index of the fundamental core mode as a function of the normalized frequency $k\Lambda$: $\text{Im}(n_{\text{eff}})$, proportional to the propagation loss, stays close to a low floor except at a series of sharp resonance peaks. (c) Transverse intensity profile of the same mode at three representative frequencies: tight confinement at $k\Lambda = 50$ and $k\Lambda = 100$, and loss of confinement at the resonance $k\Lambda = 68$. Credits [6].*

be an integer multiple of 2π , and accounting for the phase accumulated at the air–glass interfaces at grazing incidence (the regime relevant to a hollow core), i.e.

$$2 \left(\frac{2\pi}{\lambda} \sqrt{n_g^2 - 1} \right) t = 2\pi j, \quad (1.3)$$

yields the resonance condition [6]

$$\lambda_j = \frac{2t\sqrt{n_g^2 - 1}}{j}, \quad j = 1, 2, 3, \dots, \quad (1.4)$$

where j is the radial mode order of the strut. Equivalently, in terms of the normalized frequency $k\Lambda = (2\pi/\lambda)\Lambda$,

$$k\Lambda = \frac{j\pi\Lambda}{t\sqrt{n_g^2 - 1}}. \quad (1.5)$$

At these wavelengths the strut is resonant and transmits rather than reflects the transverse field, so the core mode leaks into the cladding and the confinement breaks down, as shown at $k\Lambda = 68$ in Fig. 1.3c. Between consecutive resonances the slab is antiresonant and acts as a high reflector: the m -mismatch is restored and the light is tightly localized

in the core (e.g. at $k\Lambda = 50$ or 100). Because the resonance wavelengths scale linearly with t , fabricating fibers with nanoscale glass webs pushes the resonances toward shorter wavelengths, thereby opening ultra-broadband transmission windows in the spectral region of interest.

To reduce confinement loss the core boundary can be engineered with a hypocycloidal (or negative-curvature) profile by incorporating a series of inward-pointing glass arcs (as depicted in Fig. 1.1). This geometry increases the phase mismatch and reduces the overlap between the core mode and the surrounding silica. [6].

Higher order modes Similar to standard hollow capillaries and conventional fibers, the core of a Kagome IC fiber supports multiple transverse modes, denoted by the $LP_{m,n}$ notation where m and n represent the azimuthal and radial mode numbers.

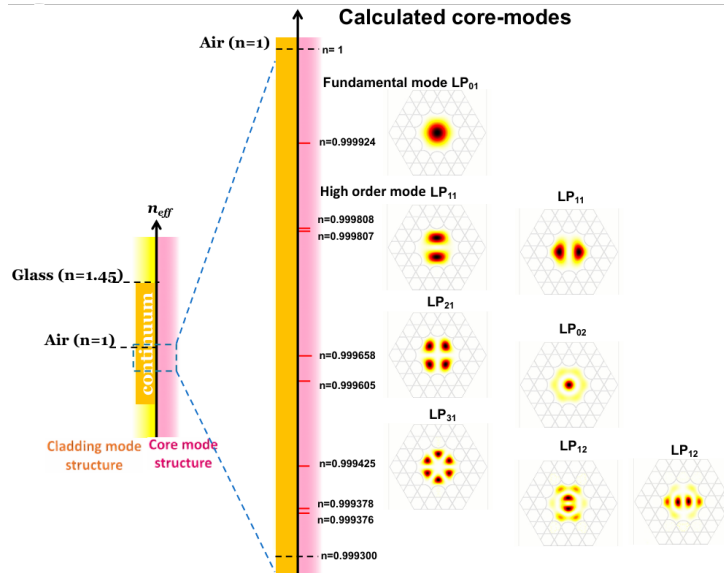


Figure 1.4: *Calculated modal structure of an IC-HCPCF, mapping the fundamental LP_{01} mode and higher-order modes against the continuous cladding modal spectrum.*

Fig. 1.4 illustrates this modal hierarchy. Higher-order modes (such as LP_{11} or LP_{02}) exist but experience much higher leakage. Their electromagnetic fields extend radially closer to the silica boundaries, which increases the spatial overlap with the cladding modes, and their non-zero azimuthal index (like $m = 1$ for the LP_{11} mode) reduces the phase mismatch. Thus, while the fiber inherently supports a multimode continuum, if properly designed it can behave as a single-mode waveguide over macroscopic distances due to the attenuation of higher-order modes [6].

1.2 Electromagnetic Trapping of Neutral Atoms

1.2.1 The Magneto-Optical Trap

The Magneto-Optical Trap (MOT) is a technique used to simultaneously confine and cool neutral atoms. It relies on the combination of a position-dependent restoring force and a velocity-dependent damping force [9].

Spatial confinement is produced by a quadrupole magnetic field, generated by a pair of anti-Helmholtz coils. The field is zero at the center of the trap and grows linearly along each direction, with a gradient that induces a position-dependent Zeeman shift of the atomic energy levels. Three pairs of counter-propagating laser beams, red-detuned from the atomic resonance, are sent along the three orthogonal axes. Within each pair, the two beams carry opposite circular polarizations, σ^+ and σ^- , selected so that the beam pushing toward the center is the one brought into resonance by the local Zeeman shift. As an atom drifts away from the origin, the Zeeman shift brings it closer to resonance with the inward-propagating beam, producing a restoring radiation pressure that pushes the atom back toward the center [9]. A schematic representation of the MOT is shown in Fig. 1.5

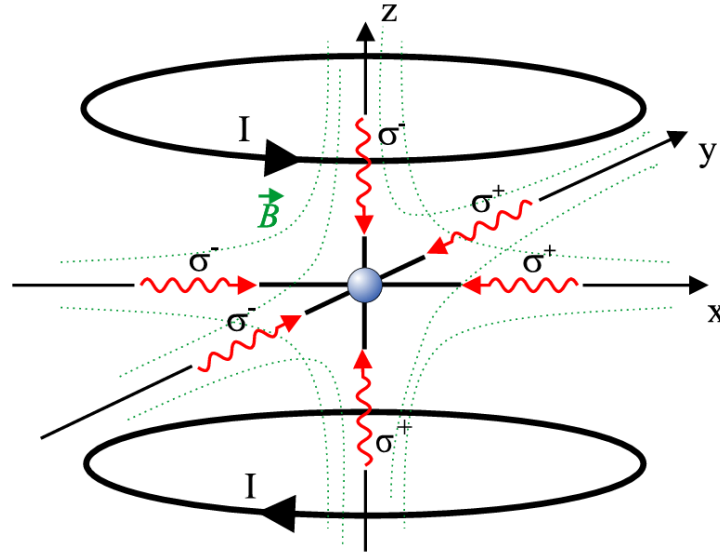


Figure 1.5: *Schematic representation of the Magneto-Optical Trap (MOT) configuration, illustrating the counter-propagating laser beams with alternating σ^+/σ^- polarizations and the anti-Helmholtz coils used to generate the magnetic quadrupole field. From [10]*

The cooling mechanism operating inside the MOT is known as optical molasses [11]. It is generated by the same three pairs of counter-propagating beams used for confinement, when their action is considered in the absence of the magnetic field gradient. The beams are slightly red-detuned from the atomic resonance: when an atom moves, the laser beam

opposing its trajectory is Doppler-shifted closer to resonance. The atom therefore absorbs more photons from the opposing beam than from the co-propagating one, resulting in a velocity-dependent friction force that viscously damps the atomic motion.

During this continuous molasses cooling, a competing heating mechanism arises from the spontaneous emission of photons. After absorbing a photon, the atom returns to its ground state by spontaneously re-emitting a photon in a random direction. Each emission imparts a small momentum kick (recoil) to the atom; this random walk in momentum space leads to a diffusion of the atomic velocities and heats the atomic cloud. The thermal equilibrium established between the viscous damping of the molasses (cooling) and the random recoils from spontaneous emission (heating) defines the Doppler temperature limit [11]:

$$T_D = \frac{\hbar\Gamma}{2k_B} \quad (1.6)$$

where $\hbar$ is the reduced Planck constant, Γ is the natural linewidth of the atomic transition, and k_B is the Boltzmann constant. This expression corresponds to the minimum achievable under Doppler cooling and is obtained for an optimal detuning $\Delta = -\Gamma/2$. For ^{87}Rb atoms on the D2 line, it corresponds to a temperature of approximately $146\ \mu\text{K}$.

1.2.2 Polarization Gradient Cooling

While the MOT cools atoms down to the Doppler limit, further temperature reduction requires Polarization Gradient Cooling (PGC), commonly referred to as Sisyphus cooling. Two main configurations of PGC exist, depending on the relative polarizations of the counter-propagating beams: the $\text{lin}\perp\text{lin}$ geometry, in which the two beams have orthogonal linear polarizations, and the $\sigma^+\sigma^-$ geometry, in which the beams have opposite circular polarizations. The two configurations give rise to distinct polarization patterns and to correspondingly distinct cooling dynamics. In the following, the discussion is restricted to the $\text{lin}\perp\text{lin}$ case, which provides the most direct illustration of the Sisyphus mechanism [12].

The spatial interference of two counter-propagating beams with orthogonal linear polarizations generates a standing wave with a spatially varying polarization state. Over a distance of $\lambda/2$, the local polarization cycles through linear, circular, and orthogonal linear states. For atoms with a degenerate ground state, the light shift (AC Stark shift) depends on the local polarization and on the specific Zeeman sublevel m_F . As an atom moves through this optical field, it climbs a potential hill created by the spatially varying light shift, converting its kinetic energy into potential energy [12].

Upon reaching the peak of the potential hill, the local polarization drives an optical pumping transition that transfers the atom into a lower-energy sublevel. The spontaneously emitted photon carries away the excess energy, leaving the atom at the minimum of a

new potential valley. A schematic representation of this process is depicted in Fig. 1.6. This continuous cycle of ascending potential gradients and undergoing subsequent optical pumping dissipates the atom's kinetic energy, resulting in temperatures significantly below the Doppler limit.

The lowest temperatures achievable through PGC are limited by the recoil energy associated with the emission of a single photon. Defining the recoil energy as $E_R = \hbar^2 k^2 / (2m)$, with k the photon wave vector and m the atomic mass, the standard definition for the corresponding recoil temperature is

$$T_R = \frac{\hbar^2 k^2}{2mk_B} = \frac{E_R}{k_B}. \quad (1.7)$$

Temperatures of the order of a few T_R represent the practical lower bound for PGC. At this scale, the thermal kinetic energy of the atom becomes comparable to the energy of a single photon recoil, and the Sisyphus cooling cycle can no longer extract energy efficiently without re-heating the atom through the spontaneous emission process itself. Reaching temperatures below this threshold requires sub-recoil cooling techniques.

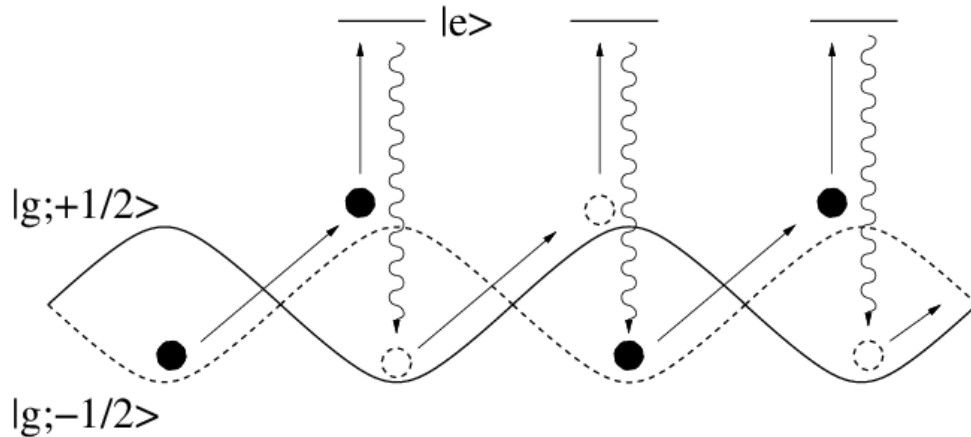


Figure 1.6: *Schematic representation of Polarization Gradient Cooling (Sisyphus cooling). The diagram illustrates the position-dependent light shifts of the ground-state Zeeman sublevels and the optical pumping process that dissipates the atom's kinetic energy. [13]*

1.2.3 The Optical Dipole Trap

In contrast to the dissipative radiation-pressure forces that underlie the MOT, an optical dipole trap (ODT) confines neutral atoms in a nearly conservative potential produced by far-off-resonant light. The mechanism relies on the interaction between the intensity gradient of the light field and the atomic dipole moment that the field itself induces [14]. Because the optical dipole interaction is weak compared with the radiative forces used in a MOT, typical trap depths lie in the millikelvin range or below; atoms must therefore be pre-cooled (through the mechanisms described above) before they can be transferred

into an ODT.

1.2.3.1 Oscillator model and semiclassical treatment

The essential features of the optical dipole force can be derived by treating the atom as a classical damped oscillator driven by a classical oscillating electric field. The laser field $\mathbf{E}(\mathbf{r}, t) = \hat{\mathbf{e}} \tilde{E}(\mathbf{r}) e^{-i\omega t} + \text{c.c.}$ induces a dipole moment $\mathbf{p}(\mathbf{r}, t) = \hat{\mathbf{e}} \tilde{p}(\mathbf{r}) e^{-i\omega t} + \text{c.c.}$ whose amplitude is proportional to the field amplitude through the complex atomic polarizability $\alpha(\omega)$,

$$\tilde{p} = \alpha(\omega) \tilde{E}. \quad (1.8)$$

The interaction potential of the induced dipole in the driving field is

$$U_{\text{dip}}(\mathbf{r}) = -\frac{1}{2} \langle \mathbf{p} \cdot \mathbf{E} \rangle = -\frac{1}{2\epsilon_0 c} \text{Re}(\alpha) I(\mathbf{r}), \quad (1.9)$$

where the angular brackets denote time averaging over the optical period, $I = 2\epsilon_0 c |\tilde{E}|^2$ is the field intensity, and the factor 1/2 accounts for the dipole being induced rather than permanent [14]. The potential is proportional to the real (dispersive) part of α , which describes the in-phase component of the dipole oscillation. The resulting dipole force

$$\mathbf{F}_{\text{dip}}(\mathbf{r}) = -\nabla U_{\text{dip}}(\mathbf{r}) = \frac{1}{2\epsilon_0 c} \text{Re}(\alpha) \nabla I(\mathbf{r}) \quad (1.10)$$

is conservative and proportional to the intensity gradient.

Concurrently, the driven oscillator absorbs power from the field and re-emits it as dipole radiation. The absorbed power

$$P_{\text{abs}}(\mathbf{r}) = \langle \dot{\mathbf{p}} \cdot \mathbf{E} \rangle = \frac{\omega}{\epsilon_0 c} \text{Im}(\alpha) I(\mathbf{r}) \quad (1.11)$$

is proportional to the imaginary (absorptive) part of α , describing the out-of-phase component of the dipole. Interpreting the absorption as a stream of photons of energy $\hbar\omega$, the corresponding spontaneous scattering rate is [14]

$$\Gamma_{\text{sc}}(\mathbf{r}) = \frac{P_{\text{abs}}}{\hbar\omega} = \frac{1}{\hbar\epsilon_0 c} \text{Im}(\alpha) I(\mathbf{r}). \quad (1.12)$$

To obtain an explicit expression for $\alpha(\omega)$, the atom is first modeled in Lorentz's picture as an electron of mass m_e and charge $-e$ elastically bound to the core with eigenfrequency ω_0 , damped by radiative energy loss. Integration of the equation of motion $\ddot{x} + \Gamma_\omega \dot{x} + \omega_0^2 x = -eE(t)/m_e$ yields [14]

$$\alpha = \frac{e^2}{m_e} \frac{1}{\omega_0^2 - \omega^2 - i\omega\Gamma_\omega}, \quad (1.13)$$

where $\Gamma_\omega = e^2\omega^2/(6\pi\epsilon_0 m_e c^3)$ is the classical damping rate from Larmor's formula. In the

semiclassical treatment the same functional form is recovered, the only modification being that the damping rate is no longer given by Larmor's formula but is determined by the quantum-mechanical dipole matrix element between ground and excited state [14]:

$$\Gamma = \frac{\omega_0^3}{3\pi\epsilon_0\hbar c^3} |\langle e|\hat{\mu}|g\rangle|^2. \quad (1.14)$$

For the D lines of the alkali atoms Na, K, Rb, and Cs, the classical result of Eq. 1.13 agrees with the true decay rate to within a few percent. Expressing the polarizability in terms of this quantum-mechanical Γ gives [14]

$$\alpha(\omega) = 6\pi\epsilon_0 c^3 \frac{\Gamma/\omega_0^2}{\omega_0^2 - \omega^2 - i(\omega^3/\omega_0^2)\Gamma}. \quad (1.15)$$

Substituting Eq. 1.15 into Eqs. 1.9 and 1.12 yields the general expressions [14]

$$U_{\text{dip}}(\mathbf{r}) = -\frac{3\pi c^2}{2\omega_0^3} \left(\frac{\Gamma}{\omega_0 - \omega} + \frac{\Gamma}{\omega_0 + \omega} \right) I(\mathbf{r}), \quad (1.16)$$

$$\Gamma_{\text{sc}}(\mathbf{r}) = \frac{3\pi c^2}{2\hbar\omega_0^3} \left(\frac{\omega}{\omega_0} \right)^3 \left(\frac{\Gamma}{\omega_0 - \omega} + \frac{\Gamma}{\omega_0 + \omega} \right)^2 I(\mathbf{r}). \quad (1.17)$$

These expressions are valid for any driving frequency and contain two resonant contributions: the one at $\omega = \omega_0$ and the counter-rotating term resonant at $\omega = -\omega_0$. In most trapping experiments the laser is tuned close to ω_0 with detuning $\Delta \equiv \omega - \omega_0$ satisfying $|\Delta| \ll \omega_0$; the counter-rotating term can then be neglected in the rotating-wave approximation (RWA), and one may set $\omega/\omega_0 \simeq 1$. Equations 1.16–1.17 then reduce to [14]

$$U_{\text{dip}}(\mathbf{r}) = \frac{3\pi c^2}{2\omega_0^3} \frac{\Gamma}{\Delta} I(\mathbf{r}), \quad (1.18)$$

$$\Gamma_{\text{sc}}(\mathbf{r}) = \frac{3\pi c^2}{2\hbar\omega_0^3} \left(\frac{\Gamma}{\Delta} \right)^2 I(\mathbf{r}). \quad (1.19)$$

1.2.3.2 Quantum-mechanical picture

The same potential arises in the quantum description as an energy-level shift induced by the off-resonant field. The effect of far-detuned laser light can be treated as a perturbation of second order in the electric field, linear in the intensity. Within the dressed-atom approach, the unperturbed states of the combined atom–photon system are considered: in the ground state the atom has zero internal energy and the field carries $n\hbar\omega$, so $E_i = n\hbar\omega$; after absorption of one photon the atom is in the excited state with internal energy $\hbar\omega_0$ and the field carries $(n-1)\hbar\omega$, giving $E_j = \hbar\omega_0 + (n-1)\hbar\omega = -\hbar\Delta + n\hbar\omega$. The energy denominator is therefore $E_i - E_j = \hbar\Delta$. For low saturation, the second-order shift of the

ground state due to the coupling with the excited state $|e\rangle$ through the dipole operator $\hat{\mu}$ reads [14]

$$\Delta E = \frac{|\langle e|\hat{\mu}|g\rangle|^2}{\Delta} |\tilde{E}|^2 = \frac{3\pi c^2}{2\omega_0^3} \frac{\Gamma}{\Delta} I(\mathbf{r}), \quad (1.20)$$

where the dipole matrix element has been replaced by Γ via Eq. 1.14. This perturbative result coincides with the semiclassical dipole potential of Eq. 1.18 [14]: the AC Stark shift of the ground state is the dipole potential, while the excited state experiences the opposite shift. Since in the low-saturation regime the atom resides predominantly in the ground state, the light-shifted ground state acts as the effective conservative potential for the atomic motion. A spatially varying intensity, such as the Gaussian profile of a focused beam, produces a position-dependent shift and hence a trapping potential, as illustrated in Fig. 1.7.

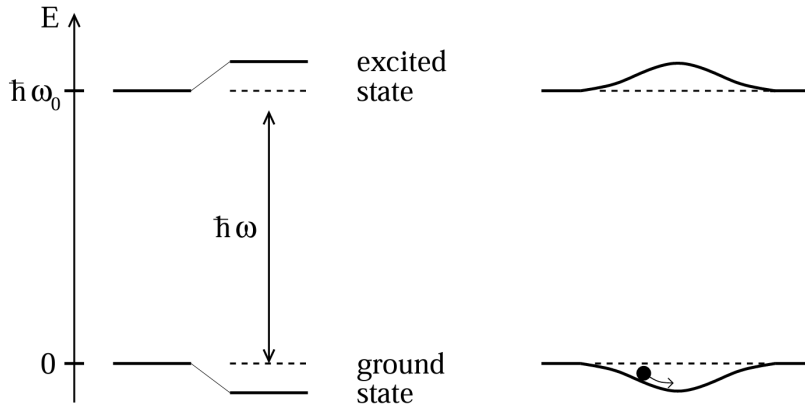


Figure 1.7: *Light shifts for a two-level atom. Left: red-detuned light ($\Delta < 0$) shifts the ground state down and the excited state up by equal amounts. Right: a spatially inhomogeneous field such as a Gaussian laser beam produces a ground-state potential well in which an atom can be trapped.*

The sign of the detuning determines the trapping geometry. For a red-detuned field ($\Delta < 0$) the ground state is shifted downward, yielding an attractive potential that confines atoms near intensity maxima; for a blue-detuned field ($\Delta > 0$) the shift is positive and atoms are pushed toward intensity minima, where spontaneous scattering is also reduced.

Combining Eqs. 1.18–1.19 gives the relation

$$\hbar\Gamma_{\text{sc}} = \frac{\Gamma}{\Delta} U_{\text{dip}}, \quad (1.21)$$

a direct consequence of the link between the absorptive and dispersive response of the oscillator [14]. Since the dipole potential scales as I/Δ while the scattering rate scales as I/Δ^2 , a deep potential can be maintained at comparatively low scattering, and thus low heating and decoherence, by using high intensity together with large detuning.

1.2.3.3 Multi-level atoms and the alkali D -lines

Real alkali atoms possess a fine and hyperfine structure that are neglected in the two-level model. The state-dependent dipole potential is then obtained from second-order time-independent perturbation theory. For a non-degenerate ground state $|g_i\rangle$, the energy shift is [14]

$$\Delta E_i = \sum_{j \neq i} \frac{|\langle e_j | \hat{\mu} | g_i \rangle|^2}{E_i - E_j} |\tilde{E}|^2, \quad (1.22)$$

where the sum runs over all electronically excited states $|e_j\rangle$. By the Wigner–Eckart theorem, each dipole matrix element factorizes into a reduced matrix element $\|\mu\|$, depending only on the orbital wavefunctions, and a real transition coefficient c_{ij} encoding the angular-momentum geometry and the laser polarization, $\mu_{ij} = c_{ij}\|\mu\|$. Since $\|\mu\|$ is directly related to Γ through Eq. 1.14, the ground-state shift becomes [14]:

$$\Delta E_i = \frac{3\pi c^2 \Gamma}{2\omega_0^3} I(\mathbf{r}) \sum_j \frac{c_{ij}^2}{\Delta_{ij}}, \quad (1.23)$$

with Δ_{ij} the detuning from the $i \rightarrow j$ transition. The dipole potential is therefore a sum over all coupled excited states, weighted by their line-strength factors c_{ij}^2 and inverse detunings.

For alkali metals the dominant contributions come from the D_1 ($nS_{1/2} \rightarrow nP_{1/2}$) and D_2 ($nS_{1/2} \rightarrow nP_{3/2}$) fine-structure lines [14]; higher-lying transitions lie tens of THz away and contribute negligibly in the near-infrared trapping regime used in this work. Under the assumption that the optical detuning is large compared with the excited-state hyperfine splitting, so that the resolved hyperfine components of each fine-structure line can be replaced by their weighted center, the line-strength sum rules allow Eq. 1.23 to be evaluated in closed form for a ground state $|F, m_F\rangle$ [14]:

$$U_{\text{dip}}(\mathbf{r}) = \frac{\pi c^2 \Gamma}{2\omega_0^3} \left(\frac{2 + \mathcal{P} g_F m_F}{\Delta_{2,F}} + \frac{1 - \mathcal{P} g_F m_F}{\Delta_{1,F}} \right) I(\mathbf{r}), \quad (1.24)$$

where g_F is the Landé factor, $\mathcal{P}$ describes the laser polarization ($\mathcal{P} = 0$ for linear, $\mathcal{P} = \pm 1$ for $\sigma^\pm$), and $\Delta_{2,F}$, $\Delta_{1,F}$ are the detunings from the centers of the D_2 and D_1 transitions, respectively (Fig. 1.8).

The structure of Eq. 1.24 follows from the line-strength factors of the two transitions. For linear polarization, symmetry requires both electronic ground states $m_J = \pm 1/2$ to be shifted equally; after coupling to the nuclear spin, all magnetic sublevels of a given F remain degenerate, with line-strength factors $2/3$ for the D_2 line and $1/3$ for the D_1 line [14]. These factors appear as the constants 2 and 1 in the numerators of Eq. 1.24 (the common factor $1/3$ being absorbed into the prefactor). For circular polarization, the m_J degeneracy is lifted: the line-strength factors become $(2 \pm g_F m_F)/3$ for D_2 and

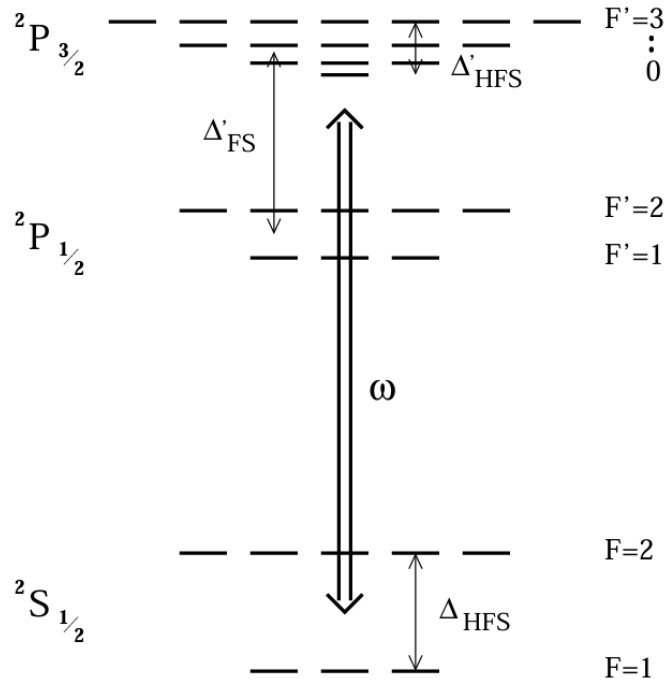


Figure 1.8: *Level scheme of an alkali atom (nuclear spin $I = 3/2$, as in ^{87}Rb) relevant to the dipole-potential calculation. The fine-structure doublet D_1 ($nS_{1/2} \rightarrow nP_{1/2}$) and D_2 ($nS_{1/2} \rightarrow nP_{3/2}$) couples the ground manifold $nS_{1/2}$ to the excited $nP_{1/2}$ and $nP_{3/2}$ manifolds; $\Delta_{1,F}$ and $\Delta_{2,F}$ denote the detunings of the trapping laser from the centers of the two lines. After [14].*

$(1 \mp g_F m_F)/3$ for D_1 , where the substitution $m_J \rightarrow \frac{1}{2}g_F m_F$ (with $g_J = 2$ for alkali atoms) follows from the analogy with the linear Zeeman effect in weak magnetic fields. This m_F -dependent contribution is the vector light shift, which acts as a fictitious magnetic field along the propagation axis and lifts the degeneracy of the magnetic sublevels. For this reason, linearly polarized light is generally preferred when homogeneous, state-insensitive confinement is required [14].

For the photon scattering rate, the same line-strength factors enter as for the dipole potential, since absorption and light shifts are governed by the same transition matrix elements. For linear polarization one obtains [14]

$$\Gamma_{\text{sc}}(\mathbf{r}) = \frac{\pi c^2 \Gamma^2}{2\hbar \omega_0^3} \left(\frac{2}{\Delta_{2,F}^2} + \frac{1}{\Delta_{1,F}^2} \right) I(\mathbf{r}). \quad (1.25)$$

The general expression of Eq. 1.24 reduces to the two-level result of Eq. 1.18 in two limiting regimes. When the detuning is much larger than the fine-structure splitting ($|\Delta| \gg |\Delta_{\text{FS}}|$, with $\Delta_{\text{FS}} = \omega_{D_2} - \omega_{D_1}$), the two detunings become nearly equal, $\Delta_{1,F} \simeq \Delta_{2,F} \simeq \Delta$. For linear polarization ($\mathcal{P} = 0$) the numerators add to $2 + 1 = 3$, the total oscillator strength of the D -doublet; absorbing this factor into an effective linewidth Γ_{eff} , Eq. 1.24 takes the two-level form of Eq. 1.18, with Δ measured from the weighted center of the doublet. In the opposite limit, where the laser is tuned close to one line ($|\Delta_{i,F}| \ll |\Delta_{j,F}|$), only the nearest transition contributes appreciably and the sum collapses to a single term, again yielding the two-level form. In both limits, linear polarization suppresses the vector light shift, so the resulting potential is independent of m_F and is identical in form to the two-level dipole potential. If the detuning additionally exceeds the ground-state hyperfine splitting ($|\Delta| \gg \Delta_{\text{HFS}}$), all sub-states of the electronic ground manifold are shifted by the same amount and the potential becomes completely independent of both m_F and F . This justifies treating the atom as an effective two-level system throughout this work, where far-detuned, linearly polarized beams are used in all trapping configurations.

1.3 Optical Conveyor Belt

The optical dipole trap discussed in the previous section provides a static conservative potential in which atoms are confined near the focus of a single laser beam. Transporting the trapped cloud over macroscopic distances requires a different architecture, in which the position of the potential minima can be controlled dynamically. The optical conveyor belt fulfills this requirement by replacing the single beam with two counter-propagating, phase-coherent beams: their interference generates a standing wave whose nodes and antinodes can be set into motion by imposing a controlled frequency difference between the two arms. This section derives the geometry of the standing-wave potential, the kinematics of the moving lattice, and the acceleration limits that bound adiabatic transport.

1.3.1 Interference of Counter-Propagating Gaussian Beams and the Stationary Lattice

The fundamental mechanism of the optical conveyor belt relies on the periodic intensity pattern generated by the interference of two counter-propagating laser beams [10]. The resulting standing wave acts as a one-dimensional optical lattice, imposing a tight spatial confinement on atoms via the optical dipole force.

Assuming two coherent Gaussian beams in the fundamental TEM_{00} transverse mode propagating along the z -axis, the respective electric fields can be modeled as follows. The first beam, propagating towards $+z$ with angular frequency ω_1 , is described by:

$$E_1(z, \rho, t) = E_0 \frac{w_0}{w(z)} \exp\left(-\frac{\rho^2}{w^2(z)}\right) \exp(i(kz - \omega_1 t + \phi(z))) \quad (1.26)$$

where E_0 denotes the peak field amplitude, $k = 2\pi/\lambda$ the optical wavenumber, $\phi(z)$ the Gouy phase shift, and $\rho = \sqrt{x^2 + y^2}$ the radial coordinate. The beam radius $w(z)$ evolves along the propagation axis according to:

$$w^2(z) = w_0^2 \left(1 + \frac{z^2}{z_R^2}\right), \quad (1.27)$$

with w_0 the waist at the focal plane and $z_R = \pi w_0^2/\lambda$ the Rayleigh length. The second field, counter-propagating towards $-z$ at frequency ω_2 , is given by:

$$E_2(z, \rho, t) = E_0 \frac{w_0}{w(z)} \exp\left(-\frac{\rho^2}{w^2(z)}\right) \exp(i(-kz - \omega_2 t - \phi(z))). \quad (1.28)$$

To determine the local intensity profile for degenerate frequencies ($\omega_1 = \omega_2 = \omega$), the coherent superposition $E_{tot} = E_1 + E_2$ is evaluated. Restricting the analysis to the spatial

region localized around the focal point ($z \ll z_R$), the variation of the beam waist and the Gouy phase shift become negligible. The superimposed electric field simplifies to:

$$E_{tot}(z, \rho, t) \approx E_0 \frac{w_0}{w(z)} \exp\left(-\frac{\rho^2}{w^2(z)}\right) e^{-i\omega t} [e^{ikz} + e^{-ikz}]. \quad (1.29)$$

Applying Euler's relation, the spatial interference manifests as a real cosine envelope $2\cos(kz)$. The effective optical intensity $I(z, \rho)$ experienced by the atoms is proportional to the time-averaged squared amplitude of the field, $\langle |E_{tot}|^2 \rangle$, which yields a stationary standing wave:

$$I(z, \rho) = I_{\max} \frac{w_0^2}{w^2(z)} \exp\left(-\frac{2\rho^2}{w^2(z)}\right) \cos^2(kz). \quad (1.30)$$

The peak intensity $I_{\max} = 4P/(\pi w_0^2)$ follows from the total optical power P distributed across the two beams. Each beam carries power $P/2$ and has a peak intensity $2(P/2)/(\pi w_0^2) = P/(\pi w_0^2)$; the additional factor of 4 in $I_{\max}$ originates from the constructive interference at the antinodes, where the two field amplitudes add in phase.

In the far-detuned regime, where the laser frequency is significantly shifted from any atomic resonance, the resulting dipole force is conservative. The optical potential energy $U(\rho, z)$ is therefore directly proportional to the local intensity distribution:

$$U(\rho, z) = -U_0 \frac{w_0^2}{w^2(z)} \exp\left(-\frac{2\rho^2}{w^2(z)}\right) \cos^2(kz), \quad (1.31)$$

where U_0 defines the maximum depth of the individual potential wells, with $U_0 > 0$ for a red-detuned, attractive trap.

The harmonic spatial modulation introduced by the $\cos^2(kz)$ term imposes a longitudinal periodicity, organizing the optical potential into a one-dimensional lattice of trapping sites with a lattice constant of $\lambda/2$.

Within a potential well, atomic motion is restricted to a small region around the trap minimum at $z = 0$ and $\rho = 0$, allowing the harmonic approximation. Applying a second-order Taylor expansion to Eq. (1.31) using $\cos^2(kz) \approx 1 - (kz)^2$ and $\exp(-2\rho^2/w_0^2) \approx 1 - 2\rho^2/w_0^2$, the potential takes the quadratic form

$$U(\rho, z) \approx U_0 \left(1 - \frac{2\rho^2}{w_0^2}\right) (1 - k^2 z^2) \approx U_0 - U_0 k^2 z^2 - U_0 \frac{2\rho^2}{w_0^2}. \quad (1.32)$$

Equating these leading-order restoring terms to the classical energies of a harmonic oscillator, $\frac{1}{2}\kappa z^2$ and $\frac{1}{2}\kappa\rho^2$, yields the effective spring constants $\kappa_z = 2|U_0|k^2$ and $\kappa_{rad} = 4|U_0|/w_0^2$. The characteristic axial and radial oscillation frequencies therefore read:

$$\Omega_z = \sqrt{\frac{2U_0 k^2}{m}}, \quad \Omega_{rad} = \sqrt{\frac{4U_0}{mw_0^2}}. \quad (1.33)$$

These characteristic frequencies establish the dynamical timescales of the system and set the bound within which external parameters can be varied while preserving adiabaticity.

1.3.2 Geometry of the Trapping Potential

The ratio of the two oscillation frequencies exhibits a geometric dependence, independent of the overall trap depth U_0 :

$$\frac{\Omega_z}{\Omega_{rad}} = \frac{kw_0}{\sqrt{2}} = \frac{\sqrt{2}\pi w_0}{\lambda}. \quad (1.34)$$

In typical experimental configurations the beam waist exceeds the optical wavelength ($w_0 \gg \lambda$), so that the longitudinal confinement dominates over the transverse confinement ($\Omega_z \gg \Omega_{rad}$). The standing wave then imposes quasi-two-dimensional potential wells with a strongly anisotropic, disc-shaped geometry: along the z -axis the atomic motion is localized to a fraction of λ , while the transverse motion retains a comparatively broad spatial extent. This anisotropy suppresses tunneling between adjacent lattice sites while leaving the transverse dynamics only weakly confined. A schematic representation of the resulting disc-shaped potential wells is shown in Fig. 1.9.

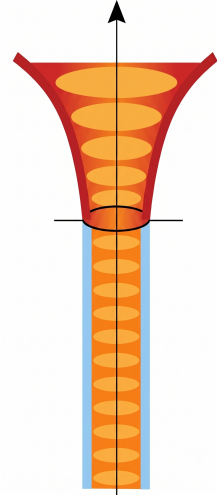


Figure 1.9: *The strongly anisotropic, disc-shaped potential wells of the one-dimensional optical lattice.*

1.3.3 Kinematics of the Moving Standing Wave

Translating the stationary lattice into an active transport potential requires inducing a macroscopic translation of the interference pattern. This is achieved by imposing a controlled frequency difference $\Delta\nu$ between the two counter-propagating laser modes. The dynamic behavior can be derived by applying the detuning either symmetrically across both beams or asymmetrically to a single beam. In both configurations, the coherent superposition of the fields is resolved using the sum-to-product identity $\cos A + \cos B = 2 \cos\left(\frac{A+B}{2}\right) \cos\left(\frac{A-B}{2}\right)$.

Symmetric detuning. Consider the case in which the detuning is distributed symmetrically, shifting the optical frequencies to $\nu_1 = \nu + \Delta\nu/2$ and $\nu_2 = \nu - \Delta\nu/2$. The corresponding angular frequencies become $\omega_1 = \omega + \pi\Delta\nu$ and $\omega_2 = \omega - \pi\Delta\nu$. Evaluating the scalar electric fields near the focal region (dropping wavefront curvature and Gouy

phase), the two beams are expressed as real functions:

$$E_1(z, t) = E_0(z, \rho) \cos(kz - \omega t - \pi\Delta\nu t), \quad (1.35)$$

$$E_2(z, t) = E_0(z, \rho) \cos(-kz - \omega t + \pi\Delta\nu t) = E_0(z, \rho) \cos(kz + \omega t - \pi\Delta\nu t). \quad (1.36)$$

Superposing the two fields, $E_{tot} = E_1 + E_2$, and mapping the arguments to $A = kz - \omega t - \pi\Delta\nu t$ and $B = kz + \omega t - \pi\Delta\nu t$, the sum-to-product identity yields

$$E_{tot}(z, t) = 2E_0(z, \rho) \cos(kz - \pi\Delta\nu t) \cos(-\omega t). \quad (1.37)$$

Because the atomic dipole cannot follow the rapidly oscillating optical carrier frequency ω , the interaction time-averages the $\cos^2(-\omega t)$ term to a constant factor of $1/2$. The effective intensity, and by extension the conservative trapping potential $U(z, \rho, t)$, is governed by the slowly varying spatial envelope. The static potential thus evolves into a moving periodic lattice:

$$U(z, \rho, t) = U_0 \frac{w_0^2}{w^2(z)} \exp\left(-\frac{2\rho^2}{w^2(z)}\right) \cos^2(\pi\Delta\nu t - kz). \quad (1.38)$$

Setting $\Delta\nu = 0$ recovers the stationary lattice structure.

Single-beam detuning. In laboratory implementations it is generally simpler to introduce the frequency offset into a single arm. Defining the unshifted frequency as $\nu_1 = \nu$ and the detuned frequency as $\nu_2 = \nu + \Delta\nu$ (yielding angular frequencies $\omega_1 = \omega$ and $\omega_2 = \omega + 2\pi\Delta\nu$), the interacting fields are

$$E_1(z, t) = E_0(z, \rho) \cos(kz - \omega t), \quad (1.39)$$

$$E_2(z, t) = E_0(z, \rho) \cos(-kz - (\omega + 2\pi\Delta\nu)t) = E_0(z, \rho) \cos(kz + \omega t + 2\pi\Delta\nu t). \quad (1.40)$$

Applying the sum-to-product identity with $A = kz - \omega t$ and $B = kz + \omega t + 2\pi\Delta\nu t$ factors the superposition:

$$E_{tot}(z, t) = 2E_0(z, \rho) \cos(kz + \pi\Delta\nu t) \cos(\omega t + \pi\Delta\nu t). \quad (1.41)$$

Upon time-averaging the fast optical component $\cos^2(\omega t + \pi\Delta\nu t) \rightarrow 1/2$, the resulting effective potential is

$$U(z, \rho, t) = U_0 \frac{w_0^2}{w^2(z)} \exp\left(-\frac{2\rho^2}{w^2(z)}\right) \cos^2(kz + \pi\Delta\nu t). \quad (1.42)$$

This expression coincides, up to an overall sign in the time argument of the envelope, with Eq. (1.38), confirming that an asymmetric detuning imposed on a single beam produces the same effect as a symmetrically distributed detuning.

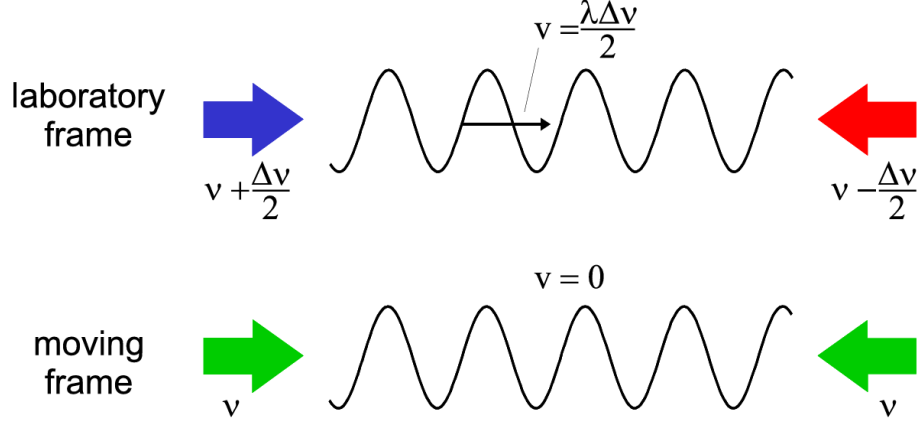


Figure 1.10: *Kinematics of the optical conveyor belt: a mutual detuning $\Delta\nu$ produces a moving standing wave. In the moving reference frame both beams are doppler shifted by the same amount [10].*

The macroscopic velocity of the interference pattern can be understood by considering a moving reference frame. In a coordinate system translating along the z -axis with velocity v , the Doppler effect causes a red shift of the co-propagating beam and a blue shift of the counter-propagating beam. There exists a specific reference frame in which these Doppler shifts exactly compensate for the frequency difference $\Delta\nu$ imposed in the laboratory frame. In this system, the two beams have identical frequencies, and the standing wave appears stationary [10].

The velocity can also be derived directly in the laboratory frame by tracking a point of constant intensity, i.e. by setting the phase argument of the moving envelope to a constant value, $kz \pm \pi\Delta\nu t = \text{const.}$ Taking the time derivative yields $k dz/dt \pm \pi\Delta\nu = 0$. Substituting $k = 2\pi/\lambda$ and identifying the transport velocity as $v = dz/dt$ gives

$$v = \frac{\lambda\Delta\nu}{2}. \quad (1.43)$$

1.3.4 Trap-Depth Scaling and Adiabatic Compression

The dimensional properties of the trap scale dynamically when optical parameters are varied, for instance during adiabatic compression in which the beam waist is tightened towards w_0 . Under constant optical power P , the trap depth obeys $U_0 \propto I_{\text{max}} \propto P/w_0^2$. Combining this scaling with the results of Eq. (1.33) gives the behavior of the trapping

frequencies:

$$\Omega_z \propto \sqrt{U_0} \propto \frac{1}{w_0}, \quad \Omega_{rad} \propto \frac{\sqrt{U_0}}{w_0} \propto \frac{1}{w_0^2}. \quad (1.44)$$

The quadratic dependence of Ω_{rad} , compared to the linear dependence of Ω_z , induces a deformation during focusing: the anisotropy ratio Ω_z/Ω_{rad} scales directly with w_0 , so the radial confinement tightens faster than the axial confinement and the aspect ratio of the disc-shaped wells changes during compression.

Adiabatic temperature scaling. Provided that the variation of the trap depth remains slow compared to the inverse characteristic frequencies, the action $J \propto E/\Omega$ is an adiabatic invariant of the harmonic motion [15]. Modeling the mean thermal energy via the equipartition theorem ($E \propto k_B T$), this invariance implies that along each independent degree of freedom

$$\frac{T}{\Omega} = \text{const.} \quad (1.45)$$

Because Ω_z and Ω_{rad} scale at different rates with w_0 , an initially isotropic thermal distribution evolves into an anisotropic one: adiabatic compression increases the transverse temperature relative to the axial temperature.

Lamb–Dicke parameter. The axial behavior of the potential also affects the applicability of advanced laser-cooling mechanisms. The ground-state spatial width of the atomic wavepacket along the z -axis is

$$x_0 = \sqrt{\frac{\hbar}{2m\Omega_z}}, \quad (1.46)$$

and the parameter describing the coupling of this motional state to a resonant cooling field of wavenumber $k_c = 2\pi/\lambda_c$ is the Lamb–Dicke parameter

$$\eta = k_c x_0 = k_c \sqrt{\frac{\hbar}{2m\Omega_z}}. \quad (1.47)$$

The Lamb–Dicke regime provides the basis for the EIT-cooling treatment developed in Section 1.4.

1.3.5 Dynamics in the Accelerated Potential

Transporting a trapped atom between two spatial positions requires a profile of continuous acceleration followed by symmetric deceleration. This is achieved by applying a linear temporal ramp to the beat frequency $\Delta\nu(t)$.

Transforming the Hamiltonian into the non-inertial frame of the accelerating lattice, an atom subject to an acceleration a experiences a fictitious force $-ma$. The addition of this

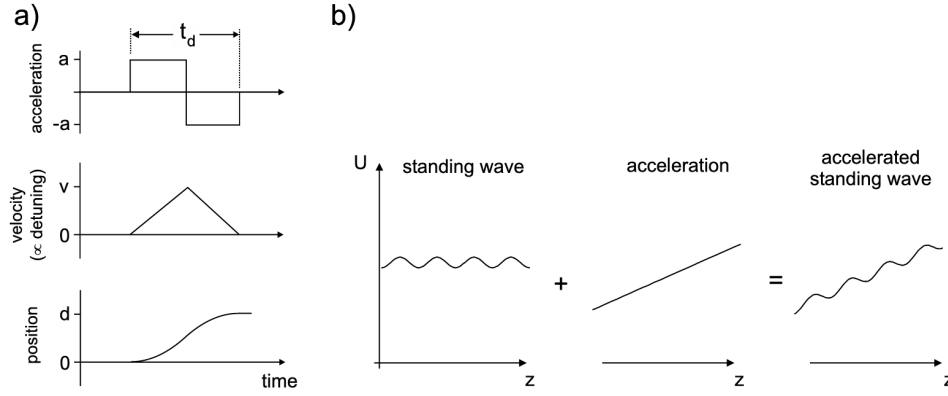


Figure 1.11: *In the frame co-moving with the accelerated lattice, the periodic potential is superimposed with a linear gradient, resulting in a tilted washboard landscape [10].*

linear term along the optical axis modifies the effective potential:

$$U_{\text{eff}}(z') = U_0 \cos^2(kz') + maz', \quad (1.48)$$

where z' is the coordinate in the co-moving frame and $U_0 < 0$ denotes a red-detuned trap. The linear term breaks the symmetry of the periodic profile, lowering the potential barrier in the direction of the fictitious force. Stationary minima of U_{eff} exist provided the equation $dU_{\text{eff}}/dz' = 0$ admits real solutions corresponding to local minima. Differentiating yields

$$\frac{dU_{\text{eff}}(z')}{dz'} = -kU_0 \sin(2kz') + ma = 0 \implies ma = kU_0 \sin(2kz'). \quad (1.49)$$

Since $|\sin(2kz')| \leq 1$, real solutions require $|ma| \leq |kU_0|$. As $|a|$ approaches this limit, the local minimum and the adjacent maximum merge into a single inflection point, causing the trapping barrier to vanish completely and the atom to escape. The threshold acceleration for a particle with zero kinetic energy is therefore:

$$a_0 = \frac{k|U_0|}{m}. \quad (1.50)$$

This theoretical bound assumes a particle at absolute zero temperature. For a thermal cloud, the effective potential barrier $\Delta U = U_{\text{max}} - U_{\text{min}}$ decreases with acceleration, causing atoms with non-zero kinetic energy to escape at values significantly below a_0 . Furthermore, the local trap frequency approaches zero ($\Omega \rightarrow 0$) as $a \rightarrow a_0$. These factors impose stringent constraints on the acceleration profiles in optical conveyor belt operations to minimize thermal loss and maintain the adiabatic confinement of the atomic wavepacket.

1.4 Electromagnetically Induced Transparency Cooling

1.4.1 Introduction to EIT Cooling

The preparation of trapped atoms in their motional ground state is a fundamental prerequisite for high-fidelity quantum information processing and the realization of strongly coupled atom-photon systems. Resolved-sideband cooling is effective for this task, but it imposes the restriction of the strong-confinement condition: the natural linewidth of the atomic transition γ must be much smaller than the harmonic trap frequency ν ($\gamma \ll \nu$) [16]. This requirement is difficult to fulfill in shallow or low-frequency traps, where the sidebands are not spectrally resolved. Electromagnetically Induced Transparency (EIT) cooling overcomes this limitation by exploiting quantum interference in a multi-level atomic structure [16, 17]. It achieves ground-state cooling without requiring strong confinement; the relevance of this feature becomes clear when the cooling stage is integrated into a sequence that involves transport and tight spatial confinement.

In the experimental protocol considered in this work, atoms are first cooled in a magneto-optical trap, transferred to an optical dipole trap, and then transported into the hollow core of a photonic crystal fiber by means of an optical conveyor belt. The transport itself is a source of heating, the transverse compression required to match the fiber mode increases the trap frequencies and raises the transverse temperature. By the time the atoms reach the fiber core, their temperature is significantly higher, and re-cooling is required before any precision experiment can be performed. In this section, all frequencies and detunings are expressed as angular frequencies in units of 2π rad/s, and the corresponding linear frequencies in Hz are obtained by dividing by 2π .

1.4.2 The Three-Level Λ System and Coherent Population Trapping

The theoretical framework of EIT cooling is based on a three-level atomic system in a Λ configuration (Fig. 1.12). This consists of two stable or metastable ground states, $|g_1\rangle$ and $|g_2\rangle$, both optically coupled to a common, short-lived excited state $|e\rangle$ with spontaneous decay rate γ [16, 17].

The transition $|g_1\rangle \leftrightarrow |e\rangle$ is driven by a weak probe laser with Rabi frequency Ω_p , satisfying $\Omega_p \ll \Omega_c$, while the transition $|g_2\rangle \leftrightarrow |e\rangle$ is driven by a strong coupling laser with Rabi frequency Ω_c . Under the rotating wave approximation, and assuming the two lasers are tuned to a two-photon resonance with a common detuning Δ , the internal Hamiltonian

H_0 and the interaction potential V_0 in the rotating frame are [17]:

$$H_0 = -\hbar\Delta(|g_1\rangle\langle g_1| + |g_2\rangle\langle g_2|) \quad (1.51)$$

$$V_0 = \frac{\hbar}{2}(\Omega_p|e\rangle\langle g_1| + \Omega_c|e\rangle\langle g_2| + \text{h.c.}) \quad (1.52)$$

The incoherent spontaneous emission from the excited state is described by the Liouvillian operator $\mathcal{K}$ [17]:

$$\mathcal{K}\rho = -\frac{\gamma}{2}(|e\rangle\langle e|\rho + \rho|e\rangle\langle e|) + \sum_{j=1,2} \gamma_j|g_j\rangle\langle e|\rho|e\rangle\langle g_j| \quad (1.53)$$

where γ_1 and γ_2 are the partial decay rates into $|g_1\rangle$ and $|g_2\rangle$, with $\gamma_1 + \gamma_2 = \gamma$ [17]. Physically, $\mathcal{K}$ encodes the fact that population in $|e\rangle$ decays at total rate γ , redistributed between $|g_1\rangle$ and $|g_2\rangle$ according to the branching ratios γ_1/γ and γ_2/γ .

The essential physical mechanism underlying EIT is the emergence of a dark state: a coherent superposition of the two ground states

that is decoupled from the excited state by destructive quantum interference between the two optical excitation pathways. At two-photon resonance, this dark state takes the form [17]:

$$|\Psi_D\rangle = \frac{1}{\Omega}(\Omega_c|g_1\rangle - \Omega_p|g_2\rangle) \quad (1.54)$$

where $\Omega = \sqrt{\Omega_p^2 + \Omega_c^2}$ is the total effective Rabi frequency [17]. An atom optically pumped into $|\Psi_D\rangle$ ceases to absorb light, a phenomenon known as Coherent Population Trapping (CPT) [18].

The decoupling of $|\Psi_D\rangle$ from $|e\rangle$ is verified by direct evaluation of the coupling matrix element $\langle e|V_0|\Psi_D\rangle$. Using Eq. (1.52) and the coefficients of $|\Psi_D\rangle$ in Eq. (1.54), only the $\Omega_p|e\rangle\langle g_1|$ and $\Omega_c|e\rangle\langle g_2|$ terms of V_0 contribute, giving

$$\langle e|V_0|\Psi_D\rangle = \frac{\hbar}{2\Omega}(\Omega_p\Omega_c - \Omega_c\Omega_p) = 0. \quad (1.55)$$

The excitation amplitude contributed by the $|g_1\rangle \rightarrow |e\rangle$ pathway, proportional to Ω_p times the Ω_c/Ω weight of $|g_1\rangle$ in $|\Psi_D\rangle$, is cancelled by the amplitude contributed by the $|g_2\rangle \rightarrow |e\rangle$ pathway, proportional to Ω_c times the $-\Omega_p/\Omega$ weight of $|g_2\rangle$.

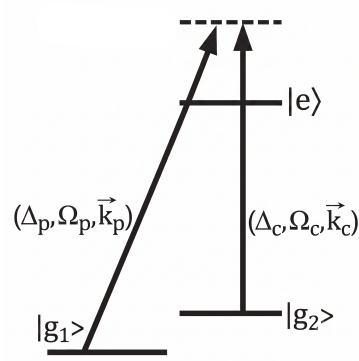


Figure 1.12: The three-level Λ system used for EIT cooling, consisting of two ground states ($|g_1\rangle$, $|g_2\rangle$) coupled to a common excited state ($|e\rangle$) by a probe and a coupling laser.

1.4.3 Dressed States and the Fano Absorption Spectrum

The cooling mechanism is analyzed in the dressed-state picture [17]. When the coupling laser interacts with the atom, the unperturbed atomic states are replaced by hybridized energy levels, the eigenstates of the coupled atom–laser Hamiltonian.

In the driven Λ system, the dark state $|\Psi_D\rangle$ is an eigenstate of the full internal Hamiltonian $H_0 + V_0$. The three-level system thus reduces to an effective two-level system spanned by $|e\rangle$ and the orthogonal bright ground state

$$|\psi_C\rangle = \frac{1}{\Omega} (\Omega_p |g_1\rangle + \Omega_c |g_2\rangle). \quad (1.56)$$

The state $|\psi_C\rangle$ is termed *bright* because, unlike $|\Psi_D\rangle$, it couples to $|e\rangle$ via V_0 . Restricting $H_0 + V_0$ to this two-dimensional subspace yields the effective interaction matrix

$$H_{2\text{-level}} = \hbar \begin{pmatrix} 0 & \Omega/2 \\ \Omega/2 & -\Delta \end{pmatrix} \quad \text{in the basis } \{|e\rangle, |\psi_C\rangle\}. \quad (1.57)$$

Diagonalizing Eq. (1.57) gives the dressed energies

$$E_{\pm} = -\frac{\hbar\Delta}{2} \pm \frac{\hbar}{2}\sqrt{\Delta^2 + \Omega^2}, \quad (1.58)$$

with the corresponding orthogonal eigenvectors

$$|\psi_+\rangle = \cos\theta |e\rangle + \sin\theta |\psi_C\rangle, \quad |\psi_-\rangle = \sin\theta |e\rangle - \cos\theta |\psi_C\rangle, \quad (1.59)$$

where the mixing angle θ satisfies $\tan\theta = (\sqrt{\Delta^2 + \Omega^2} - \Delta)/\Omega$ [17].

The dressed-state structure is probed via a pump–probe scheme: the coupling laser dresses the atomic states, while the weak cooling laser probes the resulting spectrum. In EIT cooling, the coupling laser operates far from single-photon resonance, $|\Delta| \gg \Omega$. In this limit the mixing angle θ is small, and the dressed states separate into a predominantly excited-like state and a predominantly ground-like state. Since spontaneous emission occurs from the $|e\rangle$ component, the linewidth of each branch is determined by its excited-state admixture. The state $|\psi_+\rangle$ is excited-state-like and retains approximately the bare atomic linewidth ($\gamma_+ \approx \gamma$). The state $|\psi_-\rangle$ is ground-state-like, with a suppressed linewidth $\gamma_- \approx \gamma \Omega^2/(4\Delta^2) \ll \gamma$.

As the probe laser scans across the system, the excitation amplitudes to the broad background ($|\psi_+\rangle$) and to the narrow resonance ($|\psi_-\rangle$) interfere. This interference generates an asymmetric Fano-like absorption profile. For a blue-detuned coupling laser ($\Delta > 0$), the spectrum exhibits three features: a zero-absorption point at the two-photon resonance,

corresponding to the dark state $|\Psi_D\rangle$; a broad absorption resonance centered near zero probe detuning, and a narrow absorption resonance.

The coupling laser induces an AC Stark shift δ that displaces the narrow resonance from the dark-state zero. The exact expression is

$$\delta = \frac{\sqrt{\Delta^2 + \Omega_c^2} - |\Delta|}{2}, \quad (1.60)$$

which in the limit $\Delta \gg \Omega_c$ reduces to $\delta \approx \Omega_c^2/(4\Delta)$. The experimental control of this AC Stark shift is the foundation of the EIT cooling protocol.

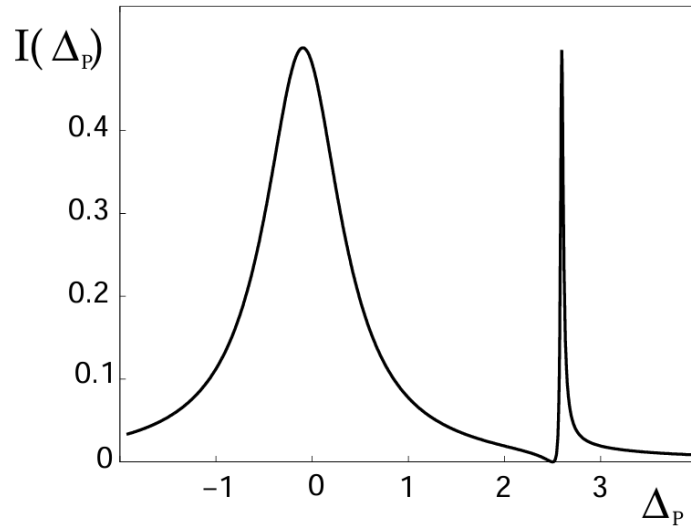


Figure 1.13: Absorption spectrum of the weak probe laser as a function of its detuning, in the presence of the strong coupling laser. The spectrum exhibits the characteristic asymmetric Fano lineshape of EIT: a zero-absorption point at the two-photon (dark-state) resonance, a broad resonance of width $\gamma_+ \approx \gamma$ associated with $|\psi_+\rangle$, and a narrow, AC-Stark-shifted resonance of width $\gamma_- \ll \gamma$ associated with $|\psi_-\rangle$. Credits: [16]

1.4.4 Coupling to the Motional Degrees of Freedom

For an atom confined in a harmonic trapping potential of frequency ν , the external center-of-mass motion is quantized into vibrational Fock states $|n\rangle$, with mechanical Hamiltonian $H_{\text{mec}} = \hbar\nu(a^\dagger a + 1/2)$. EIT cooling maps the engineered asymmetric Fano spectrum onto these motional sidebands [16].

The dynamics are evaluated in the Lamb–Dicke regime, where the spatial extent of the atomic wavepacket is much smaller than the optical wavelength (characterized by $\eta \ll 1$, see 1.47). In this two-photon process, the relevant Lamb-Dicke parameter is defined by the effective wavevector $\Delta\vec{k} = \vec{k}_p - \vec{k}_c$, such that $\eta = |\Delta\vec{k}|x_0$. A crucial geometrical requirement for EIT cooling is therefore $\Delta\vec{k} \neq 0$: if the lasers are copropagating, there is no net momentum transfer on the atom. For this reason, the beams must be aligned at

an angle to guarantee a non-zero projection of $\Delta\vec{k}$ along the cooling axis. In this limit, the ideal cooling conditions are achieved by tuning the AC Stark shift to match the trap frequency [16]:

$$\delta \simeq \nu. \quad (1.61)$$

Substituting the approximate expression $\delta \approx \Omega_c^2/(4\Delta)$ yields $\Omega_c^2 \approx 4\Delta\nu$. The exact condition, obtained from Eq. (1.60) without approximation, is

$$\Omega_c^2 = 4\nu(\nu + \Delta), \quad (1.62)$$

which reduces to the approximate form in the limit $\nu \ll \Delta$ typical of EIT cooling. Satisfying this resonance condition produces two simultaneous effects (also shown in Fig. 1.14):

- **Suppression of heating (carrier cancellation).**

The zero of the Fano profile is aligned with the carrier transition ($|g_1, n\rangle \rightarrow |e, n\rangle$) [16]. An atom in the dark state therefore cannot scatter photons unless it changes its motional state. This suppresses the dominant source of heating that affects standard cooling schemes.

- **Enhancement of cooling (red-sideband excitation).**

The narrow dressed-state resonance $|\psi_-\rangle$ is shifted onto the red-sideband transition ($|g_1, n\rangle \rightarrow |e, n-1\rangle$) [16], enhancing the absorption cross-section for the removal of a vibrational quantum. Conversely, the blue sideband ($|g_1, n\rangle \rightarrow |e, n+1\rangle$), which would add a phonon, falls in a spectral region of minimal excitation probability.

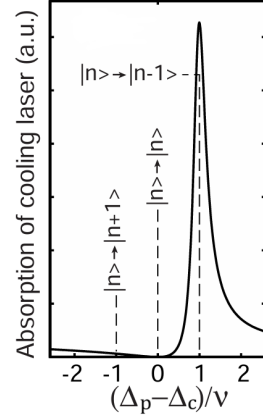


Figure 1.14: *Absorption of the cooling laser as a function of the two-photon detuning, in units of the trap frequency ν . The Fano peak, engineered to sit at +1, drives the red-sideband transition $|n\rangle \rightarrow |n-1\rangle$ responsible for cooling, while the carrier ($|n\rangle \rightarrow |n\rangle$) and blue-sideband ($|n\rangle \rightarrow |n+1\rangle$) transitions, marked at 0 and -1, experience comparatively little absorption. Credits: [16]*

After resonant excitation on the red sideband, $|g_1, n\rangle \rightarrow |e, n-1\rangle$, the atom decays at rate γ . For a net phonon to be removed, the decay must predominantly return the atom to $|g_i, n-1\rangle$; that is, it must occur on the carrier transition of the excited manifold, $|e, n-1\rangle \rightarrow |g_i, n-1\rangle$, leaving the vibrational quantum number unchanged, rather than

to $|g_i, n\rangle$, which would restore the phonon just removed. This is guaranteed in the Lamb–Dicke regime: the recoil imparted by the spontaneously emitted photon changes n by an amount controlled by η , so that sideband emission ($\Delta n = \pm 1$) is suppressed relative to carrier emission ($\Delta n = 0$) by a factor of order η^2 . The cooling cycle thus closes: absorption removes one phonon on the red sideband, the subsequent decay leaves the vibrational state untouched, and the net effect of many such cycles is the removal of motional quanta. The full scheme of EIT cooling, combining the level structure with the corresponding absorption spectrum and the subsequent decay dynamics, is shown in Fig. 1.15.

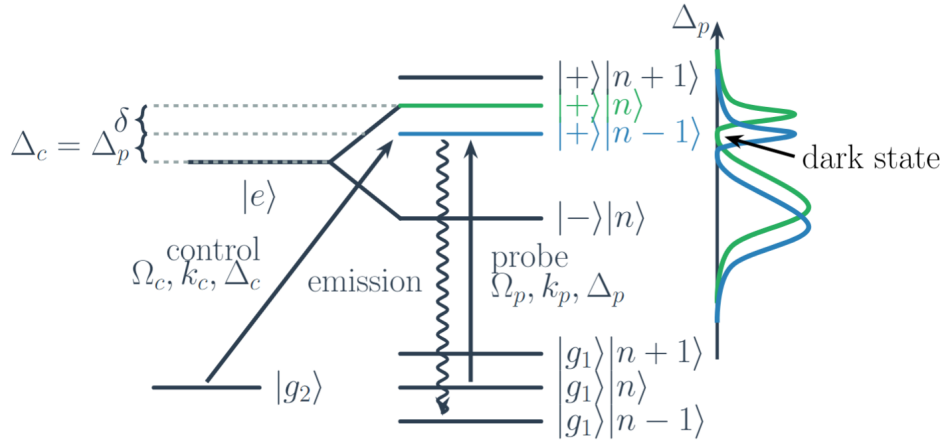


Figure 1.15: Full picture of the EIT cooling scheme, combining the level structure with the corresponding absorption spectrum. The carrier transition (green, $|g_1, n\rangle \rightarrow |e, n\rangle$) and the red-sideband transition (blue, $|g_1, n\rangle \rightarrow |e, n-1\rangle$) absorption profiles feature a dark-state zero and a narrow, AC-Stark-shifted Fano resonance. The efficiency of the scheme relies on the tuning $\delta \simeq \nu$ (Eq. (1.61)) so that the Fano resonance peak of the red sideband (blue) overlaps with the zero-absorption point of the carrier (green). Consequently, cooling is resonantly enhanced exactly where carrier heating is completely suppressed.

1.4.5 Cooling Dynamics and the Theoretical Limit

Provided that the cooling laser is weak ($\Omega_p \ll \Omega_c$) and the narrow resonance is not saturated, the motional dynamics can be described by coarse-graining the evolution over the internal-state relaxation time. The populations $P(n)$ of the vibrational states evolve according to a classical rate equation [16, 17]:

$$\frac{d}{dt}P(n) = \eta^2 [A_- ((n+1)P(n+1) - nP(n)) + A_+ (nP(n-1) - (n+1)P(n))] \quad (1.63)$$

where A_- and A_+ are the effective excitation rates of the red and blue sidebands, respectively. Incorporating the full quantum interference around the dark resonance, these rates

take the explicit form

$$A_{\pm} = \frac{1}{4} \left(\frac{\Omega_p \Omega_c}{\Omega} \right)^2 \frac{\gamma \nu^2}{[\Omega_c^2/4 - \nu(\nu \mp \Delta)]^2 + \gamma^2 \nu^2/4}. \quad (1.64)$$

The evolution of the mean phonon number $\langle n \rangle = \sum_n n P(n)$ follows [16, 17]:

$$\frac{d\langle n \rangle}{dt} = -\eta^2(A_- - A_+) \langle n \rangle + \eta^2 A_+ = -W \langle n \rangle + \eta^2 A_+, \quad (1.65)$$

where $W = \eta^2(A_- - A_+)$ is the net cooling rate. Under the optimal condition $\delta \simeq \nu$, the maximum cooling rate scales as

$$W_{\max} \sim \eta^2 \frac{\Omega_p^2 \Omega_c^2}{\Omega^2 \gamma}, \quad (1.66)$$

which confirms that fast cooling is achieved for large Rabi frequencies [17].

The steady-state mean vibrational quantum number $\langle n_S \rangle$ is given by the ratio of the heating rate to the net cooling rate:

$$\langle n_S \rangle = \frac{A_+}{A_- - A_+} = \frac{\gamma^2 \nu^2 + 4[\Omega_c^2/4 - \nu(\nu + \Delta)]^2}{4\Delta\nu|\Omega_c^2 - 4\nu^2|}. \quad (1.67)$$

The absolute minimum is achieved when the AC Stark shift matches the trap frequency, i.e. when Eq. (1.62) is satisfied, yielding the fundamental theoretical cooling limit [16, 17]:

$$\langle n_S \rangle_{\min} = \left(\frac{\gamma}{4\Delta} \right)^2. \quad (1.68)$$

By choosing a sufficiently large coupling-laser detuning $\Delta \gg \gamma$, $\langle n_S \rangle$ can in principle be made arbitrarily small. However maintaining the resonance condition $\delta \simeq \nu$ at larger Δ requires $\Omega_c^2 \propto \Delta\nu$ to grow accordingly, so faster cooling and lower final occupations demand correspondingly higher coupling-laser intensities.

1.4.6 Theoretical Considerations for in-fiber EIT Cooling

The implementation of EIT cooling inside a tightly focused optical dipole trap, such as the one used to load atoms into a hollow-core photonic crystal fiber (HCPCF), requires revisiting the assumptions of the free-space case in the presence of an intense, spatially varying trapping field. The dominant perturbation is the differential AC Stark shift between the ground and excited states of the cooling cycle, induced by the trapping laser itself.

Differential AC Stark shift. For a far-red-detuned trapping field of angular frequency ω_t and local intensity $I(\mathbf{r})$, the scalar light shift of an atomic level $|i\rangle$ of static polarizability $\alpha_i(\omega_t)$ is

$$U_i(\mathbf{r}) = -\frac{\alpha_i(\omega_t)}{2\varepsilon_0 c} I(\mathbf{r}), \quad (1.69)$$

so that the single-photon resonance of the $|g_1\rangle \leftrightarrow |e\rangle$ transition is displaced by the differential shift

$$\Delta_{\text{AC}}(\mathbf{r}) = \frac{U_g(\mathbf{r}) - U_e(\mathbf{r})}{\hbar} = -\frac{\alpha_g(\omega_t) - \alpha_e(\omega_t)}{2\varepsilon_0 c \hbar} I(\mathbf{r}). \quad (1.70)$$

At the trapping wavelength used for in-fiber loading, the excited state of the cooling cycle has polarizability of opposite sign to the ground manifold, so $\alpha_g - \alpha_e$ is large and $|\Delta_{\text{AC}}(0)|$ typically exceeds the bare linewidth. The cooling and probe lasers must therefore be retuned by $\Delta_{\text{AC}}(0)$ to maintain the cooling condition.

Common-mode protection of the dark state. The two hyperfine ground states $|g_1\rangle, |g_2\rangle$ entering the Λ system share essentially the same scalar polarizability, so their light shifts are equal and the relative ground-state splitting is preserved. The dark state $|\Psi_D\rangle$ of Eq. (1.54) is built only from $|g_1\rangle, |g_2\rangle$; its absolute energy is shifted by the common-mode U_g , but its composition and the two-photon resonance condition are unchanged. The Fano transparency zero is thus structurally protected against the trapping field.

The red-sideband transition $|g_1, n\rangle \rightarrow |e, n-1\rangle$ is a single-photon transition, sensitive to the absolute shift of $|e\rangle$. Its resonance frequency acquires the displacement $\Delta_{\text{AC}}(0)$, so the optimal cooling condition of Eq. (1.61) generalizes to

$$\delta \simeq \nu - \Delta_{\text{AC}}(0), \quad (1.71)$$

i.e., the coupling-laser intensity must be tuned so that the AC Stark shift $\delta \simeq \Omega_c^2/(4\Delta)$ of the narrow dressed-state resonance compensates both the trap frequency ν and the trapping-induced shift $\Delta_{\text{AC}}(0)$.

Inhomogeneous broadening. The previous treatment gives the correct tuning for an atom strictly on the trap axis. Real atoms, however, oscillate transversely in the dipole potential and sample a range of local intensities. Since the differential AC Stark shift Δ_{AC} is proportional to the local trapping intensity, this thermal motion translates into a spread of the single-photon resonance frequencies sampled by the atomic ensemble.

To quantify this effect, we consider the transverse intensity profile of the fundamental Gaussian mode, which is given by $I(r) = I_0 e^{-2r^2/w_0^2}$, where w_0 is the beam waist. The confining optical dipole potential is directly proportional to this intensity, and can be written as $U(r) = -U_0 e^{-2r^2/w_0^2}$, with U_0 being the maximum trap depth at the axis ($r = 0$). For cold atoms confined near the trap axis ($r \ll w_0$), we can expand the

exponential to first order, $e^{-2r^2/w_0^2} \approx 1 - 2r^2/w_0^2$, yielding the harmonic approximation of the potential:

$$U(r) \approx -U_0 \left(1 - \frac{2r^2}{w_0^2} \right) = -U_0 + \frac{2U_0 r^2}{w_0^2}. \quad (1.72)$$

The potential energy relative to the trap minimum is thus $\Delta U(r) = 2U_0 r^2/w_0^2$. The radial extent of the atomic motion is bounded by the available thermal energy. By equating the local harmonic potential energy to the characteristic one-dimensional thermal energy $k_B T$, i.e.,

$$\frac{2U_0 r_{\text{th}}^2}{w_0^2} = k_B T, \quad (1.73)$$

we can solve for r_{th} to find the effective thermal radius of the atomic cloud:

$$r_{\text{th}} = \frac{w_0}{\sqrt{2}} \sqrt{\frac{k_B T}{U_0}}. \quad (1.74)$$

Beyond this radius, the kinetic energy is generally insufficient to climb the potential barrier. As expected, hotter atoms or shallower traps (larger $k_B T/U_0$) push r_{th} outward into the wings of the Gaussian profile, while colder atoms in deep traps stay confined near the axis where the intensity is nearly uniform.

Because the differential light shift follows the same Gaussian profile as the potential, $\Delta_{\text{AC}}(r) = \Delta_{\text{AC}}(0)e^{-2r^2/w_0^2}$, its spatial variation near the axis can similarly be expanded as:

$$\Delta_{\text{AC}}(r) \approx \Delta_{\text{AC}}(0) \left(1 - \frac{2r^2}{w_0^2} \right). \quad (1.75)$$

The effective spread of the single-photon resonance sampled by the thermal cloud, which we denote as δ_{in} , is given by the difference between the shift on-axis and the shift evaluated at the thermal radius:

$$\delta_{\text{in}} \approx |\Delta_{\text{AC}}(0)| - |\Delta_{\text{AC}}(r_{\text{th}})| = |\Delta_{\text{AC}}(0)| \frac{2r_{\text{th}}^2}{w_0^2}. \quad (1.76)$$

Substituting the expression for r_{th}^2 derived above into this relation, we obtain:

$$\delta_{\text{in}} \approx |\Delta_{\text{AC}}(0)| \frac{2}{w_0^2} \left(\frac{w_0^2 k_B T}{2U_0} \right) = |\Delta_{\text{AC}}(0)| \frac{k_B T}{U_0}. \quad (1.77)$$

This inhomogeneous broadening deteriorates the cooling performance. When δ_{in} becomes comparable to the trap frequency ν , the narrow red-sideband absorption line is smeared out over a spectral range that overlaps with the carrier transition. Consequently, the idealized theoretical limit $\langle n_S \rangle_{\text{min}} = (\gamma/4\Delta)^2$ of Eq. (1.68) is replaced by an effective limit

for in-fiber operation. At the level of a scaling estimate, one may write

$$\langle n_S \rangle_{\text{fiber}} \gtrsim \left(\frac{\gamma}{4\Delta} \right)^2 + \mathcal{O}\left(\frac{\delta_{\text{in}}^2}{\nu^2} \right), \quad (1.78)$$

This expression indicates the expected degradation when the distribution of differential light shifts is small compared with the trap frequency. A quantitative prediction requires averaging the cooling and heating rates over the atomic spatial distribution.

Chapter 2

Materials and Methods

This chapter describes the experimental apparatus used in this work. First, a brief overview of the implementation of the Magneto-Optical Trap (MOT) for rubidium-87 atoms (^{87}Rb) is presented (this setup was already available prior to the present work). The chapter then focuses on the work carried out during this thesis, namely the implementation of the Optical Dipole Trap setup employed to transfer and trap atoms from the MOT. A particular focus is put on the coupling between the ODT laser source and the Hollow-Core Photonic Crystal Fiber (HCPCF), that delivers the ODT light in the vacuum chamber.

This section describes the apparatus used to produce, cool, and trap a sample of ^{87}Rb atoms. The atomic sample is prepared via a standard Magneto-Optical Trap (MOT) followed by an optical molasses phase, providing the cold atomic cloud required to load the Optical Dipole Trap (ODT). Spatial confinement and initial cooling rely on three pairs of counter-propagating, orthogonally polarized (σ^+/σ^-), red-detuned laser beams intersecting a quadrupole magnetic field. Following the MOT stage, the magnetic gradient is switched off to perform sub-Doppler cooling in an optical molasses (see 1.2).

2.0.1 Setup Description

The core of the apparatus is an Ultra-High Vacuum (UHV) chamber (Fig. 2.1) maintained at a baseline pressure of $\sim 10^{-10}$ mbar by an ion/getter combination pump (NEX Torr Z200). A heated ampoule of pure ^{87}Rb supplies the atomic vapor, raising the pressure to $\sim 10^{-8}$ mbar during trap loading.

Optical access is provided by eight windows: two large CF100 viewports along the z -axis and four CF40 viewports at 45° , all AR-coated for 780 nm to optimize MOT beam transmission. Two uncoated CF40 viewports provide access for the second ODT beam and the ion pump. Due to reflections from the ion pump on the x -axis, imaging is performed through the z -axis viewports.

The MOT quadrupole magnetic field is generated by anti-Helmholtz coils (110 mm inner

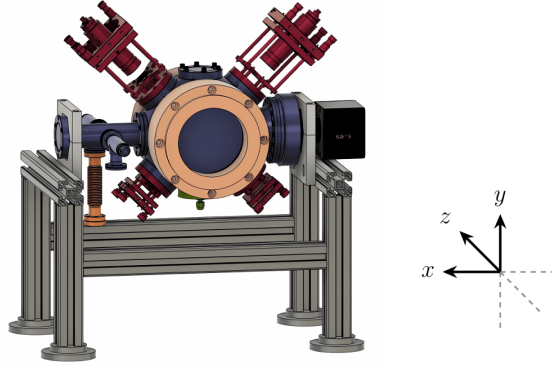


Figure 2.1: *CAD rendering of the vacuum chamber and surrounding experimental setup.*

diameter) producing a measured axial gradient of $1.33 \text{ G cm}^{-1} \text{ A}^{-1}$ (and a corresponding radial gradient of half this value with opposite sign) [19]. Three mutually orthogonal pairs of Helmholtz shim coils cancel stray fields and are used to optimize the MOT-ODT spatial overlap, with calibration factors [14]:

$$B_z \approx 1.4 \text{ mG/mA}, \quad B_x \approx 1.3 \text{ mG/mA}, \quad B_y \approx 1.5 \text{ mG/mA}.$$

A Hollow-Core Photonic Crystal Fiber (HCPCF) is introduced from the bottom of the chamber via a custom mount, positioning its tip $\sim 10 \text{ mm}$ below the trap center. The optical layout is fiber-coupled using polarization-maintaining (PANDA) fibers [10]. The MOT beams are delivered via three fiber collimators and retro-reflected with quarter-wave plates to maintain the correct polarization sequence. ok

2.0.2 Laser System and Frequency Stabilization

Cooling operates on the $^{87}\text{Rb } 5^2S_{1/2} \rightarrow 5^2P_{3/2}$ (D2) transition near 780 nm (Fig. 2.2). The cooling laser drives the closed $F = 2 \rightarrow F' = 3$ transition, while a repumper laser on the $F = 1 \rightarrow F' = 2$ transition recovers atoms that off-resonantly decay into the $F = 1$ dark state. Both lasers are offset-locked to a common master laser [20, 21]. ok

2.0.2.1 Master laser

The master reference is a 780 nm DFB laser diode stabilized via frequency-modulated saturation spectroscopy in a heated ^{85}Rb vapor cell (Fig. 2.3). It is locked to the ^{85}Rb ($F = 3 \rightarrow F' = 3$) $\times$ ($F = 3 \rightarrow F' = 4$) crossover resonance, providing a stable absolute frequency located between the ^{87}Rb cooling and repumping transitions.

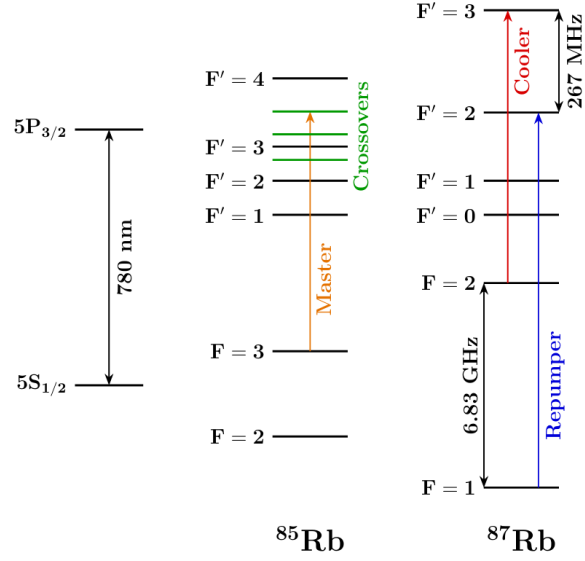


Figure 2.2: Level scheme of the ^{85}Rb and ^{87}Rb D2 line.

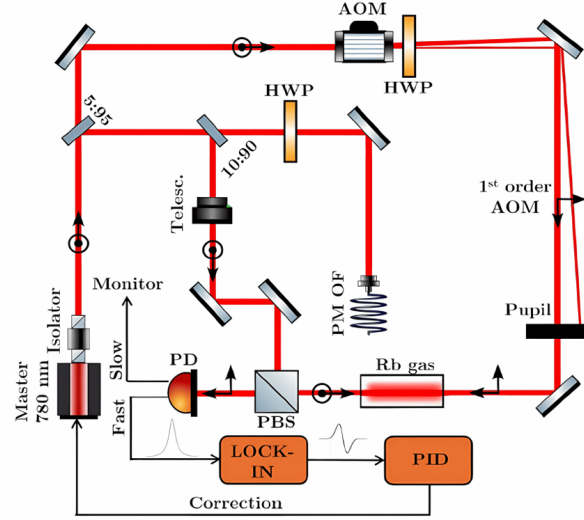


Figure 2.3: Master laser locking setup scheme.

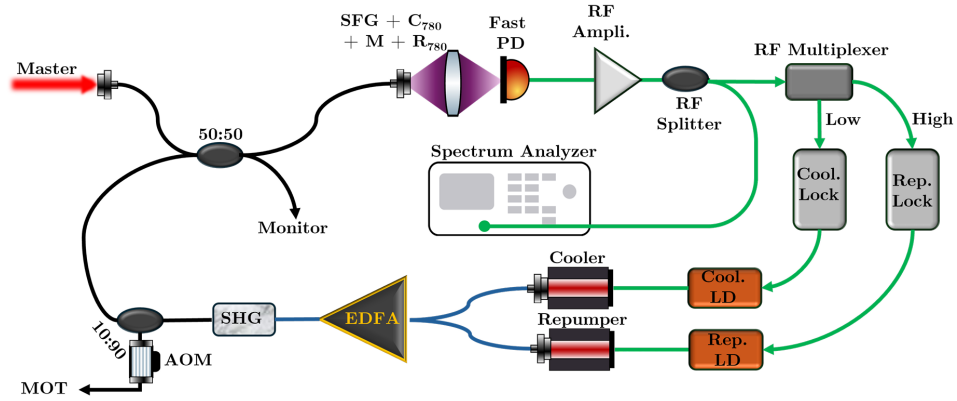


Figure 2.4: Beat-note locking setup scheme.

2.0.2.2 Cooler and repumper lasers

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The cooling and repumping light is generated by two 1560 nm DFB diodes. Their outputs are fiber-combined, amplified to ~ 500 mW by an Erbium-Doped Fiber Amplifier (EDFA), and frequency-doubled to 780 nm via a Second Harmonic Generation (SHG) crystal (Fig. 2.4).

Most of this light (90%) is distributed to the MOT optics via a fast-switching AOM. The remaining 10% is mixed with the master laser on a fast (~ 10 GHz) photodiode to generate beat-note signals for frequency offset locking.

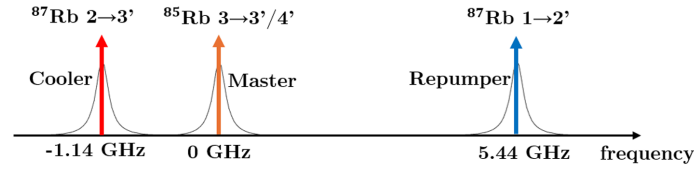


Figure 2.5: *Example of beat-note signals on a spectrum analyzer, used for frequency offset locking of the cooler and repumper lasers relative to the master laser.*

The master-cooler beat and master-repumper beat are isolated via RF filters, producing the error signals used to stabilize the cooler and repumper frequencies relative to the master laser [19].

2.1 Experimental Procedures and Analysis Methodology

The work described in this chapter was carried out in three successive stages. The first goal was to minimize the temperature of the atomic sample, which meant optimizing the optical molasses that follows the magneto-optical trap (MOT); this is reported in the temperature-measurement subsection. Once a cold-enough cloud was reliably produced, the attention shifted to the optical dipole trap (ODT), and in particular to how efficiently it captures atoms out of the molasses—the loading-efficiency study. Only at the end, with both the temperature and the loading behavior under control, was the absolute number of trapped atoms determined, which required a full photon-count calibration of the imaging camera.

2.1.1 Cold-Atom Preparation: MOT and Optical Molasses

Each experimental run opens by loading atoms into the MOT at the operating point already characterized for this apparatus. The trap is run with an axial field gradient of $B' = 9.32 \text{ G/cm}$, obtained from an 8 A current in the quadrupole coils, a cooler detuning of $\Delta = -13 \text{ MHz}$, and with all compensation coils kept at zero current. The MOT is left to load for 5 s before moving on to the next stage.

After loading, the cloud enters an optical molasses phase. Switching off the quadrupole field removes the spatial confinement while letting the temperature drop further, so the cloud simultaneously expands, begins to fall under gravity, and is still damped by the cooling light. To leading order the molasses temperature follows $I/|\Delta|$ in the cooling-beam intensity I and detuning Δ [22]; this scaling is only valid provided $|\Delta|$ remains small enough that the photon scattering rate $\Gamma_p \propto 1/\Delta^2$ is not appreciably suppressed, yet large enough that excitation of the neighbouring $F = 2 \rightarrow F' = 2$ transition stays negligible. Molasses also requires a genuinely zero magnetic field, so 5 ms after the MOT field is turned off the shim-coil currents are updated to cancel the Earth's field and any other residual field in the laboratory. The cooling-light detuning itself is then brought from its MOT value to its molasses value through a 20-step ramp of 5 ms total duration, beginning 50 μs after the shim update.

2.1.2 Atom Imaging

The cold cloud is observed inside the vacuum chamber by two monochromatic CMOS cameras:

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- a Teledyne FLIR BFS-U3-04S2M-CS, built on the Sony IMX287 sensor, with 720×540 resolution and $6.9 \mu\text{m} \times 6.9 \mu\text{m}$ pixels;
- an Allied Vision Manta G-419 NIR, built on the CMOSIS/ams CMV4000 sensor, with 2048×2048 resolution and $5.5 \mu\text{m} \times 5.5 \mu\text{m}$ pixels.

The FLIR camera is used mainly while optimizing the molasses stage, whereas the Manta camera—chosen for its higher sensitivity at 780 nm and finer pixel pitch, both well matched to resolving the small region occupied by the ODT—is used to measure the ODT capture efficiency. Both cameras are fitted with a Thorlabs MVL50M23 adjustable objective (50 mm focal length, 200 mm minimum working distance, minimum magnification ~ 0.33), focused so that the HCPCF inside the chamber—and the atomic cloud at essentially the same distance—lies sharp on the sensor. Both cameras are triggered externally by the FPGA control system.

2.1.3 Camera Flir Blackfly Calibration

Accurate temperature measurements both depend on knowing the cloud's spatial dimensions in absolute units, which in turn requires calibrating the imaging system. Starting from the physical pixel pitch of the sensor ($6.9 \mu\text{m}$ for the FLIR camera), three independent methods were used to determine the optical magnification M and the corresponding effective pixel size in the object plane. The methods below are reported:

1. Method 1: Direct Imaging of a Known Microstructure

The first approach uses the Hollow-Core Photonic Crystal Fiber (HCPCF) of known physical diameter $316 \mu\text{m}$ as a spatial reference. The fiber is imaged and the known diameter is compared to the number of pixels, however because optical blurring and the difficulty of locating the fiber boundary by eye both introduce uncertainty, a spatial fitting routine is used to recover the apparent diameter.

The fit maps the $316 \mu\text{m}$ diameter onto an extent of 8 sensor pixels, giving an effective pixel size in object space of

$$C = \frac{316 \mu\text{m}}{8 \text{ px}} = 39.5 \mu\text{m/px}, \quad \text{errore} \quad (2.1)$$

which corresponds to an optical magnification $M = 6.9/39.5 = 0.174$.

2. Method 2: Optical Target Calibration via Reflection

To make sure the calibration target sits at exactly the same focal plane as the atomic cloud, a macroscopic optical target (a standard ruler) is used together with a mirror. The camera, already focused on the atoms from earlier runs, images the reflected

ruler; the ruler is moved until its image is perfectly sharp, which guarantees optical equidistance between the target and the cloud.

Several segments of the ruler are analyzed to obtain a statistically robust measurement, averaging over them gives a consistent effective pixel size of about $43.3 \mu\text{m}/\text{px}$, i.e. a magnification $M \approx 0.160$. errore

3. Method 3: Magnetic Field Displacement

The last technique cross-checks the optical calibration against the predicted spatial displacement of the MOT under a known bias field. A uniform bias field applied through the y -axis shim coils is measured to shift the cloud by $y_{\text{shift}} = 58 \text{ px}/\text{A}$. Modeling the shim coils as a cubic structure of side $L = 645 \text{ mm}$ with $N = 100$ loops gives a field transfer function $b = 1.43 \text{ G}/\text{A}$. The MOT restoring force is set by its quadrupole gradient: with the MOT coils running at $I = 8.4 \text{ A}$, 128 loops, an effective radius $R_{\text{eff}} = 62 \text{ mm}$ and an effective separation $a_{\text{eff}} = 162 \text{ mm}$, the calculated vertical gradient is $G_{y\text{TOT}} = 0.571 \text{ G}/\text{mm}$.

Equating the magnetic displacement to the observed pixel displacement gives the effective pixel size

$$C = \frac{b}{G_{y\text{TOT}} \cdot y_{\text{shift}}} = \frac{1.43 \text{ G}/\text{A}}{0.571 \text{ G}/\text{mm} \cdot 58 \text{ px}/\text{A}} \approx 0.043 \text{ mm}/\text{px} = 43 \mu\text{m}/\text{px}. \quad (2.2)$$

Using instead the empirically characterized values obtained in earlier work on this apparatus **CITA MATTEO** ($b = 1.5 \text{ G}/\text{A}$ and $G = 5.6 \text{ G}/\text{cm}$ at 8.4 A) gives

$$C = \frac{1.5}{5.6 \cdot 58} \text{ cm}/\text{px} \approx 46 \mu\text{m}/\text{px}. \quad (2.3)$$

Both estimates agree well with the optical target value of Method 2, which is the value adopted for the temperature and loading measurements that follow.

A summary of the three methods is reported in Fig. 2.6.

2.1.4 Temperature Measurements

The calibration just described is what allows the cloud's image widths to be read as physical lengths, and therefore its temperature to be extracted from ballistic expansion.

Temperature measurements are used to **drive** the optimization of the molasses parameters toward the lowest achievable temperature. The method **rests** on the ballistic expansion of the cloud during free fall: for a non-interacting gas, an atom at x_0 at $t = 0$ reaches, after a free-evolution time t ,

$$x(t) = x_0 + v_x t. \quad (2.4)$$

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Treating position and velocity as statistically independent random variables, the variances of their sum add,

$$\sigma_x^2(t) = \sigma_{x,0}^2 + \sigma_{v_x}^2 t^2, \quad (2.5)$$

with $\sigma_{x,0}$ the initial position spread. The equipartition theorem links the mean squared velocity along x to the corresponding temperature,

$$\frac{1}{2}m\langle v_x^2 \rangle = \frac{1}{2}k_B T_x, \quad (2.6)$$

and, working in the cloud's center-of-mass frame where $\langle v_x \rangle = 0$,

$$\langle v_x^2 \rangle = \sigma_{v_x}^2 = \frac{k_B T_x}{m}. \quad (2.7)$$

Combining these gives the expansion law actually used in the fit,

$$\sigma_x^2(t) = \sigma_{x,0}^2 + \frac{k_B T_x}{m} t^2, \quad (2.8)$$

which, using the ^{87}Rb mass $m = m_A(^{87}\text{Rb}) = 86.9 \text{ u} \approx 1.443 \times 10^{-25} \text{ kg}$ together with images taken at a series of times of flight (TOF), returns T_x as a fit parameter.

The full acquisition and analysis sequence is then:

1. A MOT is loaded and followed by the molasses stage, with the molasses parameters and duration being the quantities under optimization (see the corresponding results chapter).
2. All cooling light is switched off, leaving the cloud to fall and expand freely. The FLIR camera records an image $I(\text{TOF})$ at each chosen time of flight, together with a background image $I_{\text{bkg}}(\text{TOF})$ taken after a long wait (1 s) so that the cloud has fully dispersed. Because the imaging flash itself heats and destroys the sample, every TOF requires its own independent MOT-loading and molasses sequence.
3. The background is subtracted,

$$I_{\text{clean}}(\text{TOF}) = I(\text{TOF}) - I_{\text{bkg}}(\text{TOF}), \quad (2.9)$$

with the associated Poisson uncertainty

$$\sigma_N = \sqrt{I(\text{TOF}) + I_{\text{bkg}}(\text{TOF})}. \quad (2.10)$$

4. Each background-subtracted image is fitted with a two-dimensional Gaussian (through a trust-region-reflective minimization) to recover the cloud widths σ_x and σ_y along the two principal axes.

5. The expansion law is fitted independently along x and y to obtain T_x and T_y , and the reported temperature T is their average.

2.1.5 ODT Loading Measurements

The same imaging system, now used with the Manta camera, also quantifies how efficiently the optical dipole trap captures atoms. The ODT performance is captured by two figures of merit: the loading efficiency η and the integrated intensity of the ODT peak, the latter being directly proportional to the number of captured atoms. Both are obtained by comparing fluorescence images taken with the ODT switched on or off during the MOT and molasses stages. Because only a small fraction of the atoms—of order $1/1000$ —ends up trapped by the ODT, this comparison relies on differential imaging with careful background normalization: the much larger and slowly fluctuating molasses signal would otherwise swamp the small ODT signal. The full procedure is the following.

1. Two otherwise identical MOT-plus-molasses sequences are run **back to back**, one with the ODT held on from the MOT loading phase onward and one with it off. After a 30 ms TOF—long enough for the untrapped atoms to expand and become distinguishable from those confined by the ODT—fluorescence images I_{on} and I_{off} are recorded with the Manta camera. Each on/off pair is repeated five times.
2. Both images are cropped to a **530×380** pixel region of interest centered on the atomic cloud, which removes both the region where the HCPCF itself is visible and the peripheral areas containing only background.
3. To improve the signal-to-noise ratio—**critical** given how weak the ODT signal is—the cropped images for each condition are averaged, giving **$\bar{I}_{\text{on}} = \langle I_{\text{on}} \rangle$ and $\bar{I}_{\text{off}} = \langle I_{\text{off}} \rangle$** . ?
4. These averaged images are then collapsed into one-dimensional density profiles by integrating along columns, which further improves the signal-to-noise ratio.
5. The total molasses atom number drifts slowly over time, even at fixed experimental parameters, due to slow pressure changes in the chamber and thermal effects in optical components such as the AOMs. Since these drifts are correlated between the on/off measurements and the ODT signal itself is small, simply differencing the averaged profiles leaves a residual background comparable in size to the ODT signal. To correct for this, the off profile is rescaled by a factor k chosen so that the integrated difference outside the ODT region vanishes:
 - (a) An exclusion window $x_{\text{ODT}} \pm R_{\text{window}}$ is defined around the ODT position; everything outside it forms the “outside region”.

- (b) A linear background $L_i(x)$ is estimated from the edges of each profile; after subtracting it, the integrated signal outside the ODT region is computed for both conditions,

$$A_i^{\text{out}} = \int_{\text{outside}} [P_i(x) - \bar{L}_i(x)] dx, \quad i \in \{\text{on}, \text{off}\}. \quad (2.11)$$

- (c) The rescaling factor is the ratio of these two areas,

$$k = \frac{A_{\text{on}}^{\text{out}}}{A_{\text{off}}^{\text{out}}}. \quad (2.12)$$

6. The rescaled differential profile, isolating the ODT-trapped atom signal, is then

$$\Delta \bar{I}(x) = \bar{I}_{\text{on}}(x) - k \cdot \bar{I}_{\text{off}}(x). \quad (2.13)$$

7. Two independent fits—each a Gaussian on top of a linear background—are then performed: one on the off profile $\bar{I}_{\text{off}}(x)$ and one on the differential profile $\Delta \bar{I}(x)$. From the resulting Gaussian areas $A_{\text{off}}^{\text{Gaus}}$ and $A_{\text{ODT}}^{\text{Gaus}}$, the capture efficiency follows as

$$\eta = \frac{A_{\text{ODT}}^{\text{Gaus}}}{k \times A_{\text{off}}^{\text{Gaus}}}. \quad (2.14)$$

2.1.6 Measurement of the Number of Atoms

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The previous section showed how the ODT capture efficiency η is obtained from a ratio of integrated signals, which is independent of the absolute camera calibration. To turn the same fluorescence images into an absolute atom number, the camera must instead be calibrated end to end, mapping photon counts onto a known incident optical power. This section describes that calibration chain—from the optical attenuation measurements, through the camera’s photon-to-count response factor, to the final extraction of the absolute number of trapped atoms from fluorescence images.

To convert those integrated counts into a physical atom number, the imaging camera is calibrated against a precisely known incident optical power. A beam from the MOT is reflected and directed onto the camera sensor.

The beam passes through a chain of optical attenuators and the vacuum-chamber viewports, so the power actually reaching the sensor (P_{cam}) requires knowing the transmission of every element along the path. A constant background power of $P_{bg} = 1.5 \mu\text{W}$ is subtracted from all radiometric readings, and the initial power before the first attenuator (at an AOM amplitude of 450) is measured to be $1000 \mu\text{W}$.

The transmission factors (T) of the total system transmission is the product of the indi-

vidual transmissions of the three attenuators and the vacuum viewports,

$$T_{tot} = T_1 \cdot T_{vac} \cdot T_2 \cdot T_3 \approx 0.01272. \quad (2.15)$$

During the calibration exposure the AOM amplitude is set to 50, giving an initial measured power of $22 \mu\text{W}$ after background subtraction. The effective power reaching the camera is therefore

$$P_{cam} = 22 \mu\text{W} \cdot T_{tot} \approx 279.8 \text{ nW}. \quad (2.16)$$

With the incident power known, the calibration factor K (in photons per count) is found by varying the camera exposure time t_{exp} at fixed P_{cam} . The procedure involves taking pictures of the calibration beam on the camera, 2D fitting the intensity distribution and calculating its area, obtaining the total photon count. Measuring the total counts extracted from the image as C and assuming a linear sensor response, the counts accumulate linearly with exposure time,

$$C = m \cdot t_{exp} + q. \quad (2.17)$$

A linear regression on the data gives the slope m in counts per second. The rate of incident photons is the optical power divided by the energy of a single photon, $E_{ph} = hc/\lambda$, so the calibration factor is

$$K = \frac{\text{Incident Photons}}{\text{Total Counts}} = \frac{P_{cam} \cdot \lambda}{m \cdot h \cdot c}, \quad (2.18)$$

where h is Planck's constant, c the speed of light, and λ the laser wavelength.

Once the camera is calibrated, the integrated area of the residual Gaussian from the ODT image, C_{tot} in counts, is converted into the total number of trapped atoms N .

The total number of detected photons is first obtained as

$$N_{det} = C_{tot} \cdot K. \quad (2.19)$$

During the imaging pulse of duration t_{img} each atom scatters light isotropically at a rate R_{sc} given by the two-level atom scattering formula

$$R_{sc} = \frac{\Gamma}{2} \frac{I/I_{sat}}{1 + I/I_{sat} + 4(\Delta/\Gamma)^2}, \quad (2.20)$$

where Γ is the natural linewidth, I the total imaging intensity, I_{sat} the saturation intensity, and Δ the laser detuning.

Only a fraction of these scattered photons reaches the sensor. This fraction is set by the solid angle of the collection optics (Ω) and the optical transmission of the viewports and lenses (T_{optics}). The fractional solid angle is approximated as $\eta = r^2/(4d^2)$, with r the effective radius of the collection lens and d the atom-to-lens distance. [inserisci valori](#)

The number of photons reaching the sensor per single atom is therefore [immagine fit calibrazione](#)

$$N_{ph/atom} = R_{sc} \cdot t_{img} \cdot \eta \cdot T_{optics}, \quad (2.21)$$

and the absolute number of trapped atoms follows by dividing the total detected photons by the single-atom contribution,

$$N = \frac{N_{det}}{N_{ph/atom}} = \frac{C_{tot} \cdot K}{R_{sc} \cdot t_{img} \cdot \frac{r^2}{4d^2} \cdot T_{optics}}. \quad (2.22)$$

2.2 Expected number of trapped atoms

An atom at position $\vec{r}$ is successfully trapped if its transverse kinetic energy is less than the potential depth: $\frac{1}{2}m(v_x^2 + v_y^2) < |U_{ODT}(\vec{r})|$. The localized spatial density is $n_{MOT}(\vec{r})$ and the velocity distribution is $f(\vec{v}) = (2\pi\mu^2)^{-3/2}e^{-v^2/2\mu^2}$, with $\mu^2 = \frac{k_B T}{m}$. The number of captured atoms is obtained by integrating over phase space, selecting only falling atoms ($v_z < 0$):

$$N_{ODT} = \int d^3r n_{MOT}(\vec{r}) \cdot \frac{1}{2} \int_0^{v_x^2+v_y^2 < \frac{2|U|}{m}} dv_x dv_y \frac{1}{2\pi\mu^2} e^{-\frac{v_x^2+v_y^2}{2\mu^2}} \quad (2.23)$$

Transforming the velocity integrals to polar coordinates ($dv_x dv_y = \pi d(v_r^2)$) and applying the change of variables $x = \frac{v_r^2}{2\mu^2}$:

$$\int_0^{\frac{2|U|}{m}} \pi d(v_r^2) \frac{1}{2\pi\mu^2} e^{-\frac{v_r^2}{2\mu^2}} = \int_0^{\frac{|U|}{m\mu^2}} e^{-x} dx = [-e^{-x}]_0^{\frac{|U|}{m\mu^2}} = 1 - e^{-\frac{|U_{ODT}(\vec{r})|}{k_B T}} \quad (2.24)$$

Therefore, the capture equation simplifies to:

$$N_{ODT} = \int d^3r n_{MOT}(\vec{r}) \cdot \frac{1}{2} \left(1 - e^{-\frac{|U_{ODT}(\vec{r})|}{k_B T}} \right) \quad (2.25)$$

In the shallow trap limit ($|U_{ODT}| \ll k_B T$), we can approximate $1 - e^{-x} \approx x$:

$$N_{ODT} \simeq \int d^3r n_{MOT}(\vec{r}) \frac{|U_{ODT}(\vec{r})|}{2k_B T} = \frac{U_0}{2k_B T} \int d^3r n_{MOT}(\vec{r}) \frac{W_0^2}{W^2(z)} e^{-\frac{2(x^2+y^2)}{W^2(z)}} \quad (2.26)$$

Given that the beam radius is much smaller than the cloud dimensions ($W(z) \ll R_x, R_y$), the transverse spatial integrals can be evaluated from $-\infty$ to $+\infty$:

$$\int_{-\infty}^{+\infty} \int_{-\infty}^{+\infty} e^{-\frac{2(x^2+y^2)}{W^2(z)}} dx dy = \frac{\pi W^2(z)}{2} \quad (2.27)$$

Substituting this back into the main expression causes $W^2(z)$ to cancel out:

$$N_{ODT} = \frac{U_0}{2k_B T} \frac{\pi W_0^2}{2} \int_{-R_z}^{R_z} n_{MOT}(0, 0, z) dz \quad (2.28)$$

Modeling the MOT as a uniform ellipsoid of radii R_x, R_y, R_z with constant density $n_{\text{MOT}} = \frac{3N_{\text{MOT}}}{4\pi R_x R_y R_z}$:

$$N_{\text{ODT}} = \frac{U_0 \pi W_0^2}{4k_B T} \left(\frac{3N_{\text{MOT}}}{4\pi R_x R_y R_z} \cdot 2R_z \right) = \frac{3}{8} \frac{U_0 W_0^2}{k_B T R_x R_y} N_{\text{MOT}} \quad (2.29)$$

This confirms that the capture efficiency $\frac{N_{\text{ODT}}}{N_{\text{MOT}}} = \frac{3}{8} \frac{U_0 W_0^2}{k_B T R_x R_y}$ is independent of the loading distance d , and independent of the waist size W_0 because the product $U_0 W_0^2 \propto P$ depends only on the laser power.

↙ Boh?

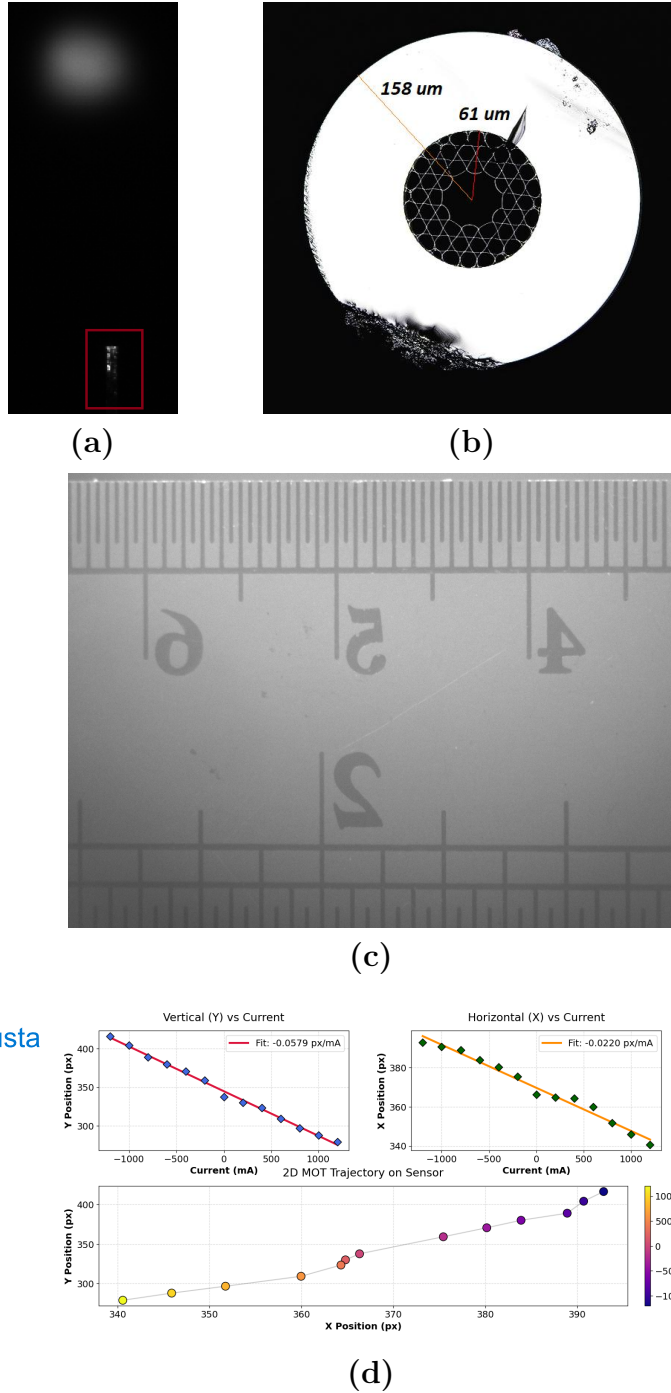


Figure 2.6: Summary of the three spatial-calibration methods used for the imaging system. **(a)** Side-view photograph of the hollow-core photonic crystal fiber (HCPCF) used as the known-length reference for Method 1; the apparent diameter is fitted to extract the effective pixel size. **(b)** Cross-section of the same fiber, with its $316\,\mu\text{m}$ physical diameter annotated, used together with (a) in Method 1. **(c)** Photograph of the ruler whose reflected image is brought into focus at the cloud plane, used in Method 2 (optical target calibration via reflection). **(d)** MOT position as a function of the bias current applied to the y-axis shim coils, used in Method 3 (magnetic field displacement); the linear fit gives a slope of $\sim 58\,\text{px/A}$, from which the effective pixel size $C \approx 43\,\mu\text{m/px}$ is obtained. The two side-view images (a) and (c) are taken from the actual recorded frames, while (b) is a fiber cross-section schematic.

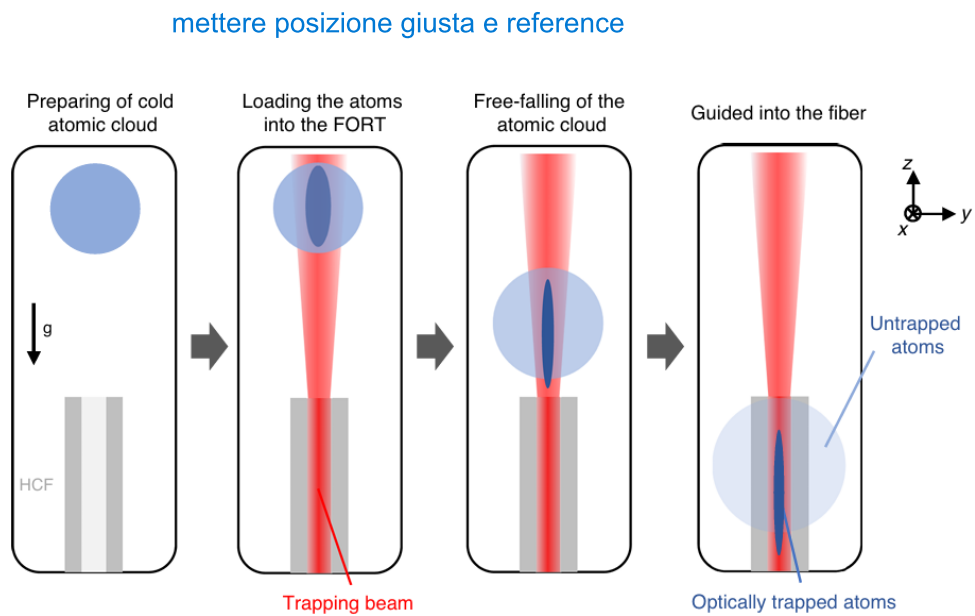


Figure 2.7: *Schematic of the differential imaging technique used for ODT loading measurements, comparing a sequence with the ODT on to one with the ODT off after a time-of-flight.*

2.3 Injection into the Black Fiber

[pre existing](#)

The black-fiber injection branch was developed as an extension of the existing 1064 nm [Optical Dipole Trap setup described in Section ??](#). In the original configuration, the light generated by the IPG Photonics YLR-20-1064-LP-SF laser is prepared for injection into the Hollow-Core Photonic Crystal Fiber (HCPCF), which guides the ODT beam through the vacuum chamber.

Before reaching the HCPCF injection stage, the laser beam passes through an optical isolator, which protects the laser source from back-reflections. Half-wave plates and polarizing beam splitters are then used to regulate the optical power and divide the beam between the available optical paths. In particular, HWP3 and PBS2 separate the light into two branches. The first branch constitutes the existing HCPCF injection path: the beam passes through an acousto-optic modulator (AOM) operating at 110 MHz. The first diffraction order is used for fast intensity control and frequency shifting, whereas the zeroth order is blocked by a beam dump. The diffracted beam is then expanded and collimated by a beam expander and finally steered by two mirrors toward an $f = 50$ mm lens, which focuses it into the HCPCF. [ref to image](#)

The second output of PBS2 was reserved for injection into a conventional telecom fiber, referred to throughout this work as the “black fiber”. This fiber provides the second optical field required for the realization of the optical conveyor belt discussed in [REFERENCE TO THEORY SECTION]. The conveyor belt is obtained by combining the beam guided through the HCPCF with the counterpropagating beam delivered by the black fiber. Efficient and stable injection into the latter is therefore a preliminary requirement for the implementation of the complete conveyor-belt configuration.

The purpose of the measurements presented in this section was to establish an efficient and reproducible method for coupling approximately 1 W of 1064 nm light into the black fiber. The injection strategy was initially developed on a dedicated test bench, where the input-beam parameters and the focusing geometry could be [characterized independently of the complete ODT apparatus](#). Once the procedure had been validated, the same strategy was transferred to the definitive branch downstream of PBS2.

In addition to maximizing the transmitted power, the injection system had to provide a well-defined spatial mode and a stable input polarization. These requirements are essential because fluctuations in the power or polarization of the beam emerging from the black fiber would directly affect the depth and stability of the optical conveyor-belt potential. The polarization stability is characterized [separately](#) in Section 2.4.

Possible propagation losses associated with fiber bending were evaluated at an early stage. The fiber was moderately bent while the transmitted power was monitored, resulting in a power variation below 1%. Bending losses were therefore considered negligible for the configurations used in the following measurements.

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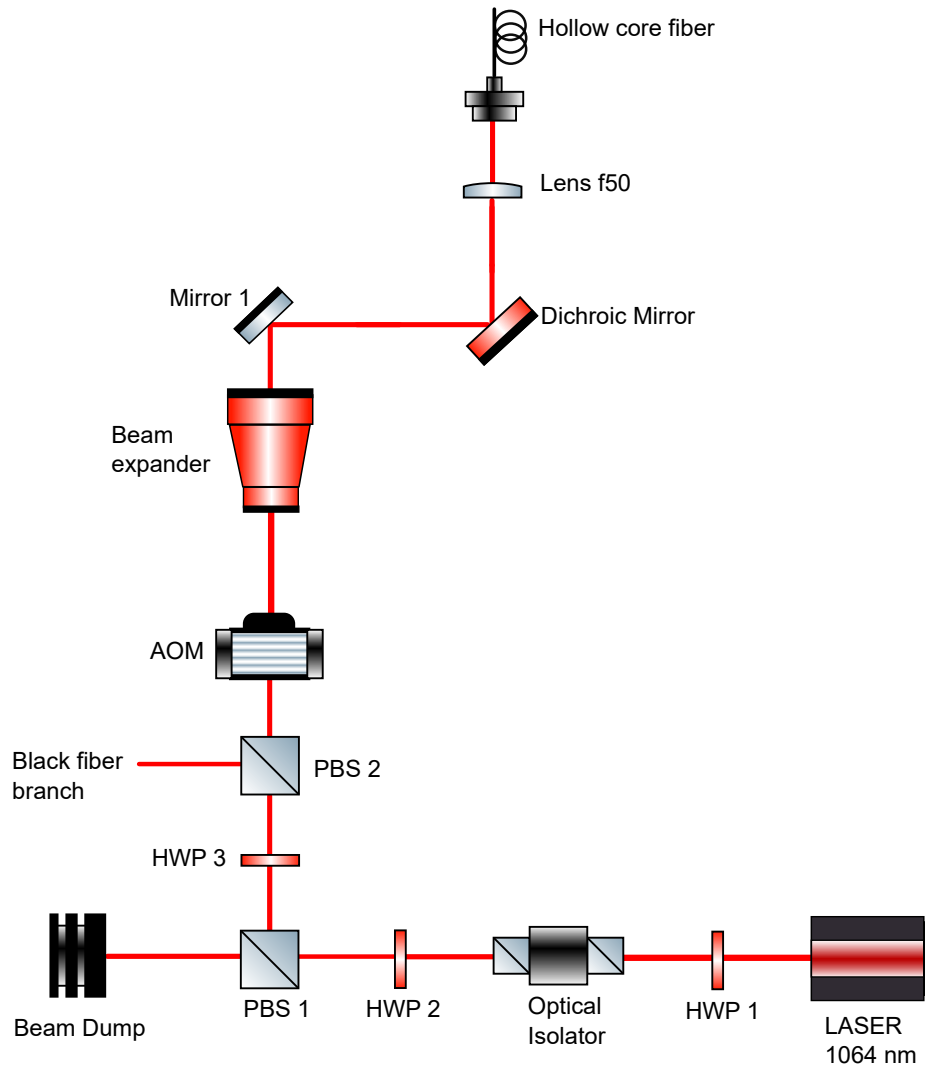


Figure 2.8: Questa è un'immagine vettoriale caricata da un PDF. MI sa che l'AOM va ruotato

2.3.1 Gaussian-beam characterization procedure

Throughout this work, the size and divergence of the optical beam were characterized using a common beam-profiling procedure. The same method was applied before and after the fiber whenever the injection geometry, input beam parameters, or output wavefront had to be determined.

The beam under test was first aligned horizontally at a fixed height above the optical table. This allowed its transverse intensity distribution to be sampled at a sequence of longitudinal positions without introducing additional optics between measurements. A camera mounted was then moved along the propagation direction, and an image of the beam cross-section was recorded at each position.

Each recorded image was cropped to isolate the beam spot from background light and stray reflections. The resulting intensity distribution was fitted with a two-dimensional Gaus-

sian function, from which the beam radii along the two transverse axes were extracted. Repeating this analysis at several positions provided the beam radius as a function of the longitudinal coordinate z .

For each transverse direction, the measured beam radius was fitted to the standard Gaussian-beam propagation law

$$w(z) = w_0 \sqrt{1 + \left(\frac{z - z_0}{z_R} \right)^2}, \quad (2.30)$$

where w_0 is the waist radius, z_0 is the waist position, and z_R is the associated Rayleigh range. This fit provided the size and position of the beam waist to be determined. The reconstructed beam parameters could then be compared with the target fiber-mode parameters or used to select and position the injection optics.

2.3.2 Standard injection strategy and preliminary setup

tempi verbali?

In the standard approach to coupling a Gaussian beam into a single-mode fiber, a collimated beam is sent onto a fiber collimator or focusing lens. The optic focuses the incident beam to a waist located at the fiber facet. Efficient coupling requires the focused field to match the fundamental mode of the fiber in waist size, waist position, transverse position. The first injection setup was based on this standard approach. I exploited the already existing setup for the injection of the hollow core fiber which included in the first part: a half wave plate, an optical isolator, another half wave plate, a polarizing beam splitter, another half wave plate, and a second polarizing beam splitter which splits the beam into two branches, one for the hollow core fiber and one for the black fiber. già detto prima

The beam from the 1064 nm source was expanded and collimated by an adjustable beam expander. It was then steered toward a fixed $f = 18$ mm fiber collimator (Schäfter+Kirchhoff, 60FC-4-A18-03) attached to the black fiber. The beam expander provided control not only over the beam diameter but also over its residual divergence, depending on the relative position of its optical elements.

When the nominally collimated beam was injected directly through the fixed $f = 18$ mm fiber collimator, the measured injection efficiency was only approximately 20%. The divergence of the beam incident on the collimator was then varied by adjusting the upstream beam expander.

A significant improvement was observed when the beam expander was slightly detuned from its collimated configuration, such that a weakly diverging beam reached the fiber collimator. The required correction was approximately equivalent to inserting a weak $f = -1000$ mm lens before the collimator. Under these conditions, the measured efficiency increased to more than 50%. come è calcolata la f-1000?

This result was initially counterintuitive, since a fiber collimator is nominally designed

to focus a collimated input beam onto the fiber mode. It therefore indicated that the optical position of the fiber mode did not coincide with the focal plane expected from the nominal collimator geometry.

To investigate this behavior, the beam was characterized both before and after the fiber using the profiling procedure described above. In particular, the output beam was sampled at several longitudinal positions, and its reconstructed waist was compared with the mode-field diameter specified by the fiber manufacturer.

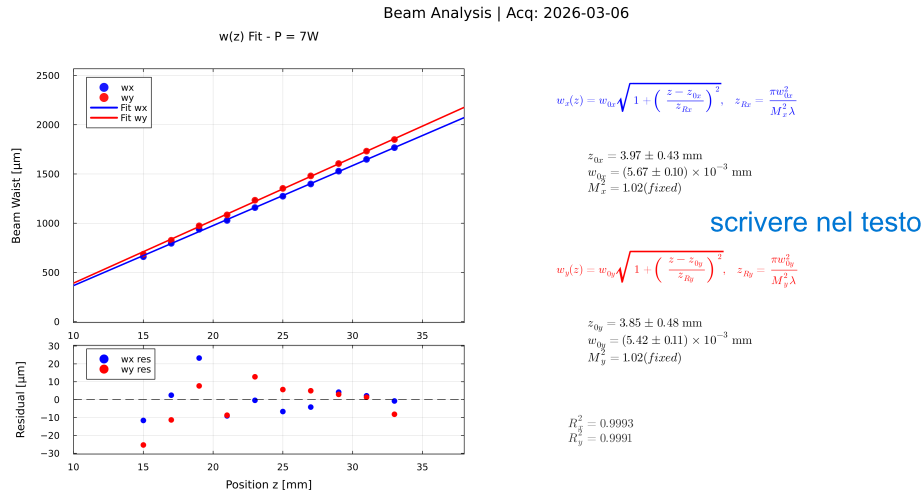


Figure 2.9: *Beam-radius measurements after the black fiber and fit to the Gaussian-beam propagation law. Complete the caption with the measurement direction, fitting parameters, uncertainties, and optical configuration.*

The waist reconstructed from the post-fiber measurements agreed with the mode-field diameter specified by the manufacturer. This confirmed that the measured output was compatible with the fundamental spatial mode.

reference alle immagini

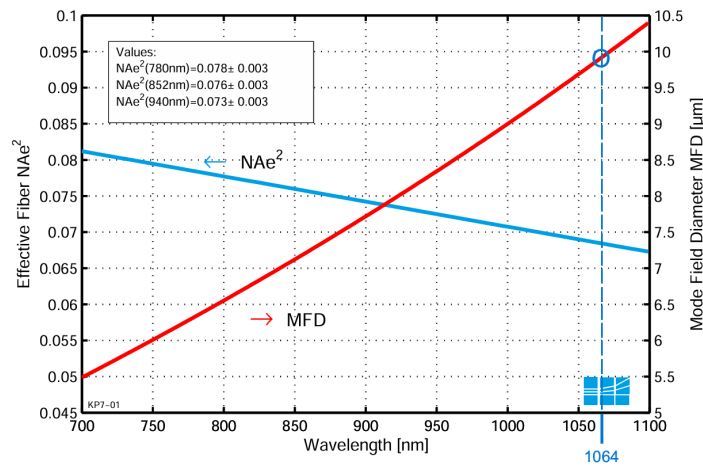


Figure 2.10: *Manufacturer specification of the mode-field diameter of the black fiber. Add the operating wavelength and identify the value used in the mode-matching calculation.*

The origin of the longitudinal mismatch was attributed to the endcap present at the fiber

input. The endcap consists of a glass cone approximately $300\text{ }\mu\text{m}$ long, spliced onto the fiber tip to improve power handling. Its presence changes the optical distance between the external focusing element and the effective fiber facet. Consequently, a collimated beam incident on a fixed collimator does not necessarily produce a waist at the correct axial position.

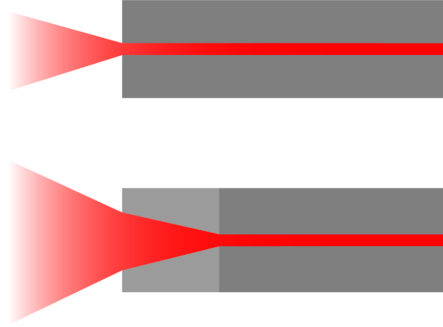


Figure 2.11: *Geometry of the endcap spliced onto the black-fiber tip. Add the endcap length, connector orientation, and propagation direction.* [reference](#)

The observed improvement obtained with a diverging input is consistent with this interpretation: the additional wavefront curvature shifts the focused waist relative to that generated by a perfectly collimated input. However, reproducing this divergence with a dedicated optical element would require a long, weak lens with approximately $f = -1000\text{ mm}$ immediately before the collimator. Such an element would be inconvenient to position, would increase the complexity of the injection branch, and could introduce additional aberrations or beam-quality degradation.

For this reason, the fixed $f = 18\text{ mm}$ input collimator was replaced by a more flexible focusing system based on an $f = 25\text{ mm}$ lens mounted on a micrometric translation stage. Translating this lens along the propagation direction made it possible to adjust the longitudinal position of the focused waist directly, without intentionally introducing divergence into the input beam.

2.3.3 Adjustable-lens injection setup

The modified injection setup used a nominally collimated input beam whose size was adjusted by the upstream beam expander. Two steering mirrors controlled the beam position and propagation angle at the fiber input. The beam was then focused by an $f = 25\text{ mm}$ lens (Thorlabs AC127-025-C), mounted on a micrometric translation stage along the propagation axis. The axial degree of freedom was used to compensate for the effective displacement introduced by the endcap.

At the opposite fiber end, a second collimator collected the transmitted light. Depending

imagine

on the measurement, the output beam was sent either to a power meter to determine the transmitted power or to the movable camera used for beam-profile characterization.

The selected $f = 25$ mm lens is a cemented achromatic doublet.

~~2.3.4 Determination of the required input beam~~

For a collimated Gaussian beam focused by a lens of focal length f , the required incident beam radius w_{in} is related to the focused waist radius w_f by

$$w_{\text{in}} = \frac{\lambda f}{\pi w_f}. \quad (2.31)$$

Using $\lambda = 1.064 \mu\text{m}$, $f = 25$ mm, and a target fiber-mode radius of $w_f = 5.2 \mu\text{m}$ gives

$$w_{\text{in}} = \frac{(1.064 \times 10^{-6} \text{ m})(25 \times 10^{-3} \text{ m})}{\pi(5.2 \times 10^{-6} \text{ m})} \approx 1.6 \text{ mm}. \quad (2.32)$$

The beam expander was therefore adjusted to produce a nominally collimated beam with a radius of approximately 1.6 mm at the injection lens. The beam was profiled before injection to verify both its size and its residual divergence.

The collimated beam prepared with the calculated radius was injected through the $f = 25$ mm lens. The corrected lens position was validated through an additional beam-profiling measurement. Light at 1064 nm and an optical power of 7 W was propagated through the black fiber using the original $f = 18$ mm collimator for injection and the adjustable $f = 25$ mm lens at the output. This propagation direction was therefore reversed relative to the earlier forward-injection measurement.

In this configuration, the $f = 25$ mm lens produced a correctly collimated output beam. This confirmed that the lens had been placed at the appropriate axial position relative to the effective fiber mode.

With the corrected setup, the power measured after the black fiber and the $f = 18$ mm output collimator reached approximately 70% of the power measured before the fiber, directly after the $f = 25$ mm lens. Repeating the measurement yielded again an efficiency of approximately 70%, demonstrating that the result was reproducible.

During the same characterization, the fiber was flexed while the transmitted power was monitored. The resulting power variations remained below 1%, confirming that bending losses were negligible compared with the remaining injection and optical losses.

2.3.5 Implementation in the definitive injection branch

The measurements described above were performed on a preliminary test bench designed to validate the injection strategy before construction of the final optical layout.

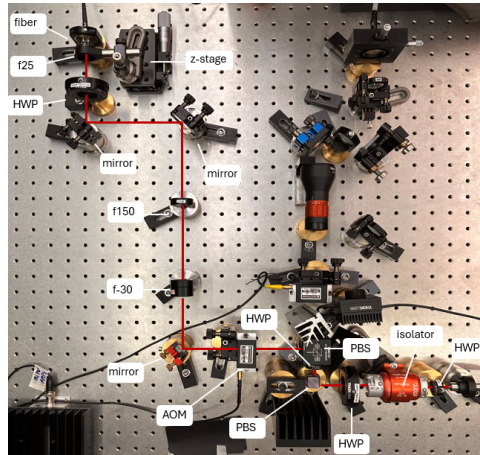


Figure 2.12: *Definitive black-fiber injection branch. Identify the AOM, telescope, steering mirrors, half-wave plate, $f = 25$ mm lens, and black-fiber input.*

In the definitive branch, the beam first passes through an acousto-optic modulator, used for fast control of its intensity and frequency. A steering mirror after the AOM directs the beam into a telescope formed by an $f = -30$ mm lens and an $f = 150$ mm lens. The telescope re-collimates the beam and sets its radius to the target value of approximately 1.6 mm determined during the preliminary characterization.

Two additional mirrors steer the expanded and collimated beam toward the fiber-injection assembly. A half-wave plate placed before the focusing lens sets the incident linear polarization along the slow axis of the polarization-maintaining fiber. Finally, the $f = 25$ mm lens focuses the beam into the fiber. As in the preliminary setup, the lens is mounted on a micrometric translation stage along the propagation direction, allowing its axial position to be adjusted to compensate for the endcap.

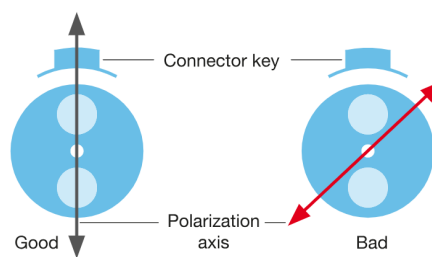


Figure 2.13: *Orientation of the incident polarization relative to the slow and fast axes of the polarization-maintaining fiber.* credits

With the definitive branch in place, the measured injection efficiency reached approximately 75%. This value is consistent with the approximately 70% obtained on the preliminary test bench and confirms that the mode-matching and alignment strategy could be transferred to the complete optical layout.

Having established efficient and reproducible injection into the black fiber, the polarization purity and temporal stability of the transmitted light were characterized as described in

the following section.

power and

2.4 Polarization Stability Characterization

After optimizing the injection efficiency, the polarization stability of the light transmitted through the black fiber was characterized. This quantity is relevant to the optical conveyor belt because polarization fluctuations **can be** converted into optical-power fluctuations by the polarization-sensitive elements of the final setup, thereby affecting the stability of the optical potential.

The two orthogonal linear-polarization components at the fiber output were measured simultaneously. Their temporal stability was analyzed using the Allan deviation, while their **frequency content** was investigated through the power spectral density calculated from the Fourier transform of the recorded signals. The measured noise spectrum was then compared with the expected shot-noise level.

2.4.1 Detection setup and polarization alignment

The polarization-analysis setup is shown in Figure 2.14. The beam emerging from the black fiber was collimated and sent through a half-wave plate (HWP) followed by a polarizing beam splitter (PBS). The transmitted and reflected components were detected simultaneously by two photodiodes. *quali fotodiodi?*

During the initial alignment, the transmitted component was measured with a home-made photodiode connected to channel 1, while the reflected component was measured with a Thorlabs PDA100A2 connected to channel 2. The Thorlabs detector was operated at 0 dB internal gain with **6 dB of additional electrical attenuation**. The total optical power incident on the PBS was 4.2 mW. *?*

The HWP was first adjusted to obtain approximately equal power in the two PBS outputs. This operating point, corresponding to a polarization orientation close to 45° relative to the PBS axes, provides high sensitivity to small polarization rotations: a rotation transfers power from one output to the other, producing anticorrelated variations in the two detector signals.

Before the stability measurements, the PBS orientation was optimized to ensure that its finite extinction ratio did not limit the measurement. By rotating the incident linear polarization and finely adjusting the PBS, polarization extinction ratios of 31 dB in reflection and 33 dB in transmission were obtained.

dove dici che misuriamo la potenza??

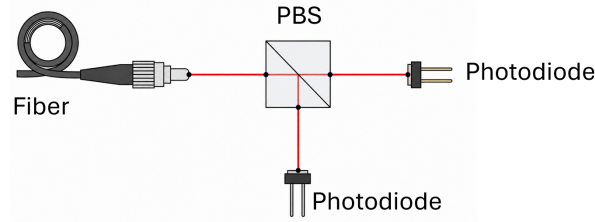


Figure 2.14: Setup used to characterize the polarization stability of the black fiber. The two orthogonal polarization components separated by the PBS are detected simultaneously and acquired on two independent channels.

2.4.2 Alignment to the fiber principal axes

The polarization analyzer was then referenced to the principal axes of the polarization-maintaining fiber. The setup consisted of an input HWP before the fiber and, after the fiber, an output collimator, a steering mirror, a second HWP, the PBS, and a power meter. [ref sopra](#)

The two HWPs were adjusted to maximize transmission through the PBS while minimizing reflection. This condition corresponds to the excitation of one of the principal axes of the fiber followed by the alignment of the emerging linear polarization with one of the PBS axes. The optimum input-HWP angle was 131° .

The output HWP was adjusted to obtain a maximum transmitted power of 2.68 mW. The power meter was then moved to the reflection port, where the signal was minimized by jointly fine-tuning the PBS orientation and the two HWPs. A minimum reflected power of $4 \mu\text{W}$ was measured, including a background of $1.5 \mu\text{W}$, while the maximum reflected power was approximately 2 mW. Without background subtraction, the corresponding polarization extinction ratio was

$$\text{PER} = 10 \log_{10} \left(\frac{P_{\max}}{P_{\min}} \right) = 10 \log_{10} \left(\frac{2 \text{ mW}}{4 \mu\text{W}} \right) \approx 27 \text{ dB} \quad (2.33)$$

As an additional check, the fiber transmission efficiency was measured again. The input and output powers were 4.18 mW and 2.88 mW, respectively, corresponding to

$$\eta_{\text{fiber}} = \frac{2.88 \text{ mW}}{4.18 \text{ mW}} \approx 69\%. \quad (2.34)$$

This value is consistent with the efficiency measured during the injection optimization.

2.4.3 Photodiode calibration

The two detector outputs were converted from voltage to equivalent optical power before comparing the polarization components. [non ha senso](#)

The home-made detector is based on a BPW34 photodiode followed by an OP27G transimpedance amplifier with a gain of $10\text{ k}\Omega$. The photodiode responsivity at 1064 nm was estimated as

$$\mathcal{R}_{\text{HM}} \approx 0.7\text{ A/W} \times 0.3 = 0.21\text{ A/W}, \quad (2.35)$$

giving an approximate voltage responsivity

$$G_{\text{HM}} = \mathcal{R}_{\text{HM}} G_{\text{TIA}} \approx 2.1\text{ V/mW}. \quad (2.36)$$

The detector also includes an output stage with a $1\text{ k}\Omega$ output impedance. The corresponding loading correction was included where required by the acquisition-input impedance. For the Thorlabs PDA100A2, a photodiode responsivity of 0.4 A/W at 1064 nm was used. Its selected internal gain and any additional electrical attenuation were included in the voltage-to-power conversion.

2.4.4 Data acquisition and normalized polarization signal

For the final stability measurements, the home-made detector was placed on the reflected port and connected to channel 1. The Thorlabs PDA100A2 was placed on the transmitted port and connected to channel 2, operated at 10 dB internal gain without external attenuation.

For each measurement, 10^5 samples were acquired simultaneously from both channels. Traces with total durations of 600 ms , 60 s , and 600 s were recorded to investigate different timescales. The 60 s acquisition was performed both in standard sampling mode, to preserve faster fluctuations, and in High-Resolution mode, to improve the resolution of slower measurements.

dire qui che sono normalizzati

After background subtraction and detector calibration, the measured voltages were converted into the transmitted and reflected powers $P_{\text{T}}(t)$ and $P_{\text{R}}(t)$. The total detected power was

$$P_{\Sigma}(t) = P_{\text{T}}(t) + P_{\text{R}}(t), \quad (2.37)$$

while the normalized differential signal was defined as

$$D(t) = \frac{P_{\text{T}}(t) - P_{\text{R}}(t)}{P_{\text{T}}(t) + P_{\text{R}}(t)}. \quad (2.38)$$

A fluctuation of the total transmitted power produces mainly a variation in $P_{\Sigma}(t)$, whereas a polarization fluctuation transfers power between the two PBS outputs and therefore

appears predominantly in $D(t)$. The normalization suppresses common-mode power fluctuations to first order.

2.4.5 Allan-deviation analysis

power and

The time-domain stability of the polarization signal was quantified using the overlapping Allan deviation. For a uniformly sampled sequence D_k with sampling interval τ_0 , averages were calculated over adjacent groups of m samples,

$$\bar{D}_j(\tau) = \frac{1}{m} \sum_{k=jm}^{(j+1)m-1} D_k, \quad \tau = m\tau_0. \quad (2.39)$$

The Allan variance was then calculated from the difference between consecutive averages,

$$\sigma_D^2(\tau) = \frac{1}{2} \left\langle [\bar{D}_{j+1}(\tau) - \bar{D}_j(\tau)]^2 \right\rangle, \quad (2.40)$$

and the Allan deviation was obtained as

$$\sigma_D(\tau) = \sqrt{\sigma_D^2(\tau)}. \quad (2.41)$$

The Allan deviation expresses the typical change in the average polarization signal between consecutive intervals of duration τ . It therefore reveals the timescales over which averaging improves the polarization stability and those over which slow drift begins to dominate.

A decreasing Allan deviation indicates that averaging suppresses the dominant fluctuations. A minimum identifies the optimum averaging time, whereas an increase at longer τ indicates the onset of slow drift or other low-frequency instabilities. The logarithmic slope of $\sigma_D(\tau)$ can also be used to distinguish different classes of noise.

The Allan deviation was evaluated for the individual polarization channels, the total-power signal $P_\Sigma(t)$, and the normalized differential signal $D(t)$. Comparing these quantities makes it possible to determine whether the observed instability is dominated by common-mode optical-power noise or by a genuine redistribution of power between the two polarization components.

avoid parametric heating, see fluctuations during the conveyor belt time

2.4.6 Frequency-domain analysis and shot-noise comparison

The frequency content of the measured power fluctuations was analyzed by computing the power spectral density (PSD) of the calibrated photodiode signal from its discrete Fourier transform. Before calculating the Fourier transform, the mean value was subtracted from

each time trace. The resulting PSD describes how the variance of the measured optical power is distributed over frequency.

The measured power-noise spectrum was compared with the quantum shot-noise limit expected for a coherent optical field at the same average power. For a photodiode with responsivity $\mathcal{R}$ receiving an average optical power $\bar{P}$, the mean photocurrent is

$$\bar{I} = \mathcal{R} \bar{P}. \quad (2.42)$$

The single-sided shot-noise PSD of the photocurrent is

$$S_{I,\text{SN}} = 2e\bar{I} = 2e\mathcal{R}\bar{P}, \quad (2.43)$$

where e is the elementary charge. The corresponding equivalent optical-power PSD is obtained by dividing by the squared photodiode responsivity:

$$S_{P,\text{SN}} = \frac{S_{I,\text{SN}}}{\mathcal{R}^2} = \frac{2e\bar{P}}{\mathcal{R}}. \quad (2.44)$$

Using the relation

$$\mathcal{R} = \frac{\text{QE } e}{\hbar\omega}, \quad (2.45)$$

the same limit can be expressed as

$$S_{P,\text{SN}} = \frac{2\hbar\omega \bar{P}}{\text{QE}}, \quad (2.46)$$

where QE is the photodiode quantum efficiency. In the ideal case of unit quantum efficiency, this reduces to the quantum limit

$$S_{P,\text{QL}} = 2\hbar\omega \bar{P}. \quad (2.47)$$

Equation (2.47) was used as the reference shot-noise level for comparison with the measured optical-power PSD. Both quantities were expressed using the same single-sided spectral convention and in units of W^2/Hz . A measured spectrum above this limit indicates the presence of excess technical noise in addition to the fundamental photon shot noise.

If the spectra are instead plotted as amplitude spectral densities, the corresponding quantum limit is

$$\sqrt{S_{P,\text{QL}}} = \sqrt{2\hbar\omega \bar{P}}, \quad (2.48)$$

with units of $\text{W}/\sqrt{\text{Hz}}$.

2.5 Upper Breadboard Setup and Conveyor Belt Alignment

The implementation of the optical conveyor belt requires the spatial superposition of two counter-propagating optical fields: the bottom-up beam delivered by the Hollow-Core Photonic Crystal Fiber (HCPCF) through the vacuum chamber, and the top-down beam delivered by the black fiber. The combination and alignment of these two optical paths take place on the upper breadboard, located above the main experimental chamber.

The experimental work on the upper breadboard was divided into three main phases: the outcoupling and conditioning of the beam emerging from the black fiber, the design and construction of dedicated imaging systems to monitor the spatial modes, and the systematic alignment of the counter-propagating beams to maximize their spatial overlap.

2.5.1 Black-fiber outcoupling and dual-purpose injection path

The light injected into the black fiber on the lower bench (as described in Section ??) is guided to the upper breadboard. To ensure pointing stability and minimize mechanical drifts, the outcoupling facet of the black fiber was secured using a custom-made support, which was shortened by 3 mm compared to its original design to increase mechanical rigidity.

The diverging beam emerging from the fiber was collimated using an $f = 19$ mm lens, positioned manually using a high-stability mount. Following the collimation stage, a beam expander providing a magnification of approximately $3\times$ was installed and aligned. The purpose of this telescope is to match the transverse size of the black-fiber beam to the expected size of the beam emerging from the HCPCF, which is a fundamental prerequisite for achieving a high-contrast interference pattern in the conveyor-belt configuration.

The expanded beam is then steered by two mirrors towards a dichroic mirror, which reflects the 1064 nm light downwards. After the dichroic mirror, the beam passes through an $f = 200$ mm lens mounted along the vertical axis. This lens fulfills a crucial dual purpose in the setup: it focuses the top-down beam from the black fiber onto the upper tip of the HCPCF, while simultaneously collimating the counter-propagating bottom-up beam emerging from the same hollow-core fiber.

Because the optical components on the upper breadboard affect the polarization state of the light, additional waveplates and polarizers are required in the definitive layout to ensure that both counter-propagating beams share the same polarization axis.

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2.5.2 Beam propagation and constraints of the optical elements

The proper design of the shared optical path requires a careful evaluation of the beam size. The expected waist radius w_{col} of the bottom-up collimated beam can be estimated from the nominal mode radius within the hollow core, $w_{\text{HCPCF}} \approx 19 \mu\text{m}$, using the relation:

$$w_{\text{col}} = \frac{\lambda f}{\pi w_{\text{HCPCF}}}. \quad (2.49)$$

For $\lambda = 1064 \text{ nm}$ and the $f = 200 \text{ mm}$ vertical lens, the calculated beam radius is $w_{\text{col}} \approx 3.6 \text{ mm}$, corresponding to a full beam diameter $d_{\text{col}} = 2w_{\text{col}} \approx 7.2 \text{ mm}$. dichroic e l'altro sono due pollici

This collimated beam is subsequently steered by standard 1-inch (25.4 mm) mirrors. At an incidence angle of 45° , the beam footprint on the mirror surface becomes elliptical, with the major axis d^* given by:

$$d^* = \frac{d_{\text{col}}}{\cos(45^\circ)} \approx 10.2 \text{ mm}. \quad (2.50)$$

Although this footprint is mathematically smaller than the clear aperture of a 1-inch mirror, the available clearance is relatively modest. Furthermore, if the effective mode radius in the HCPCF is smaller than the assumed $19 \mu\text{m}$ (due to the $48 \mu\text{m}$ core diameter constraints), the collimated beam divergence and the resulting mirror footprint would be even larger. Consequently, careful alignment—verified with an infrared viewer—is critical to prevent clipping and vignetting at the edges of the steering mirrors.

2.5.3 Mode imaging and alignment strategy

To properly align this counter-propagating configuration and ensure optimal mode matching, it was necessary to simultaneously monitor the spatial mode of the HCPCF and optimize the top-down injection. For this purpose, an imaging system (microscope) was assembled on the upper breadboard, exploiting the shared optical path.

beam splitter A magnetic flippable mirror was inserted between the dichroic mirror and the first steering mirror of the black-fiber branch to pick off the bottom-up beam. imagine The imaging path consists of an $f = 300 \text{ mm}$ lens, a Zeiss microscope objective (16.5 mm , Plan Neofluar $10 \times /0.30$), and a final $f = 500 \text{ mm}$ focusing lens that projects the image onto a CMOS camera. This multi-stage magnification setup provides high resolution for resolving the spatial distribution of the light exiting the microstructured fiber.

The primary assumption of the alignment method is that the mode in the HCPCF must be properly injected and symmetrically propagated. During the initial observations with the newly constructed microscope, it was noted that the fundamental mode was not propagating symmetrically within the core. By applying gentle mechanical perturbations

to the fiber, higher-order propagation modes were intentionally excited. This behavior was systematically exploited to map the spatial boundaries of the hollow core. Once the core region was identified, the fiber position was finely adjusted to ensure that the mode extended symmetrically across the entire available area. This optimization yielded a symmetric fundamental Gaussian mode with an overall bottom-up injection efficiency of approximately 20% – 25%.

With the HCPCF mode optimized, the spatial overlap between the top-down and bottom-up beams was verified. A reference mirror was placed after the dichroic mirror to project the beam profiles onto a distant viewing card, checking the collimation of the HCPCF beam. The procedure was repeated for the black-fiber beam, sampling it after the beam expander and at a far-field plane. Finally, both beams were turned on simultaneously to ensure that they were correctly centered on all lenses and mirrors and perfectly overlapped along the entire shared path. By substituting the magnetic mirror with a beam splitter, it was possible to operate the microscope continuously, exploiting the small transmission of the dichroic mirror at 1064 nm to simultaneously optimize the injection and monitor the mode in real-time.

~~2.5.4 Figures of merit for the injection efficiency~~

To quantitatively evaluate the success of the optical setup and the alignment procedure, four distinct figures of merit were established and continuously monitored:

1. **Bottom-up HCPCF mode quality:** The symmetry and spatial distribution of the beam emerging from the vacuum chamber, evaluated through the upper breadboard microscope.
2. **Bottom-up HCPCF injection efficiency:** The ratio of the transmitted power measured after the vacuum chamber to the incident power measured before the lower injection lens.
3. **Retro-injection into the black fiber:** The coupling efficiency of the bottom-up HCPCF beam into the black fiber. Since the two beams must be perfectly collinear to create the conveyor belt, optimizing this reverse-coupling signal inherently guarantees the spatial overlap of the two modes on the upper breadboard.
4. **Top-down injection into the HCPCF:** The coupling of the beam delivered by the black fiber downwards into the hollow-core fiber.

To accurately evaluate the fourth figure of merit, a secondary microscope was built on the lower optical bench. By exploiting the small but non-zero transmission of the lower 1064 nm dichroic mirror, the light exiting the bottom tip of the HCPCF was picked off [imagine](#)

using a flippable mirror and an additional steering mirror, and then focused onto a camera using an $f = 1000$ mm lens. This diagnostic tool allowed for the simultaneous optimization of the top-down injection and the real-time monitoring of the spatial mode traversing the vacuum chamber from top to bottom.

2.5.5 RF electronics characterization for intensity control

The optical power in both the main ODT branch and the black-fiber branch is actively controlled using Acousto-Optic Modulators (AOMs). The Radio-Frequency (RF) signals driving these AOMs are generated by a Direct Digital Synthesizer (DDS) board, specifically designated as DDS3.

Prior to integrating the electronics with the optical setup, the DDS outputs were characterized using a spectrum analyzer. The upper channel of the DDS is dedicated to the primary ODT beam, while the lower channel drives the black-fiber branch (ODT black). For both channels, the emitted RF power was measured as a function of the programmed DDS amplitude parameter.

2.6 Numerical Model of EIT Cooling

To study Electromagnetically Induced Transparency (EIT) cooling for our system, two numerical models of increasing complexity were implemented and simulated with the QuTiP package: an idealized three-level Λ system, used to validate the cooling mechanism and its numerics in a minimal setting, and a realistic 24-level model of ^{87}Rb including the full hyperfine and Zeeman structure. Both models describe an atom coupled to a single quantized motional mode, and share the same underlying master-equation formalism; the difference lies entirely in the internal atomic structure retained in the simulation.

2.6.1 Atomic Level Structure

In the minimal model, the atom is reduced to three states, two ground states $|g_1\rangle, |g_2\rangle$ and one excited state $|e\rangle$, coupled respectively by a weak probe field (Rabi frequency Ω_p , detuning Δ_p) and a strong coupling field (Rabi frequency Ω_c , detuning Δ_c). This bare Λ system reproduces the dark-state interference exactly by construction and was used to benchmark the solvers and the overall cooling dynamics before moving to the full atomic structure.

The realistic model instead retains the complete set of hyperfine and Zeeman sublevels of ^{87}Rb involved in the D_2 transition, labeled $|F, m_F\rangle$: the ground manifolds $F = 1$ (3 states) and $F = 2$ (5 states), and the excited manifolds $F' = 0, 1, 2, 3$ (16 states), for a total atomic Hilbert space of dimension 24. Every dipole-allowed transition between these sublevels is included, weighted by the corresponding Clebsch–Gordan coefficient $C_{g,e}^{(q)} = \langle F_g, m_g; 1, q | F_e, m_e \rangle$ for the three polarizations $q \in \{-1, 0, 1\}$.

Rather than using a central sublevel such as $m_F = 0$ — from which an excited atom can decay dipole-allowed into up to six different ground sublevels, quickly scattering population out of reach of the cooling lasers — the EIT scheme was built around an edge sublevel, $m_F = -2$. Selection rules ($\Delta m_F = 0, \pm 1$) then restrict spontaneous decay from the relevant excited states to at most three ground sublevels, which allows the cooling scheme to be closed with the addition of a single repump field. Two equivalent ways of assigning the probe, coupling, and repump lasers to these three sublevels were implemented as separate configurations: one in which both Λ -system ground states lie in $F = 2$ and the repumper recovers population that has decayed to $F = 1$, and one in which the two Λ -system ground states are split between $F = 2$ and $F = 1$ and the repumper instead recovers population left behind in $F = 2$. The second configuration, closer to the level structure available in our experimental setup, is the one carried forward into the real-parameter (“axial”) simulation described below.

2.6.2 Hilbert Space and Motional Coupling

The full simulated system lives in the tensor-product space $\mathcal{H} = \mathcal{H}_{\text{atom}} \otimes \mathcal{H}_{\text{motion}}$, where $\mathcal{H}_{\text{motion}}$ is a truncated harmonic oscillator basis $\{|n\rangle\}$ describing the quantized motion along the trap axis of interest, with ladder operators a , $a^\dagger$ and number operator $n = a^\dagger a$, and trap frequency ν . The truncation of the motional basis (the maximum phonon number N_{vib} retained) was chosen large enough that the population reaching the highest included Fock state stays negligible throughout the simulated evolution, while being kept as small as computationally feasible given how steeply the size of the full problem grows with it. Motion is coupled to the internal atomic dynamics through the recoil accumulated in absorption and emission of a photon. In the Lamb–Dicke regime ($\eta \ll 1$, with η the Lamb–Dicke parameter of the relevant beam) the corresponding operator is linearized as $e^{ikx} \approx 1 + i\eta(a + a^\dagger)$, which is the approximation used throughout this work to couple the internal and motional degrees of freedom.

2.6.3 Hamiltonian

The total Hamiltonian is written as

$$H = H_{\text{free}} + H_{\text{Zeeman}} + H_{\text{int}}, \quad (2.51)$$

with a free part

$$H_{\text{free}} = \sum_i E_i |i\rangle\langle i| + \nu a^\dagger a \quad (2.52)$$

collecting the bare atomic energies and the motional energy. For the 24-level model, an external magnetic field B lifts the degeneracy of the m_F sublevels through

$$H_{\text{Zeeman}} = \sum_i g_F \mu_B B m_F |i\rangle\langle i|. \quad (2.53)$$

The atom–light interaction is split into two parts. The EIT beams (probe and coupling) explicitly carry the motional coupling introduced above,

$$H_{\text{EIT}} = \sum_{g,e,q} \frac{\Omega_{\text{EIT}}}{2} C_{g,e}^{(q)} |e\rangle\langle g| \left(1 + i\eta(a + a^\dagger)\right) + \text{h.c.}, \quad (2.54)$$

while the repump field, whose role is purely to recycle population out of the “lost” ground states g_{lost} back into the active cooling cycle rather than to participate in the cooling transition itself, is treated without motional sidebands,

$$H_{\text{repump}} = \sum_{g_{\text{lost}},e,q} \frac{\Omega_{\text{rep}}}{2} C_{g,e}^{(q)} |e\rangle\langle g_{\text{lost}}| + \text{h.c.}, \quad (2.55)$$

so that $H_{\text{int}} = H_{\text{EIT}} + H_{\text{repump}}$.

In the reduced three-level model, both the Zeeman term and the repump field are absent, and the Hamiltonian collapses to

$$H = \Delta_p |g_1\rangle\langle g_1| + \Delta_c |g_2\rangle\langle g_2| + \nu a^\dagger a + \frac{\Omega_c}{2} (\sigma_{eg_2} + \sigma_{g_2e}) + \frac{\Omega_p}{2} [\sigma_{eg_1} (1 + i\eta(a + a^\dagger)) + \text{h.c.}], \quad (2.56)$$

with $\sigma_{egi} = |e\rangle\langle g_i|$. In this one-dimensional implementation of the three-level model, the coupling beam is taken to propagate orthogonally to the motional axis (so that its effective Lamb–Dicke parameter vanishes, $\eta_c = 0$), while the probe beam propagates along the axis and carries the motional coupling; in the general 24-level Hamiltonian, motional coupling can instead be assigned to any of the beams depending on the laboratory geometry being modeled, which is how the axial-direction configuration described below was set up.

2.6.4 Dissipation and the Master Equation

The system evolves under the Lindblad master equation

$$\frac{d\rho}{dt} = -i[H, \rho] + \mathcal{L}(\rho), \quad \mathcal{L}(\rho) = \sum_k \left(L_k \rho L_k^\dagger - \frac{1}{2} \{L_k^\dagger L_k, \rho\} \right), \quad (2.57)$$

with the jump operators L_k encoding spontaneous emission. In the three-level model, decay from $|e\rangle$ is split symmetrically between the two ground states,

$$L_1 = \sqrt{\gamma/2} |g_1\rangle\langle e|, \quad L_2 = \sqrt{\gamma/2} |g_2\rangle\langle e|. \quad (2.58)$$

In the 24-level model, every dipole-allowed decay channel is included explicitly, again weighted by its Clebsch–Gordan coefficient,

$$L_{e \rightarrow g}^{(q)} = \sqrt{\gamma} C_{g,e}^{(q)} |g\rangle\langle e|, \quad (2.59)$$

acting trivially on the motional degree of freedom ($L_{e \rightarrow g}^{(q)} \rightarrow L_{e \rightarrow g}^{(q)} \otimes \mathbb{I}_{\text{motion}}$). It is this explicit multi-channel decay — allowing population to fall outside the two-state cooling subspace addressed by the probe and coupling lasers — that makes the repump field necessary in the realistic model, unlike in the closed three-level system.

2.6.5 Steady-State Spectrum

For a fixed set of laser parameters, the steady state ρ_{ss} satisfying $d\rho/dt = 0$ is computed directly, and used to evaluate the absorption spectrum as the total excited-state population,

$$A(\Delta_p) = \text{Tr}(\rho_{ss} P_e), \quad P_e = \sum_e |e\rangle\langle e|, \quad (2.60)$$

which reduces to $A(\Delta_p) = \langle e|\rho_{ss}|e\rangle$ in the three-level case. Scanning Δ_p at fixed Δ_c maps out the Fano-shaped spectrum used to identify the position of the dark resonance and of the motional sidebands, expected at $\Delta_p = \Delta_c \pm \nu$. In the 24-level model this same steady-state calculation is also used to track, alongside $A(\Delta_p)$, the population accumulated in the target excited manifold ($P_{e2} = \sum_{e \in F'=2} |e\rangle\langle e|$), in the off-resonant excited manifold ($P_{e3} = \sum_{e \in F'=3} |e\rangle\langle e|$), and in the ground sublevels outside the intended cooling cycle ($P_{\text{leak}} = \sum_{g \neq g_{\text{target}}} |g\rangle\langle g|$), which is how the laser parameters (coupling detuning, probe Rabi frequency, repump Rabi frequency) were subsequently scanned and compared against each other.

2.6.6 Time-Dependent Dynamics

The actual cooling process is followed by propagating the master equation in time and evaluating the mean phonon number

$$\langle n(t) \rangle = \text{Tr}(a^\dagger a \rho(t)) \quad (2.61)$$

starting from a specified initial motional state. Two complementary solvers were used for this purpose. For the three-level model, and for heavily truncated versions of the 24-level model, the exact Lindblad evolution was integrated directly with QuTiP's `mesolve`, which propagates the full density matrix; this is exact and noise-free but scales as $O(N^2)$ in the total Hilbert space dimension N , which becomes prohibitive for the full 24-level model once 24 internal states are combined with ~ 15 motional levels ($N = 360$, corresponding to a 360×360 density matrix).

For the complete 24-level model, the time evolution was instead computed with the Monte Carlo wavefunction method (`mcsolve`), which propagates individual state vectors $|\psi(t)\rangle$ subject to stochastic quantum jumps representing spontaneous emission events, and reconstructs the density matrix as the ensemble average

$$\rho(t) = \mathbb{E}[|\psi(t)\rangle\langle\psi(t)|] \quad (2.62)$$

over a set of independent trajectories (`ntraj`). This approach scales only as $O(N)$ in memory and parallelizes naturally across trajectories, at the cost of statistical noise in the resulting curves, which is reduced by increasing `ntraj` at the expense of computation time. For both solvers, the relevant control parameters (total simulated time, number of saved time points, and, for `mesolve`, the maximum number of internal integration steps) were adjusted so as to resolve the cooling dynamics without exceeding the memory or

runtime available; state storage was disabled for the Monte Carlo runs on the full 24-level system, since retaining the full state vector for a large number of trajectories over a 360-dimensional space is not memory-feasible.

Simulation time is expressed throughout in units of the excited-state decay rate γ , so that one simulation time unit corresponds to one excited-state lifetime; converting to physical units requires accounting for the angular-frequency convention used internally, giving a physical duration per simulation time unit of $1/(2\pi \times 6.067 \text{ MHz}) \approx 26.23 \text{ ns}$ for the ^{87}Rb D_2 line used in the realistic model.

2.6.7 Parameter Optimization Procedure

Within the 24-level model, the laser parameters were optimized sequentially using the steady-state spectrum and leakage populations described above: first the repump Rabi frequency, to identify the minimum intensity that sufficiently depletes the unwanted ground-state population without introducing an excessive AC Stark shift of the Fano profile; then the probe Rabi frequency, trading off excitation amplitude against the power broadening of the dark resonance; and finally the coupling-laser detuning, to re-align the Fano absorption maximum with the target motional sideband once the repump- and probe-induced light shifts were accounted for. Each parameter was scanned individually while holding the others fixed, using the same steady-state diagnostics (Fano profile, ground-state leakage, and $F' = 3$ off-resonant population) for every value tested; the resulting optimized parameter set was then carried into the time-dependent Monte Carlo simulation of the full cooling dynamics.

2.6.8 Axial-Direction Simulation with Real System Parameters

As a final step, the configuration with the two Λ -system ground states split across $F = 1$ and $F = 2$ was re-run using parameters specific to our experimental setup rather than the generic values used in the earlier optimization stages. In particular, the trap frequency ν and the Lamb-Dicke parameter η entering the motional coupling were set to the values corresponding to the axial direction of our trap geometry, in place of the illustrative values used for the parameter scans described above. The same optimization procedure — steady-state Fano spectrum, ground-state leakage tracking, and sequential adjustment of the coupling detuning, probe Rabi frequency, and repump Rabi frequency — was applied to this axial configuration, and the resulting parameter set was then used to run the full Monte Carlo time evolution of the mean phonon number for this specific geometry, following the same procedure described in the previous subsection.

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Chapter 3

Results and Discussion

Following the experimental and analysis procedures explained in Chapter 2, the ODT capture efficiency was characterized and optimized. This chapter presents the corresponding experimental results.

The first stage of the optimization process consists of minimizing the molasses temperature through the adjustment of the cooling laser detuning, the cooling laser intensity, and the compensation magnetic field.

Subsequently, the ODT loading is optimized by exploiting the compensation coils to displace the MOT after loading. This optimization aims to maximize the spatial overlap between the atomic cloud and the ODT beam, thereby enhancing the capture efficiency.

3.1 Molasses Temperature Optimization

Before starting the optimization, the six MOT beams were realigned to remove any residual overlap mismatch at the trap position — a necessary precaution, since thermal drifts in the optical components tend to slowly spoil this alignment over time. The compensation coil currents were initially set to the values found in earlier characterizations of the apparatus,

$$I_x = 80 \text{ mA}, \quad I_y = -200 \text{ mA}, \quad I_z = -400 \text{ mA}, \quad (3.1)$$

which served as the starting point for the systematic optimization described below.

3.1.1 Detuning Frequency Optimization

The optimization began with the cooling-laser detuning, scanned from -24.4 MHz ($4.0 \Gamma/2\pi$) to -184 MHz ($30.4 \Gamma/2\pi$) in steps of -11.4 MHz , and the molasses temperature measured at each point.

At small detunings the measured temperature closely tracks the $1/|\delta|$ dependence expected for sub-Doppler (Sisyphus) cooling. This trend breaks down as the detuning grows further: the scattering rate falls off as $\Gamma_p \propto 1/\delta^2$, and the detuning approaches the $F = 2 \rightarrow F' = 2$ transition, only 267 MHz below the main cooling transition $F = 2 \rightarrow F' = 3$. Both effects flatten the temperature curve in the range $|\delta| \approx 15\text{--}20$ and eventually turn it upward again at larger detunings.

The lowest temperature was found at a normalized detuning of $|\delta| = 17.2$, i.e. 104.2 MHz in absolute terms. Fitting the ballistic expansion at this detuning gave $T_x = (14.1 \pm 0.5) \mu\text{K}$ and $T_y = (13.5 \pm 0.7) \mu\text{K}$ along the two axes, whose weighted average yields a final temperature of $T = (13.9 \pm 0.4) \mu\text{K}$.

The fit at this detuning shows a systematic feature common to all such measurements: the data points at the longest times of flight fall consistently below the linear trend expected from the expansion law. The most likely explanation is that, at sufficiently long expansion times, the cloud radius is no longer small compared to the probe beam waist, so the assumption of uniform illumination breaks down and the outer, dimmer part of the cloud is under-weighted in the fit — an effect that systematically biases the extracted variance downward. Fortunately, this bias is expected to become less severe as the temperature (and hence the expansion rate) decreases further.

3.1.2 AOM Amplitude Optimization

The next optimization step examined the influence of the cooling-beam power itself, controlled via the RF drive amplitude of the switching AOM, together with the duration of the ramp used to transition this amplitude from its MOT value down to the molasses value at the start of the molasses phase. Three amplitude settings were tested — 385, 475, and 550 a.u., corresponding to 5.8, 6.6, and 6.3 mW of cooling power measured after the z -axis MOT collimator (the MOT itself is operated at 550 a.u.) — combined with ramp durations of either 5 ms or 20 ms, and the whole set was repeated across several values of the cooling detuning.

No statistically significant dependence of the molasses temperature on the AOM amplitude emerged from this scan — the small variations observed between the three settings remained within the experimental uncertainty, so no clear optimal amplitude could be identified in the tested range. The ramp duration, on the other hand, had a small but systematic effect: the 20 ms ramp consistently gave temperatures about $0.5 \mu\text{K}$ lower than the 5 ms ramp. Given that this improvement was already small and no further gain at the level of a few tenths of a microkelvin was required for the purposes of this work, no additional ramp durations were tested, and the 20 ms ramp was adopted for the subsequent measurements.

It is worth noting, anticipating the ODT characterization described later in this chap-

ter, that this particular choice was later found to introduce extra fluctuations once the ODT loading was being optimized. For that reason, the compensation-coil optimization described next was actually carried out with the AOM amplitude set to 385 a.u. — the setting that gave the lowest temperature at $|\delta| = 17.2 \Gamma/2\pi$ — together with the 20 ms ramp, even though both parameters were revisited again during the ODT optimization stage. As shown by the measurements in this section, however, their influence on the molasses temperature itself is at most a few tenths of a microkelvin, so this later readjustment does not affect the temperature results reported here.

3.1.3 Compensation Field Optimization

The last step of the molasses optimization concerned the compensation (shim) magnetic field, whose currents are switched from their MOT values to their molasses values 5 ms after the MOT quadrupole field itself is turned off. The three axes were optimized sequentially: first the z -axis current, with the x - and y -axis currents held at their preliminary values; then the x -axis current, using the newly found optimal z value; and finally the y -axis current, with both z and x set to their respective optima. At each step, a parabolic fit to the measured temperature versus current was used to extract the optimal current and the corresponding minimum temperature.

The z -axis scan gave a minimum temperature of $(11.46 \pm 0.03) \mu\text{K}$ at $I_z = (-223.2 \pm 0.7) \text{ mA}$; the subsequent x -axis scan, performed at this z current, gave $(9.2 \pm 0.1) \mu\text{K}$ at $I_x = (-17 \pm 2) \text{ mA}$; and the final y -axis scan gave $(9.6 \pm 0.1) \mu\text{K}$ at $I_y = (-184 \pm 3) \text{ mA}$. The currents actually adopted for the subsequent ODT loading stage were

$$I_x = -15 \text{ mA}, \quad I_y = -185 \text{ mA}, \quad I_z = -230 \text{ mA}, \quad (3.2)$$

corresponding, via the coil calibration given in Eq. (??), to compensation fields of

$$B_x = -21 \text{ mG}, \quad B_y = -241 \text{ mG}, \quad B_z = -345 \text{ mG}. \quad (3.3)$$

With this compensation field, the molasses temperature reached its minimized value of $T = (9.6 \pm 0.1) \mu\text{K}$. Comparing the three axes, the z -axis current required the largest correction from its preliminary value, the x -axis current a smaller but still appreciable one, while the y -axis current turned out to already be close to its optimal value beforehand. The operating current actually used for z , -230 mA , differs slightly from the true fitted optimum of -223.2 mA ; since both values sit close to the vertex of the fitted parabola, where the temperature is only weakly sensitive to current, this small offset does not introduce any appreciable systematic error in the reported temperatures.

3.2 ODT Loading Optimization

With the molasses parameters established in the previous section, the next stage of the optimization targets the ODT loading itself, primarily by tuning the compensation magnetic field. The idea behind this step is that the MOT forms at the zero of the magneto-optical potential, whose location can be shifted by adjusting the compensation coil currents; displacing the trapped cloud in this way, immediately before the molasses phase, allows its position to be matched to that of the ODT beam. Moving the MOT away from the geometric center where the six cooling beams overlap best inevitably costs some atoms and raises the temperature slightly, but this trade-off is worthwhile if it improves the spatial overlap with the ODT and thereby increases the number of atoms actually transferred into the dipole trap. As long as the displacement stays small, the molasses parameters optimized earlier remain effective at cancelling the residual magnetic field and require no further adjustment.

In practice, once the MOT has loaded, the compensation coil currents are ramped smoothly to their ODT-loading values over 200 ms, discretized into 20 steps, so as to minimize atom loss and heating during the displacement. As with the molasses optimization, preliminary current values — obtained before the beam realignment and molasses optimization described above — were available as a starting point,

$$I_x = -200 \text{ mA}, \quad I_y = -350 \text{ mA}, \quad I_z = 50 \text{ mA}. \quad (3.4)$$

Throughout these measurements, the ODT laser power before injection into the fiber was 1.4 W. The transmission efficiency up to just before lens L3 (see the apparatus schematic in the previous chapter) was measured at low power to be about 42%, corresponding to roughly 0.59 W; since several optics sit upstream of this measurement point, the actual power reaching the fiber facet is likely somewhat higher, so a conservative 10% relative uncertainty was assigned, giving an estimated fiber-facet power of $P = 0.59 \pm 0.06 \text{ W}$.

3.2.1 Imaging System Optimization

The first attempts to characterize the ODT capture efficiency used the FLIR camera, with the molasses parameters already optimized above and the preliminary compensation currents quoted for the ODT stage. The analysis followed the procedure described in the previous chapter, but without the background rescaling step.

With the 20 ms AOM ramp used for the molasses optimization, the resulting 2D difference image showed no distinct bright region attributable to the ODT, and the 1D integrated profile only hinted at a weak, localized increase spanning about 4 pixels around the fiber position — later confirmed, from subsequent measurements, to indeed correspond to the

trapped atoms, but too small to be reliably distinguished from noise. Since integrating along one dimension is specifically meant to boost the signal-to-noise ratio, this persistent weak signal pointed to a real underlying problem rather than a simple statistical limitation: the residual background pedestal left after subtraction was significantly larger than the ODT signal itself, suggesting oscillatory or shot-to-shot correlated noise that five-image averaging alone could not remove. In addition, the ODT signal spanned only a handful of pixels, which is both consistent with a lower-than-expected initial capture (even accounting for a non-optimal cloud-ODT overlap) and, independently, an obstacle to analysis: too few illuminated pixels to support a reliable 2D Gaussian fit, while direct pixel summation would introduce its own systematic errors.

To address the background problem, the molasses parameters themselves were revisited, and the AOM ramp duration was found to be the key culprit: shortening it from 20 ms to 5 ms markedly improved the background subtraction and thus the signal-to-noise ratio. At the same time, the AOM amplitude was set to 480 a.u. (6.6 mW of cooling power on the z -beam), a value chosen because it sits in the saturated part of the AOM diffraction-efficiency curve, where $dP/dA \approx 0$; operating at this point intrinsically suppresses the sensitivity of the delivered optical power to amplitude noise in the AOM drive.

With this shorter ramp, a distinct bright strip corresponding to the ODT-trapped atoms became visible in the 2D difference image, and comparing the 1D profiles obtained with the two ramp durations shows that the residual pedestal is suppressed to roughly half its previous amplitude and area with the 5 ms ramp — enough for the ODT signal to clearly emerge above the background.

Even with this improved contrast, the FLIR camera’s spatial resolution remained insufficient. The subsequent measurements therefore switched to the Manta camera, whose smaller pixel pitch was further complemented by mounting it closer to the chamber, at the minimum working distance of the MVL50M23 objective, to maximize magnification. Comparing the apparent width of the fiber as imaged by the two cameras indicated that this new configuration increased the object size in pixels by a factor of about 2.25 — the combined effect of the higher magnification and the smaller pixel size — which finally provided a sufficiently well-resolved ODT signal for robust quantitative analysis.

3.2.2 Capture Efficiency Optimization

With adequate imaging in place, the compensation coil currents were optimized systematically using the full analysis procedure from the previous chapter, this time with the Manta camera. The three axes were scanned sequentially in the order $x \rightarrow z \rightarrow y$, with the currents on the not-yet-optimized axes held at the preliminary values quoted above. Both the ODT signal area — directly proportional to the number of captured atoms, though only measurable in arbitrary units since the camera was not calibrated for absolute

atom counting — and the capture efficiency extracted from these scans showed matching trends along all three axes, as expected since they are two ways of looking at the same underlying signal. This first pass yielded the optimal currents

$$I_x = -220 \text{ mA}, \quad I_y = -290 \text{ mA}, \quad I_z = -90 \text{ mA}. \quad (3.5)$$

To confirm this result, the z -axis scan was repeated, and this second run revealed an unexpected feature.

Rather than the expected single-peaked, roughly parabolic dependence, both the ODT area and the capture efficiency showed an oscillatory behavior as a function of the z -axis current: starting from -1000 mA , the signal rose to a first local maximum near -800 mA , dipped around -700 mA , and rose again to further local maxima near -600 mA and -400 mA . The same periodicity appeared in the background area — the molasses cloud size measured with the ODT off at the end of the time of flight — with peaks at essentially the same current values, and again in the x -centroid of the cloud on the camera, an oscillation not seen when scanning the other two compensation axes. While a larger initial MOT population naturally leads to a larger captured ODT fraction, the fact that this covariation is periodic in current is not obviously explained; a plausible contributing factor is the complex spatial intensity distribution of the cooling beams near the trap center combined with residual misalignment, but confirming this would require dedicated further measurements, which were beyond the scope of this work.

Taking this behavior into account, the compensation currents and the corresponding generated field components were finally set to

$$I_x = -220 \text{ mA}, \quad I_y = -290 \text{ mA}, \quad I_z = -600 \text{ mA}, \quad B_x = -308 \text{ mG}, \quad B_y = -377 \text{ mG}, \quad B_z = -900 \text{ mG}, \quad (3.6)$$

Converting these compensation fields into an equivalent displacement of the MOT position via $t_\alpha = B_\alpha/B'$ for $\alpha = x, y$ and $t_z = -B_z/2B'$, with $2B' = 9.32 \text{ G/cm}$ the axial gradient of the quadrupole field, gives

$$t_x = -661 \mu\text{m}, \quad t_y = -809 \mu\text{m}, \quad t_z = 966 \mu\text{m}. \quad (3.7)$$

This configuration maximized the ODT trap area — and hence the number of captured atoms — and corresponds to a capture efficiency of $\eta = (0.160 \pm 0.005)\%$.

This measured efficiency can be compared with the shallow- and non-shallow-trap models introduced in the previous chapter, evaluated at the best molasses configuration found above: $w_0 = 19.0 \mu\text{m}$, $P = (0.59 \pm 0.06) \text{ W}$, $R_x R_y \approx (1.043 \pm 0.004) \text{ mm}^2$, and $T = (9.60 \pm 0.10) \mu\text{K}$. These give $\eta = (0.45 \pm 0.05)\%$ for the shallow-trap model and $\eta = (0.41 \pm 0.04)\%$ for the non-shallow-trap model; given $\xi = 0.39 \pm 0.04$, the close agreement between the

two models is expected. Note that, unlike in the earlier discussion of these models, no factor of $1/2$ for the fraction of atoms with $v_z < 0$ was applied here, since that factor was originally introduced to estimate only the atoms guided into the fiber core, whereas the present measurement targets the total number of captured atoms regardless of their velocity direction.

The measured efficiency is of the same order of magnitude as the theoretical prediction, indicating that the apparatus is operating correctly and close to its optimal parameters, but the theoretical value remains about 2.5 times larger than the measured one. Part of this discrepancy may be a genuine model limitation: the calculation assumes a purely Gaussian ODT beam, an excellent approximation for the fundamental LP_{01} mode, but the beam actually transmitted by the fiber also carries higher-order modes, as discussed in the previous chapter. Before attributing the full discrepancy to the model, however, a procedural effect should also be considered: the imaging sequence requires $600\ \mu\text{s}$ with the ODT switched off at the end of the time of flight, and atom loss during this dead time could artificially lower the measured trapping efficiency.

3.3 Simulation Results

3.3.1 Validation on the Ideal Three-Level System

Before addressing the full atomic structure, the cooling dynamics were first verified on the idealized three-level Λ system, for which the dark-state interference is exact by construction and the numerics are comparatively cheap to run with the exact master-equation solver.

The resulting animation shows the three expected features side by side: the vibrational population starting from a hot initial distribution ($n = 15$) and progressively piling up on the motional ground state; the steady-state Fano spectrum, with its dark transparency window sitting exactly on the carrier frequency and its narrow absorption peak aligned with the red motional sideband; and the corresponding decay of the mean phonon number $\langle n \rangle$ over time as the atom is cooled. This confirmed that the solver and the underlying EIT cooling mechanism behave as expected before the added complexity of the real atomic structure was introduced.

One caveat applies to this illustrative run: starting from $n = 15$ with $\eta = 0.35$ puts the system only marginally inside the Lamb–Dicke regime at $t = 0$ ($\eta\sqrt{\langle n \rangle + 1} \approx 1.4$), so the linearized motional coupling used in the interaction Hamiltonian mildly underestimates higher-order sideband transitions during the very earliest stage of the evolution. Since the population is rapidly cooled toward $\langle n \rangle \approx 0$, however, the system quickly settles deep into the Lamb–Dicke regime, so the computed steady-state cooling limit itself is unaffected by this initial-transient approximation.

3.3.2 Repumper Optimization

Within the full 24-level model, an accumulation of population in the uncoupled $F = 1$ ground-state manifold was observed during the cooling dynamics — atoms that fall out of the $F = 2$ cooling cycle and stop interacting with the probe and coupling lasers, introducing effective dead time that limits the achievable cooling rate. The repump Rabi frequency Ω_{repump} was therefore scanned, using the steady-state Fano spectrum and ground-state leakage populations as diagnostics.

The scan revealed a direct trade-off: a stronger repump field is more effective at depleting the $F = 1$ population, but it also dresses the atomic states more strongly, producing an AC Stark shift that displaces the entire Fano profile toward higher probe detuning. At low repump power ($\Omega_{\text{repump}} = 0.2\gamma$), population trapping in $F = 1$ reached about 35%, substantially isolating a third of the ensemble from the active cooling transition; increasing Ω_{repump} to 0.7γ and beyond was sufficient to deplete this residual population and restore the ensemble to the $F = 2 \leftrightarrow F' = 2$ cycle. At the same time, the induced

light shift grows with Ω_{repump} , and at $\Omega_{\text{repump}} = 0.7\gamma$ this shift was found to align the Fano absorption maximum precisely with the target red sideband; for higher values (e.g. 1.5γ or 2.0γ) the shift overshoots this alignment and the absorption peak moves past the sideband, decoupling the atom from the cooling transition. Based on this trade-off, $\Omega_{\text{repump}} = 0.7\gamma$ was identified as the optimal repump strength for this parameter set, balancing dark-state depopulation against excess AC Stark shift.

3.3.3 Probe Optimization

The same diagnostic procedure was then applied to the probe Rabi frequency Ω_p , scanned from 0.05γ to 0.35γ .

Here the limiting factor is power broadening: EIT cooling relies on a steep asymmetry between near-zero absorption at the carrier and strong absorption at the red sideband, and at low probe power ($\Omega_p = 0.05\text{--}0.10\gamma$) this contrast is well preserved. As Ω_p increases, the dark-resonance dip fills in and the absorption peak broadens, degrading the achievable contrast and, correspondingly, raising the expected carrier-scattering rate and the resulting steady-state temperature. A probe-induced AC Stark shift was also observed, distinct from the repumper-induced one: for Ω_p between 0.15γ and 0.35γ the absorption peak systematically drifts to higher detuning, eventually detaching from the target sideband at the highest powers tested. Increasing the probe power also degrades the steady-state ground-state preparation, by increasing the overall scattering rate and driving more population into $F = 1$ and into spurious $F = 2$ Zeeman sublevels, even though the fractional leakage into the off-resonant $F' = 3$ state actually decreases with probe power (since it is a relative measure against a growing target-transition signal). On balance, the weak-probe regime was found to be preferable, and $\Omega_p = 0.10\gamma$ was adopted as the operating point, preserving a sharp Fano feature aligned with the red sideband while keeping the excitation amplitude adequate.

3.3.4 Coupling Detuning Optimization

With the repumper and probe powers fixed, the coupling-laser detuning Δ_c was scanned from $+6.0\gamma$ to $+13.0\gamma$.

Because the coupling field itself induces an AC Stark shift, the position of the Fano absorption maximum drifts with Δ_c : at the lower end of the scanned range ($+6.0\text{--}+8.0\gamma$) the peak falls short of the target red sideband, while the absolute height of the peak decreases monotonically with Δ_c (from about 0.0008 at $+6.0\gamma$ down to about 0.0004 at $+13.0\gamma$), which on its own would favor smaller detunings for a larger excitation amplitude. The two effects were found to balance at $\Delta_c = +9.0\gamma$, where the absorption maximum aligns with the red sideband while retaining sufficient amplitude, and where the corresponding

minimum in the off-resonant $F' = 3$ leakage spectrum — marking the EIT transparency window — is properly positioned to suppress carrier scattering. This value was therefore adopted as the operating detuning for the subsequent time-dependent simulations.

3.3.5 Cooling Dynamics with the Optimized Parameters

Combining the optimized repumper, probe, and coupling-detuning values ($\Omega_{\text{repump}} = 0.7\gamma$, $\Omega_p = 0.10\gamma$, $\Delta_c = +9.0\gamma$), the full time-dependent cooling dynamics were computed for the 24-level configuration in which both Λ -system ground states lie within $F = 2$.

With this parameter set the simulated system cools in fewer than 10^5 simulation steps, corresponding to a cooling time of approximately 2 ms — a substantial improvement over the unoptimized configuration used during the initial parameter scans, whose cooling time was around 15 ms. Obtaining this Monte Carlo trajectory for the full 24-level system required about 8 hours of computation; for comparison, the exact master-equation solver applied to the same system only reached about 70,000 simulated steps after three days of continuous running, confirming that the Monte Carlo wavefunction method is the only practical option for the complete atomic structure.

3.3.6 Cooling Dynamics with Ground States Split Across $F = 1$ and $F = 2$

The same optimization methodology was then repeated for the alternative level assignment, in which the two Λ -system ground states are split between $F = 2$ and $F = 1$ rather than both lying in $F = 2$, and the repumper instead recovers population left behind in $F = 2$. This configuration is the one that more closely matches the level structure accessible in our experimental setup, and is therefore the one carried forward into the real-parameter simulation described below.

Applying the same procedure — steady-state Fano spectrum evaluation followed by sequential optimization of the laser parameters and a Monte Carlo time evolution — yielded the optimized parameters $\Delta_c = +9\gamma$, $\Omega_p = 0.17\gamma$, $\Omega_r = 1.27\gamma$ for this configuration. As in the previous configuration, the repumper was found to be essential: without it, population is rapidly lost to uncoupled dark states and the cooling dynamics stall.

This behavior was checked explicitly by running the simulation without the repump field, at zero magnetic field, and was found to hold equally in the presence of a magnetic field — in fact, the Fano profile itself is further degraded once Zeeman shifts are included, making the repumper’s role even more important in the presence of a realistic bias field.

3.3.7 Axial-Direction Simulation with Real System Parameters

As a final step, the $F = 1/F = 2$ -split configuration was re-evaluated using the trap frequency ν and Lamb–Dicke parameter η specific to the axial direction of our experimental trap geometry, in place of the generic illustrative values used in the parameter scans above. The same sequential optimization procedure was applied to this realistic configuration, converging again on parameters close to $\Delta_c = +9\gamma$, $\Omega_p = 0.17\gamma$, $\Omega_r = 1.27\gamma$, and the resulting parameter set was then used to run the full Monte Carlo time evolution for this specific geometry.

The resulting cooling dynamics for the axial direction of our actual trap follow the same qualitative behavior established in the generic $F = 1/F = 2$ -split configuration above, confirming that the optimized EIT cooling scheme identified through the generic parameter scans remains effective once the specific trap parameters of our setup are substituted in place of the illustrative values used during the optimization stage.

Conclusions

This thesis work implemented and characterized an experimental apparatus for an Optical Dipole Trap (ODT) designed to trap a sample of ^{87}Rb atoms, which was integrated into a pre-existing setup based on a Magneto-Optical Trap (MOT) and optical molasses cooling. The ODT was realized using 1064 nm laser light coupled into a kagome Hollow-Core Photonic Crystal Fiber (HCPCF). A crucial objective of this work was the optimization and reliable light injection into the HCPCF. Standard injection procedures relying solely on power monitoring frequently resulted in light coupling into the silica jacket or into higher-order modes. To overcome this, a custom-built optical microscope was employed for near-field monitoring. On a test fiber, this approach enabled coupling into a fundamental LP_{01} -like mode with minor deformations, while also achieving $\sim 96\%$ transmission efficiency. The application of the same procedure to the HCPCF installed in the vacuum chamber yielded a final operating efficiency of $\sim 40\%$ with a partially asymmetric mode profile. This reduced performance on the in-chamber fiber is likely due to mechanical stresses applied to the fiber itself by the vacuum sealing system.

Once the ODT was operative, the experimental focus shifted to measurements inside the vacuum chamber. First, the molasses stage temperature was optimized through systematic investigation of the cooling beam detuning, the Acousto-Optic Modulator (AOM) ramp durations and amplitudes, and the cancellation of residual magnetic fields via compensation coils. These adjustments led to a minimum x - y -averaged atomic cloud temperature of $T = (9.6 \pm 0.1) \mu\text{K}$.

The final characterization focused on the atom loading efficiency from the molasses into the ODT. The spatial overlap between the atomic cloud and the ODT beam was optimized by utilizing the compensation coils during the MOT phase to displace the atomic cloud from its optimal position, thereby increasing the overlap with the ODT. The successful isolation of the trapped atom signal relied on the implementation of a higher-resolution imaging system and, most importantly, on the mitigation of the intensity noise introduced by the AOM. This enhanced the signal-to-noise ratio, enabling the correct optimization of the ODT loading process, leading to a maximum observed capture efficiency of $(0.160 \pm 0.005)\%$.

Although numerically small, the observed capture efficiency is consistent with the order of magnitude predicted by the non-shallow trap theoretical model presented in this the-

sis. Applying the experimental parameters of the molasses and the trap geometry to the model yields an expected capture efficiency of $(0.41 \pm 0.04)\%$. The agreement on the order of magnitude suggests that the primary limitations to the capture efficiency are given by the intrinsic properties of the apparatus such as the distance between the fiber facet and the MOT center, the beam geometrical properties and the ODT optical power, together with the minimum temperature achieved. However, the experimental value remains approximately one-third of the theoretical expectation. It should be investigated whether this discrepancy comes from procedural artifacts such as the $600\ \mu\text{s}$ delay between the end of the Time-of-Flight (TOF) sequence and the conclusion of the imaging flash.

Beyond addressing this discrepancy, the results obtained in this thesis establish a robust foundation for the future development of the experiment. The identification of the optimal parameters for both the optical molasses and the ODT loading sequence provides a reliable experimental baseline. This ensures that these operational stages are fully characterized and will not require fundamental recalibration in subsequent stages. Furthermore, the developed injection setup and near-field inspection protocol will be instrumental for introducing a second, counter-propagating $1064\ \text{nm}$ beam. This configuration is necessary to realize an optical conveyor belt, enabling the efficient loading and deep confinement of atoms directly within the hollow core of the HCPCF.

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